will materially increase the usefulness of the institution. The total number of indoor patients treated in the Barisál Dispensary during 1871 was 244, of whom 160 were cured or partially relieved; 37 were either not improved or ceased to attend; 28 died; and 19 persons remained in the hospital receiving treatment at the end of the year. The ratio of deaths to patients treated was 11·47 per cent., the daily average number of patients during the year being 18·42. The total number of outdoor patients who received medical relief in 1871 was 4083, the average daily attendance being 56·19. The income of the dispensary during the year was £120 from Government on account of salaries, and £144, 18s. 2d. from private subscriptions and other local sources, making a total of £264, 18s. 2d.; besides £22, 17s. 7d., being the value of European medicines supplied by Government. The expenditure during the year amounted to £289, 13s. The Pirozpur branch dispensary was established in 1865, and is under the charge of a native doctor. The institution is much appreciated by the local poor, and during 1871, 674 outdoor patients were treated, the average daily attendance being 10·89. The total income during the year amounted to £16, 2s. 6d., wholly derived from local sources, Government only supplying the European medicines to the value of £1, 16s. 8d. The native doctor is attached to the lock-up, and gives his services to the dispensary gratuitously. The Mádárípur branch dispensary was established in 1869, but is not in a flourishing condition. The financial condition was said in 1871 to be in a hopeless state, the subscriptions having fallen into arrear, and much of them being irrecoverable. The total amount collected during 1871 was only £4, 14s.; and the Civil Surgeon in his report for that year strongly recommended Government to close the dispensary till such time as the people can appreciate its benefits. The total number of patients receiving outdoor treatment from it in 1871 was 208.

GEOLOGY OF BÁKARGANJ DISTRICT.—Bákarganj is a very typical part of the alluvial delta formed by the Ganges and Brahmaputra and their feeders. It exhibits an unbroken flat, traversed by countless streams and rivers twisted into a network of channels which are for ever changing their courses. The soil consists of fine silt or sandy mud, very easily acted on, and yielding readily to the rapid currents produced by the sudden rising and falling of the rivers. These floods are due both to the masses of water which the rivers bring down from the interior during the rains, and to the strong

tides driven up by prevailing winds from the south and south-west from the Bay of Bengal.

The eastern portion of the District, lying chiefly along the Meghná river, is the highest part of the surface, and is, for the most part, well raised above ordinary floods. The western and north-western side of the District lies much lower, and a vast portion of this tract is covered by marshes and swamps. The southern face of the District lies along the shores of the Bay of Bengal, and here the ground is steadily advancing to the south, the silt held in suspension by the numerous streams being deposited as they approach the resisting mass of sea-water. Sandbanks are thus formed, and gradually raised above the water level, and then rapidly become clothed with coarse grassy jungle and trees. This vegetation forms a natural filter for every flood that passes over them, thus causing the deposit of the finer slime or mud, which is richly fertilising. When the accretions have reached this stage, the people settle on them, and cultivation commences. The whole of Bákarganj District lies within the lower delta, that is to say, within the area in which the beds of the watercourses are below the level of the sea at high water. They are, therefore, all tidal. During the freshets of the rainy season, the water in many of these streams does not actually change its course with the change of tide, but flows constantly on its surface towards the sea, although it rises and falls as in the dry season. In this lower portion of the delta, as the streams deposit their detritus, the level of their beds, with that of the adjoining ground over which they periodically overflow, gradually rises, and will continue to do so until each stream flows along the ridge of an elevated bank which it has itself built up. Some larger flood than usual then occurs, the river bursts its banks, and assumes a new course along the lower ground adjoining, while its former channel, thus raised above the general level, is deserted. In this way the Ganges has probably, at successive periods, occupied as its main channel each of the ten or twelve courses still traceable between the Húgli and its present course. But, judging from the configuration of the ground, it seems probable that if the main body of the Ganges ever flowed down the Garai, or Baleswar, or Haringhátá (for the same channel bears these different names in various parts of its course), it retained that direction for a shorter period than in its other courses. It is quite probable that a more than usually rapid accumulation of deposits at the upper

entrance of the Garai may have deflected the course of the great stream farther to the east; but it is certain that all the ground lying along the general line of the offset of the Ganges has not been nearly filled up to the general level of the ground on either side. It is along this unfilled-in depression that the immense marshes and swamps of the western and north-western side of Bákarganj occur. The Sundarban tract in Bákarganj is not by any means so extensive as in the Districts on its west. Along the banks of the branches of the Meghná, the land is cleared and cultivated almost to the very sea. Along the Haringhátá, on the other side of the District, clearings are progressing, and cultivation is now appearing wherever fresh water can be procured. The level of the sea itself is, however, not constant. Owing to the accumulation of the waters of the Indian Ocean in the Bay of Bengal by the steady action of the south-west monsoon, and to the fact that this occurs during the rainy season in Bengal, when all the streams are in flood, the level of the water along Bákarganj is often four or four and a half feet higher during the autumn than in the spring. The District being, as already stated, one dead level, the water, during this season, spreads over the whole country; and only the villages, each raised on its own little mound, stand out above the flood. These floods, however, leave behind them a thin layer of fertilising slime, which repays the peasant for the loss caused by the inundation.

ADDITIONAL NOTE.

Since the foregoing Account of Bákarganj District was printed, I have received a very valuable Special Report on the Land Tenures. It is now too late to insert it at its proper place, but I give it as an Appendix at the end of this volume.

STATISTICAL ACCOUNT

OF THE

DISTRICT OF FARÍDPUR.

STATISTICAL ACCOUNT

OF

THE DISTRICT OF FARÍDPUR.[1]

FARÍDPUR, the most westerly District of the Dacca Division, lies between 23° 54′ 55″ and 22° 47′ 53″ north latitude, and 89° 21′ 50″ and 90° 16′ east longitude. It contains an area, as returned by the Surveyor-General in 1871, of 1524·06 square miles, and a population, as ascertained by the Census of 1872, of 1,012,589 souls. The principal Civil Station, which is also the chief town of the District, is Farídpur situated on the west bank of a small stream called Marà Padmá, in 23° 36′ north latitude and 89° 52′ east longitude.

BOUNDARIES.—Farídpur District is bounded on the north and east by the Ganges or Padmá river; on the west by the Chandná,

[1] My account of Farídpur District is chiefly derived from the following sources:—(1) From the answers to my five series of questions furnished by Mr C. A. Kelly, C.S., countersigning materials drawn up by Bábu Bhuban Mohan Ráhá, Deputy Collector; (2) Account of Farídpur, printed in the Report on the History and Statistics of the Dacca Division (1868); (3) Colonel J. E. Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report on the Districts of Jessor, Farídpur, and Bákarganj (1868); (4) Bengal Census Report of 1872; (5) Report on the Food of the People, by Dr B. N. Basu, Civil Surgeon of Farídpur, dated 31st January 1873; (6) Special Report on rates of rent for different descriptions of land in each Fiscal Division of the District, dated 12th August 1872; (7) Report of Inspector-General of Police for 1871; (8) Jail Statistics, specially furnished by the Inspector-General of Jails, and Annual Jail Report for 1870; (9) Educational Statistics, compiled from the Reports of the Educational Department for 1856-57, 1860-61, 1870-71, and 1871-72; (10) Postal Statistics, specially furnished by the Director-General of Post-Offices; (11) Board of Revenue's Report of area, number of estates, amount of land revenue, &c., of each Fiscal Division in the District; (12) Area Report, and Statement of latitudes and longitudes, by the Surveyor-General; (13) Medical Report, furnished by Dr B. N. Basu, Civil Surgeon. Personal observations and inquiries.

Barásiá, and Madhumatí rivers, the two latter being merely different names for different parts of the same stream; to the south, the boundary consists of the Kumár river, and a line of swamps and marshes. Faríḍpur borders on Jessor to the west, on Pabná to the north, on Dacca to the east, and on Bákarganj to the south.

District Jurisdiction (1870).—There is no difference between the Revenue and Magisterial jurisdictions, and the limits of the Civil jurisdiction are nearly conterminous with those of the Revenue and Magisterial jurisdiction, with the exception of some parts in the north-west and south-east of the District. The alluvial accretions (*chars*) or islands of Sháhmírpur and Rámnagar in the river Padmá towards the north-west, are reported as under the Revenue and Magisterial jurisdiction of Pabná District, but within the Civil jurisdiction of Faríḍpur. Again, in the south-east, the Civil jurisdiction of Faríḍpur extends to certain villages included within the limits of the police circle (*tháná*) of Sibchar on the east bank of the Ariál Khán river, although they are under the Revenue and Magisterial jurisdictions of the Mádárípur Subdivision of the adjacent District of Bákarganj. A proposal to transfer the Mádárípur Subdivision to Faríḍpur District is now under consideration (1873). There are also several villages, situated upon the Faríḍpur side of the boundary line between it and Bákarganj, of which said villages the Criminal jurisdiction at present appertains to the latter District. Arrangements are, however, now being made which will effect the transfer of the Criminal jurisdiction of these villages to Faríḍpur, and thus get rid of the anomaly (1873).

Formation of the District.—In 1582, during the reign of the Emperor Akbar, the Province of Bengal was formed into thirty-three *sarkárs* or financial subdivisions, and Faríḍpur appears to have been included within the *sarkár* of Muhammad Abúd. Being near the seaside, it was exposed to the attacks and incursions of the Maghs, a race which at that time infested all the sea-coast from Arákán as far as the Sundarbans. It was also liable to the invasions of the Assamese, who sailed down the Brahmaputra ravaging the country on either bank. During the reign of the Emperor Sháh Jahán, these depredations were carried on to such an extent as to cause a falling off in the imperial revenue. In 1721 a new partition of the country was made, the Province of Bengal being formed into 13 large divisions (*chaklás*), instead of 33 *sarkárs*. In 1765 the financial administration of Faríḍpur, together with the rest of Bengal, was

ceded to the English, and in 1790 they assumed the actual criminal administration of the country, and the Collectors were invested with magisterial powers. In 1793 the Collectors were relieved of their magisterial duties, and separate officers were appointed, uniting in one person the functions of judge and magistrate. The greater portion of the present District was then comprised within the tract of country known as Dacca Jalálpur, the headquarters of which was at Dacca city. The magistracy of Dacca Jalálpur included not only a large portion of what is now Farídpur, but also the police sections of Jafarganj and Nawábganj to the east of the Padmá river. It did not, however, comprise the city of Dacca, which formed a separate magistracy. A portion of the existing District of Farídpur not included in Dacca Jalálpur, namely, the present police section of Bhúshná with part of Maksúdpur was included in Jessor, while Gopínáthpur Fiscal Division was included in Bákarganj. In 1811 it was deemed expedient to separate Dacca Jalálpur from the Dacca Collectorate. Courts were built at the town of Farídpur, and about the same time the tract east of the river Chandná was transferred from Jessor to Dacca Jalálpur. The jurisdiction on the east of the Padmá river was not interfered with. Subsequently the name of the District was changed from Dacca Jalálpur to its present designation of Farídpur, when the tract of country to the east of the Padmá was given up and transferred to Dacca, the Fiscal Division of Gopínáthpur being annexed to Farídpur from Bákarganj. The formation of Farídpur District, as now constituted, was not the work of any single year. But its separate existence dates from the erection of the Courts in 1811.

THE GENERAL ASPECT OF THE COUNTRY is flat, tame, and uninteresting; although in the northern tract the land is comparatively high, with a light sandy soil, covered with water during the rains, but dry during the cold and hot seasons. From the town of Farídpur the ground slopes, until in the south, on the confines of Bákarganj, it becomes one immense swamp, never entirely dry. In this tract all communication is carried on by means of boats. The soil changes from light sandy to a deep alluvial deposit or loam. The following account of the characteristic aspects of the villages is extracted from Colonel Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report:—

"In Farídpur the villages are either scattered in large clumps here and there over the plain, or extend themselves in long, and often continuous, lines. In every case, except in villages of very recent

formation, the sites are densely wooded with mango, date, betel, palm, and other trees, intermixed with bamboos, gigantic creepers, and all kinds of tropical vegetation, with huts and gardens scattered throughout the jungle. The villages are always found on the highest spots in the neighbourhood of, or on the very borders of, the marshes, or they wind through the country, following the tortuous curves of the numerous streams that intersect it in all directions, and whose banks being raised higher than the rest of the country by the annual inundation deposits, offer the best localities for building, whilst a plentiful supply of fresh water may generally be obtained during the driest season from their beds. Along many of the larger streams the line of villages is often unbroken for miles together, so much so, that it is quite impossible to identify the end of one village from the commencement of the next. The huts, except in markets and bázárs, are, however, seldom close together, but are scattered amidst small garden plots, mango, date, and betel-nut groves, *pán* gardens, &c. The plains between the villages are almost invariably more or less depressed towards the centre, where usually a marsh, or lake, or deep lagoon may be found, which doubtless once formed portions of some of the numerous outlets by which the Ganges in former days found its way to the sea. The whole country, in fact, is indented and marked with these old river beds, all indicative of the many and great changes that have operated over these tracts in times past, and which are still acting, more slowly perhaps, but as surely, in the present." During the height of the inundation of the Ganges, the whole District may be said to be under water, the artificially-raised villages in the low lands forming so many islands. The people go about in boats to keep up communication between one quarter of a village and another. The southern part of the District consists of a vast network of swamps and marshes. The villages, hidden in a dense jungle of bamboos, betel-nut palms, and other trees, are built on the highest ground, and (as above stated) form a ring round each swamp. This repeated *ad infinitum* gives a general idea of the scenery. One swamp (*bil*) is connected with another by means of a narrow water-course (*khál*), the banks of which are thickly wooded with canes and trees, so as to appear to be remnants of some primeval forest. It might naturally be supposed that a marshy region of this sort would be very sparsely populated. So far from this being the case, however, the Census Returns show it to be teeming with human

life, and the Collector makes the following remarks on this subject:—"The police circle (*thánd*) of Maksúdpur, which is situated in the very midst of this inhospitable region, shows a return of 136,069 inhabitants, or 613 persons to the square mile. The banks of the streams traversing the swamps of the south are covered by one long continuous line of densely-populated villages. The river Kumár, for instance, which winds like a huge snake all over the District, presents this spectacle, and it is much the same with the Sítal Lákhmiá, and other streams. In addition to this, the dreary and unwholesome swamps of the extreme south are themselves largely peopled by a highly interesting Chandál race. These Chandáls believe themselves to have been once a complete Hindu community, consisting of all castes from Bráhmans downwards, who, on having the misfortune to be cursed in a body by a vengeful Bráhman of great sanctity in Dacca, quitted their homes and emigrated in a body to the southern wastes of Farídpur, Jessor, and Bákarganj. There with great perseverance and toil they raised in the centre of the swamps large hillocks from twelve to twenty feet in height, whereon they built their homesteads in the dry weather in order to preserve their cattle and goods during the high inundations. In this place they are located to the present day, cultivating the swamps with rice and jute, and carrying on the occupations of fishing and bird-catching, varied with mat and basket weaving, and the cutting of grass for thatching purposes and for the consumption of their cattle. In the dry weather they often suffer considerably from scarcity of water, and at times almost die from thirst. As they do not preserve water in tanks, they are often reduced to what little they may have kept by them in their earthen vessels, and not unfrequently drink it when it has become quite thick and green. In the rains the water rises over ten feet, and leaves their artificial mounds like so many islands in a huge lake. Locomotion then becomes impossible except by boat, while they have to collect all their cattle and keep them in their homesteads, feeding them on what fodder they may have stored up during the dry season, and on a grass which, like the rice, grows with the rise of the water, and in appearance very much resembles paddy. These cattle have often to remain for days standing above their bellies in water, and as their food has to be stored up for them in the homesteads, they are fed on the minimum amount necessary to support existence. Consequently, by the end of the rainy season they are reduced to

skeletons, and very many die in the meantime. It is this that renders it impossible to introduce a larger and less hardy description of cattle. However, notwithstanding all the difficulties this Chandál community have to contend against, they are strongly attached to the home of their adoption, and resist all inducements to abandon it. Efforts, for example, have been made to transfer some of them to the Sundarbans, but with no measure of success. They prefer remaining in the region to which they have adapted themselves perseveringly and laboriously, where they are not likely to be envied in their lot, and where they can dwell together as a distinct community, with their own Bráhmans, their own priests, castes, and traditions. Their occupations, and their enforced practice of going about in boats during a great portion of the year, have rendered the Chandáls a hardy and muscular race." The Chandáls are the most numerous caste in Farídpur District, and will be again alluded to on page 285, when treating of the ethnical division of the people.

The northern part of the District has, during the last hundred years, been gradually raising itself by means of the silt deposited from the rivers. In the north there now remain only one or two large marshes which have not been thus filled up, and in them the process is seen to be rapidly going on. The Collector reports:—"If nothing occurs to obstruct the present steady operation of this consolidation (such as the streams silting up within their own banks and leaving the swamps *in statu quo*), we may look forward to see in time the present lonesome swamps of the south one after another gradually converted into high rich rice-ground, teeming with the date, *supárí*, sugar-cane, and other crops, which are now only found in any abundance in the north."

MOUNTAINS.—There are no mountains, hills, or elevated tracts of land in Farídpur District.

RIVER SYSTEM.—The large rivers of the District, which are navigable by trading-boats of four tons or a hundred *maunds* burden throughout the year, are the Padmá or Ganges, the Ariál Khán, the Madhumatí, and Barásiá. It is impossible to attempt a list of the streams navigable by boats of two tons burden during the rainy season, as at this time of the year nearly the whole country is submerged, and boats of this or even greater burden can ply over almost its whole surface. The numerous small watercourses or *kháls* with which the District is intersected in every direction, and which dry up in the cold weather and the hot season, are

all open for navigation during the rains. The following is a brief list of the larger rivers:—Most important is the GANGES or PADMÁ, forming the boundary of the District to the north and east, separating it from Pabná and Dacca. The river nowhere enters the District; it first touches its north-west corner at Bhelriá Báriá Factory, near a small village called Mirgidángá, whence it flows along the north boundary as far as Goálanda, the terminus of the Eastern Bengal Railway. At this place the Jamuná, or main stream of the Brahmáputra, flowing from the north, empties itself into the Padmá, and the united stream flows south and south-east along the eastern boundary of the District. At Goálanda, where the two great rivers meet, the current is so strong, and the eddies and whirlpools formed by the meeting of the waters so numerous, that the largest and most powerful river steamers on the Assam line are often unable to make headway, and have to lie for days at Goálanda point until the river subsides. The Collector of the District states that during the heavy rains of 1869 there were at one time no fewer than six river steamers with flats in tow lying at Goálanda unable to proceed up the Jamuná. The Ganges at present exhibits a tendency to silt up between the towns of Faríd pur and Pabná, and to seek an outlet by means of the Garai river; but as the line of drainage runs principally from north to south, and as Faríd pur would still have a large river compassing it on the east and on the west, such a change is not likely to be attended with any evil consequences. The average width of the Padmá here, navigable throughout the year by native cargo boats of the largest size and by river steamers, is estimated by Colonel Gastrell at 1600 yards. The principal branch of the Padmá is the Ariál Khán river, sometimes called the Bhubaneswar in the upper part of its course. It leaves the parent stream a few miles from the town of Faríd pur, and forms the large island known as Char Mukundiá. It first flows in a south-easterly, and afterwards in a southerly direction, finally taking its exit from the District near Mádárípur on the northern boundary of Bákarganj, at the point where the Kumár river flows into it from the west. The Ariál Khán is navigable by large native boats throughout the year, and has an average breadth during the rainy season of 1600 yards. The principal tributary of the Ariál Khán is the Nílákhí Khál, a stream which flows from the Kumár river, and runs a course of two or three miles from west to east till it falls into the Ariál Khán just below the village of Nílákhí. This stream has an average

breadth of twenty-five yards in the dry season and fifty yards in the rains. It is navigable for small boats all the year round. Another tributary of the Ariál Khán is the Kachikátá Khál, a stream running east and west, and only navigable for five months in the year.

THE CHANDNÁ RIVER forms a portion of the western boundary of Farídpur. It branches off from the Ganges or Padmá, in the extreme north-east of the District, at the village of Mirgidángá, whence it runs along the western boundary in a tortuous course, but generally from north to south, till it falls into the Garai at Maslandpur village, near the large town and mart of Sayyidpur. It has no tributaries worthy of notice. In the dry season the river has an average width of about fifty yards, and in the rains of about eighty yards. It is only open for navigation for about five months in the year. The stream has gradually silted up, and in the hot and dry seasons is almost dry in many parts of its course. From the confluence of the Chandná with the Garai, the united stream continues its course southwards to the sea along the western boundary of Farídpur, under the name of the Madhumatí, till it takes its exit from the District.

THE MADHUMATÍ is a large river, navigable all the year round by boats of considerable burden. It has an average breadth of a hundred and fifty yards during the dry season, and of two hundred yards during the rains. A great traffic is carried on by means of the Madhumatí and Garai to all parts of India, and large boats may be seen going up and down at all times of the year. It is the first navigable channel that presents itself after rounding the Sundarbans, and the banks are well defined and adapted for towing. The Barásiá river, a branch of the Madhumatí, leaves the parent stream at Goálbárí, flows to the south, and after a course of about twenty miles, again falls into the Madhumatí at Bhátiápárá within the District. It is navigable by large boats throughout the year. The tributaries of the Madhumatí are the Bankáná Khál, the Nabagangá, and the Máchiákhálí, but these streams flow into it from the neighbouring District of Jessor, and do not pass through Farídpur.

THE KUMÁR RIVER branches off from the Chandná near Kanáipur, a village a few miles from the Civil Station, and after a tortuous course, generally from north-west to south-east, leaves the District at Mádárípur, and passes into Bákarganj. The river is navigable in the rains for trading boats from its source as far as Kanáipur; and thence to Mádárípur it is navigable by small boats throughout the

year. It is reported that two branches of the Kumár river might be utilised for opening out the resources of the country. The principal branch is the Sítal Lakhmiá, which runs from Talmá Police Station, and joins the Kumár at Bhángá. This stream is navigable for large boats during the rains; but in the dry season it is not so navigable, on account of the bed having filled up in a few places between Talmá and Ajiá Gaispur, the intervening parts containing a considerable depth of water. All that is necessary to render the river navigable throughout the year is to deepen these parts. If this work was carried out, there would be open boat communication between Bhángá, a large and flourishing trading mart, and Talmá; from which point there is road communication as far as the town of Farídpur. The second branch leaves the Kumár a little above Bhángá at Bálugám; it runs through some of the large swamps that are found in the south of the District, and finally empties itself into the Madhumatí. This stream, like the one alluded to above, only requires to be deepened in places. If it were made navigable for boats all the year round, a communication would be opened between the station of Farídpur and Gopálganj, another important mart. The stream, if opened out, would also afford an easy passage for boats going to Calcutta by way of the Sundarbans, which have now to proceed through Bákarganj District. The deepening of the Bálugrám Khál, as this branch of the Kumár is called, would moreover drain two or three large swamps, and enable a quantity of marsh land to be reclaimed. The Collector of the District in 1867, who makes these suggestions (pages 199, 200, of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" —Farídpur Section), states that the landlord of that part of the country is fully alive to the advantages likely to accrue from opening up the stream, and is willing to bear half the expense of the work. The minor tributaries of the Kumár are the Marú Padmá, which flows into it at Kanáipur, and the Hazrákhálí, a branch of the Chandná, which empties itself into it higher up.

ALLUVION AND DILUVION.—All the rivers mentioned above, but more particularly the Padmá, are subject to constant alluvion and diluvion on a large scale. The number of alluvial accretions and sandbanks formed by the rivers, and afterwards cut away and deposited in another spot, is very great. The following list shows a few of the most important cases of alluvion which have taken place in the District during recent years:—(1) Char Panchás Hazárí;

this alluvion commenced to form about 1826. (2) Char Khánpurá, commencing from Parnáráyánpur, and terminating at Kásináthpur; commenced to form about 1834. (3) Rájás Char, commencing from Das Hazárí and terminating at Kosábhángá; commenced to form about the year 1854. (4) Char Dattapárá, commencing from the village of the same name on the river Ariál Khán, and terminating at Samáil. (5) Char Sonásir Tek, extending from Char Bandarkholá to Burhánganj; (6) Char Jamálpur, extending from Asápur to Jamálpur. (7) Char Láujáná, extending from Asápur to Mathurápur. Instances of diluvion are quite as numerous. It appears that the river Padmá, from Krishnapur, is at present cutting its west bank; but higher up, the current sets against the east bank, which is there being washed away. The principal cases of diluvion which have occurred of late years are the following:—(1) A tract of land called Taraf Balair, in the Police Section of Belgáchhí, in the north of the District, consisting of seventeen villages, was completely washed away by the Padmá in the course of two or three years. (2) Taraf Betká, in the Police Section of the same name on the Padmá, about ten miles north-west of the station of Farídpur, consisting of seven or eight villages. (3) Taraf Krishnanagar, in the Police Section of Belgáchhí, consisting of three or four villages. (4) Almost the whole of the Fiscal Division of Char Hai Mádhabdiá; (5) and the greater portion of Pátposar Fiscal Division, have been also washed away by the Padmá. Not a trace of two large villages in Hákimpur Fiscal Division, named Syámnagar and Kálínagar, is now to be found, as they were entirely washed away by the current of the Padmá about twelve years since. A great portion of the Fiscal Division of Kásimnagar has also been destroyed in the same manner.

CHANGES IN RIVER CHANNELS.—There is a tradition in the District that formerly the Ganges or Padmá took a southerly direction at Salímpur, a village about twenty-five miles north of the town of Farídpur, and after running by Kanáipur, flowed towards the east, and discharged itself into the present Padmá below the Civil Station, which was then but a narrow stream, and not the main channel of the river. This old channel has now silted up, and is known by the name of the Marí Padmá. About thirty or forty years ago, the *bandar* or bázár of Madhukhálí village was situated on the south bank of the river Chandná. The stream suddenly changed its course, and began to flow past the south of the bázár. The market-

place has since been again removed to the south bank of the river. About sixteen or seventeen years ago, Baikunthpur was situated on the north bank of the Chandná, but the river has since then changed its course, and it is now situated on the south bank. Such changes in the channel are of almost yearly occurrence in the Padmá. This river, indeed, has now several channels, flowing between constantly shifting sandbanks and small islands. To give any idea of the changes in the channels is simply impossible; sometimes one channel being navigable, and sometimes another.

The Ganges is now endeavouring to obtain a straight main channel to the sea by means of the Garai river, with its continuation the Madhumatí and Haringhátá rivers. The following account of the changes going on is very slightly condensed from Colonel Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report of the Districts of Jessor, Faríd-pur, and Bákarganj, and although the remarks do not exclusively apply to Faridpur District, they may fitly be introduced here. The Garai diverges from the Ganges at Kushtiá, and follows a south-easterly course more or less tortuous as far as Maslandpur, where the Chandná river falls into it. Thence the united stream flows southwards, but with many windings in its upper reaches, first as the Madhumatí, and afterwards as the Haringhátá, under which name it falls into the Bay of Bengal. This is the great route for river steamers between Calcutta and the North-Western Provinces during the dry season, and when the Nadiyá rivers are closed. The flow of water from the Ganges down this great water-way is steadily increasing. In 1828 the Garai at Kushtiá was only 600 feet broad. But when, in 1854-55, it was surveyed by Mr Pemberton, Revenue Surveyor, the average breadth of its upper reaches, from the village of Bahádurkhálí to that of Ráipur, was 1320 feet; at the entrance it was 1400 feet, which in subsequent years increased to 1560 feet. It has therefore more than doubled its discharging power since 1828. These are, it should be remarked, the breadths of the river during high floods. At times, when the Jamuná or Brahmaputra river is in full flood, it dams up the Ganges, and still further increases the flow of water down the Garai, which forms at such times the principal outlet for the Ganges waters into the sea. The banks of the stream are mostly high and precipitous in the upper reaches, but gradually decrease in height to the south, until reaching the police station of Kachuá, below which the river overflows its banks during high spring tides in

many places. The water is sweet and excellent till within a few miles of the sea, and of sufficient depth for ships of large size as far as Kachuá. The changes that have taken place in this river since Rennell's survey during the last century, can best be judged of by reference to the maps. Then the Garai was very small, and the chief tract for boats from the Ganges into the Madhumatí was *viâ* the Chandná river, which branches off south from the Ganges about twenty-six miles below the Garai. The Chandná is now a very insignificant stream; is silting up fast; and, with the exception of pools here and there, is dry in the summer months.

The Ganges, between the Garai entrance at Kushtiá and its junction with the Jamuná, between Jafarganj and Eláchipur, has straightened its course considerably, and appears inclined to do so still more. But still it is a question whether it is not silting up entirely between the Faridpur and Pabná Districts. Speaking of the action of the Jamuná or Brahmaputra (the Junái of old maps), in silting up and driving back the Ganges, Mr Fergusson thus writes in the *Quarterly Journal* of the Geological Society in August 1863:—"It was so nearly successful, that in 1838 the great Ganges was fordable at several places above the junction; . . . and it must have been successful if the Ganges had been able to find another outlet." It certainly had silted up considerably, and was again fordable in parts when the survey was progressing in these Districts. And if this action continues, then the Garai will probably become the principal outlet for the Ganges waters, and, during the dry months, the most easterly one also. If such a contingency occurs, it would very materially increase the value and importance of the Eastern Bengal Railway extension from Kushtiá to Goálanda; for if the present route for boats between the Jamuná and the Garai closed, they would be obliged to go round by the Sundarbans *viâ* Barisál, a difficult and tedious route at any time, and especially so in the months when north-westers are prevalent on the great Meghná, or they must unload and send all goods by rail.

The only influence that now seems to operate in preventing the Ganges from being driven back by the Jamuná, and forced into another course, is thus mentioned by Mr Fergusson, viz., that although the rise and fall of the Brahmaputra takes place earlier than the same phenomena in the Ganges, "the consequence being that for the first month of the inundation the water in the Ganges above Jafarganj almost flows backwards, and the Ichhámatí at Pabná

flows into the Ganges instead of out of it, and during this season the deposit in its bed is very considerable;" yet that, "during the last months of the rains, when the waters of the Brahmaputra have nearly run off, the immense body of water spread over the vast plains of Hindustán rushes into the partially-deserted bed of the Brahmaputra, which then acts as a water reservoir, with a force that to a great extent clears out the deposit of the earlier months, and so restores the equilibrium." This state of antagonism between the two rivers will continue until the Ganges has opened a sufficiently large outlet for herself by the Garai, or other streams still farther to the west. When she has done that, should there then be two or three years of long duration of floods in the Brahmaputra, and of early cessation of the Ganges floods, we shall no doubt see the latter river beaten in the contest, and, unable to clear out the deposit of the earlier months, retire from the field.

Below the extreme eastern point of the Eastern Bengal Railway extension at Goálanda, the changes in the courses of the joint streams Ganges, Brahmaputra, and Meghná, have, ever since Rennell's time, and no doubt long before, been constant, and are still going on. Between that point and the sea, immense islands or *chars* are annually thrown up in one place, and washed away in others. Large portions of the country on both banks are still unconsolidated, and being covered only by grass or reed jungle, are easily acted upon by the flood waters. Indeed it was often difficult for surveyors to recognise the country that had been surveyed by them only the year before. A comparison of the two maps of 1764–72 and 1847–63 will show what changes have actually occurred in that interval. The most important change appears to be where the joint streams Ganges and Brahmaputra forced their way into the Meghná, between Rájbárí and Rájnagar, partially deserting the old channel shown between Rájnagar and Bhadreswar in Rennell's map, and thus bringing the waters of the Brahmaputra, reinforced by those of the Ganges, again into direct antagonism with those of the Meghná. But here also the Meghná, being first in the field, has hitherto obliged the Brahmaputra and Ganges to seek another outlet. This they have done by forcing a passage down the Bhubaneswar river (the Hároilla river of Rennell), entering the old channel of the Ariál Khán river again at Mádáripur. Many years must yet pass ere this part of the country will be sufficiently consolidated to control and restrain the courses of these rivers within

permanent limits. On the Tipperah side, the country generally, down to the Dákátiá river, being well wooded and firm, offers considerable resistance to the action of the tremendous floods of these great rivers. This forces them, as one river or the other prevails, to cut out new channels in the softer and more recent deposits of the Bákarganj District on the opposite side.

The banks of the rivers in the District are generally high and abrupt on one side, and shelving on the other. The beds of the rivers Padmá, Chandná, Madhumatí, and Barásiá are sandy; that of the Kumár being of clay and vegetable mould. This vegetable mould is formed of a species of water-weed called Pátá Sáolá, which is used in the manufacture of sugar. The banks of the Farídpur river are, for the most part, cultivated, and dotted with numerous villages, sometimes extending in a continuous line for many miles. The alluvial accretions (*chars*) formed by the Padmá are generally covered with jungle on the Farídpur side of the river, but on the opposite bank they are cultivated, and contain numerous villages, apparently densely populated. The Ganges or Padmá has formed numerous islands in its course along the boundary of this District, of which the following are the principal, with their approximate area:—(1) Ujáin Char, area about 9179 acres; (2) Char Teprákándí, area about 5127 acres; (3) Char Nasírpur, area about 11,735 acres; and (4) Char Bhadrásan, area about 7340 acres. The rivers in this District nowhere enter the earth by any subterraneous course, nor do they anywhere expand into large lakes. None of them have a bore. The rivers Ariál Khán, Padmá, Kumár, and Madhumatí, in the south and south-east of the District, are affected by the tide, but very slightly, and in some places it is scarcely perceptible. During the rainy season, not a single river in the District is fordable, but in the dry season there are numerous fords on the Chandná and Kumár rivers. The Padmá, Madhumatí, and Ariál Khán are not fordable at any time of the year at any place throughout their entire course within the District.

MARSHES, INLAND LAKES, &c.—The marshes in the District are too numerous to be mentioned in detail, but the following is a list of the most important:—(1) The Dhol Samudra, situated a short distance to the south-east of the Civil Station. During the height of the rains this marsh expands into a lake, the water extending to near the houses of the town. At that season it is about eight miles in circumference, but in the cold weather it gradually dwindles,

and in the hot season is only a mile or two in circumference. It is navigable only during the rains. (2) Bil Patiá, in the Fiscal Division of Belgáchhí, is about three miles in length by two in breadth, and is only navigable during the rainy season. (3) Bil Hátimohan, about two and a half miles in length by two in breadth; not navigable in the dry weather. (4) Bil Rankolí, in the Fiscal Division of Sátor, is about fifteen miles in length and six miles in breadth; not navigable in the dry season. It contains several villages within it, built on artificially-raised sites. (5) The Nasibsháhí marsh, in the Fiscal Division of the same name, is about sixteen miles long and six miles broad, but, like the others mentioned above, is only navigable during the rains. It also contains artificially-raised villages within its limits. In the southern part of the District the marshes are too numerous to mention; and, in fact, the whole of the tract comprised within the jurisdiction of the police circle (*tháná*) of Maksúdpur is one vast swamp, with isolated strips of dry land during the dry season. Within this swamp are several artificially-raised mounds, inhabited by Chandáls, a low caste of Hindus, who keep up communication from village to village, and often from house to house, by boat, for the greater part of the year. The principal marshes in the south of the District are the Mottar Bil, Chandra Bil, and Bakhshir Bil. The average annual loss of life by drowning in Farídpur District for the six years ending 1869 is stated to be 105.

RIVER TRAFFIC.—The following towns, or rather large trading marts, situated on the river banks, are inhabited by a community which mainly lives by river traffic:—Bhandáriá, Khánkhánápur, Mukundiá, Deolí, Lakhmíkul, Chhaddarasí, Sadrpur, and Goálanda, on the banks of the Padmá; Rámdiá, Baharpur, Arkándí, Jamálpur, Mathurápur, Madhukhálí, and Kámárkhálí, on the banks of the Chandná; Sayyidpur and Boálmárí, on the Barásiá; Kanáipur, Dhobádángá, Kháskándi, Rámdiá, Golá Jainagar, and Bhángá, on the Kumár; and Gopálganj, Bhatiápárá, and Pátghátí, on the Madhumatí. Rice, tobacco, salt, cotton, oil, linseed, mustard, sugar, molasses, cloth, pulses, jute, onions, piece goods, iron, tin, copper, coal tar, mustard oil, brass, brass and copper manufactured utensils, and timber of various kinds, are the principal articles of river traffic, which forms the chief support of these towns or markets. The non-navigable rivers and streams in the District are nowhere applied as a motive power for turning mills, nor have they any descents or rapids sufficient to render it likely that they could be

so utilised by the formation of dams or weirs. Indeed, since the closing of the indigo factories of the District, the Collector states that he is not aware of any mill being in existence in the District worthy of notice. The water of the rivers, watercourses, and marshes is nowhere utilised for the purposes of irrigation.

FISHERIES are extensively carried on in Farídpur, and contribute in no small degree to its material wealth. Farídpur may be termed without impropriety a fishing District, and it is generally supposed (reports the Collector), that a traffic to the extent of £20,000 is annually carried on in the produce of the fisheries. Fishermen from the neighbouring Districts of Dacca and Pabná, as well as those resident in Farídpur, take every year leases of certain portions of the rivers for catching *hilsá*, *rui*, *kátlá*, *dháin*, *páṅgás*, and other large fish, which yield them a considerable profit. The following is a list of a few of the principal fisheries of the District, with the estimated value of the traffic carried on in the produce:—(1) Jalkar Islámpur, in the north, extending from the town of Goálanda to Bhuluábárí westwards; estimated value of traffic about £2500 a year. (2) Jalkar Girdbhátí, extending from Goálanda to Icháil Sibrámpur; annual traffic about £3000. (3) Jalkar Mehmúdpur, extending from Icháil Sibrámpur to Chándpur; annual traffic about £200. (4) Jalkar Mubárakpur Ujáil, extending from Chándpur to Krishnapur; annual traffic about £2500. (5) Jalkar Char Mukundiá, extending from Ráotir Dhálá to Das Hazárí; annual traffic value about £300. (6) Jalkar Nárikholá, extending from Das Hazárí to Nílákhí Khál; traffic about £500. With regard to the fisheries in the marshes in the southern part of the District, the following account is extracted from Colonel Gastrell's Survey Report, before alluded to:—"These *jhils*, and the streams that traverse them, afford also an inexhaustible supply of various kinds of fish, crabs, and prawns to the various local markets. At certain seasons of the year, no small quantity of the fish is conveyed to the Calcutta and other markets along the canal or Sundarban routes, by which all the traffic in boats is carried on between the eastern Districts and the metropolis. The fishes in this case are stored in reservoirs constructed in the middle of the boat, and closed by a grating at bottom, through which a constant and fresh supply of water is afforded. The boats are well manned and swift, and are pulled day and night. The fishermen cast the dead and dying fish overboard *en route*, and by these

means keep a considerable percentage alive, and in a fair condition for market."

The following list of edible fishes of the Faríḍpur District is condensed from a Report by Dr Basu, Civil Surgeon of Faríḍpur, dated 31st January 1873. I trust to him for the scientific names; but a more systematic account will be given in a separate volume, by the Inspector-General of Fisheries. The only sea fish which visits the District is the *bhetkí* or *bhekti*, known locally as the *koráil máchh*. It attains a length, when full grown, of between four and five feet, weighing from 80 to 100 lb. Smaller sizes are common in May or June. The following are the principal river fishes, many of which, however, also inhabit the marshes and tanks, where they find their way during the inundation, or are placed there. Several varieties of scaleless or almost scaleless fishes (order *Siluridæ*) are found in Faríḍpur. Of these, the *boál* often attains a large size, from three to four feet long. It is one of the most voracious of fresh-water fish, subsisting chiefly on crustacea and small fry of all kinds; hence it is dreaded in tanks where fish are preserved. Its flesh is white, coarse, and almost tasteless. The *páḅdá* is a small flat fish, with a white, smooth, shining skin, and a rich, delicate flavour. It is one of the best-tasted of the scaleless tribe, and a wholesome table fish, procurable nearly all the year round. The *chital* is a large flat fish, very oily, full of bones, and far from wholesome, although much prized by the natives of the eastern Districts; the same remark applies to its dwarf representative, the *pholui*. Other varieties of scaleless fishes are the *áir*, *páor*, *páṅgás*, and *dháin*, which constitute a considerable part of the fish diet of the lower orders. The *áir* is composed almost entirely of muscular fibre, but the other species are fat, and possess a rich flavour.

The herring family (*Clupeidæ*) supplies a number of species, such as *phánsá*, *hilsá*, and *chelá*. They have white shining scales, are very bony, and are provided with an air bladder. The two first only inhabit the rivers; the third is also found in tanks and other stagnant water. The *phánsá* is mostly found during the dry season, but the other kinds may be had nearly throughout the year. The most valuable of these fish is the *hilsá*, which is captured in vast numbers during the rains when ascending the streams to spawn; that which is not used for local consumption being salted for export to Calcutta and elsewhere. The mullet tribe of fishes (*Mugilidæ*) is represented by the *khorsolá*, which is to be had in good con-

dition all the year round; it is a rich, delicious fish. From the perch family (*Percidæ*) is derived the well-known *tapsí máchh*, or mango-fish, so called from the season in which it is principally procured. Only a few are caught in the rivers in the north of the District, but they are said to be more common in the streams to the south-west. The *bholá* fish belongs to the cod family (*Gadidæ*). It is generally about a foot long, has few bones, and is well flavoured, but is little thought of by the natives. The carp family (*Cyprindæ*) have several representatives in the District. The most common species are the following:—The *rui*, one of the best of Indian fishes, ordinarily grows to a length of about three feet; it has a small mouth, short, stout head, and reddish-brown scales. The *kátlá* is also a much-prized fish, and is distinguished by its large head, a wide mouth, and pale-bluish scales. It is a gregarious fish, and found swimming in shoals in open water just below the surface. The *káibosh* is a sweet-flavoured fish, with a small mouth, narrow muzzle, and black scales. The *mirgal* is generally found in the muddy bottoms of rivers or tanks, and sometimes attains a length of from five to six feet. Among shell-fish (*Crustacea*), the *galdá chingri*, or cray-fish, abounds in all the rivers. Vast quantities are caught in the inundated fields at the close of the rains, and contribute largely to the food of the people.

The varieties of fish only found in the still water of marshes and tanks are the following:—*Mágur*, a fish about a foot in length, with a large head, a thick and black scaleless skin, abounds in all still water, especially in weedy swampy places. It has a delicate flavour, and is much sought after by the natives. The *singi*, or horned fish, so called from a sting it inflicts when incautiously handled. It resembles the *mágur* in every respect, excepting that it is slenderly formed, and fond of very muddy situations. The *chelá* fish is found in shoals swimming on the surface of all tanks. It is a very greedy fish, and a most useful scavenger in water where much washing and bathing is carried on. Two species of *punti* fish are found, one about a couple of inches long, and the other often attaining a foot in length, the former variety being the most common and numerous. The *látá* fish likewise includes two varieties, the *látá* and *saul*, the one usually measuring nine inches, and the other three feet, or even more. They are very solitary in their habits, and abound in all swampy places. Their flesh is not much esteemed. The *kai* and *khalisá* both belong to the order of walking-fishes.

They possess a peculiar saculated structure in the pharynx, which can be filled with water, and by this means they are enabled to perform tolerably long migrations on land in search of a new habitat. They are to be found in greater or less abundance in all stagnant waters. The *kai* is a rich, delicious fish, and accordingly highly prized. It is greatly esteemed as a restorative after sickness, and is administered in the form of soup or broth until the sick person grows sufficiently strong to eat it well fried. It is a small, dark-coloured, greenish fish, purse-mouthed, with two long spines projecting from the upper mandibles, and sharp spines on the gills and upper fin, which latter is very large in proportion to the size of the fish. The *chándá* is a small, round, bony fish, not much valued. The *báliá* is a small fish, very common, and not in great demand. Two kinds of eels, the *báin* and *pánkál*, are found everywhere in old, muddy-bottomed waters. The common *chingri*, or shrimp, abounds. As before mentioned, I trust to Dr Basu for the nomenclature.

METHODS OF CATCHING FISH.—The following are the common nets:—(1) *Mahá jál*, a trawl-net dragged in deep water along the bottom by fishing-boats; its size is about 25 feet long at the top, and 35 feet at the bottom, by 15 feet deep. (2) *Koná jál*, a long funnel-shaped net, with a valvular arrangement at the wide end, dragged along by boats as the last; it is usually from five to six hundred feet long. (3) *Báyer jál*, a deep seine net. (4) *Chhándi jál*, also a seine net, but not very deep, nor buoyed up by floats; used for all small fish. (5) *Dorá chhándi*, like the foregoing, but with thicker and wider meshes, and intended for *hilsá* and other large fish. (6) *Kheplá jál*, a circular net, with weights attached to the circumference, and which is thrown out on to the water by the hand; it is used for all kinds of fish, and is pulled up by a string tied to the centre, the weights attached to the net gradually coming together, and preventing the escape of the fish. (7) *Khárá jál*, a triangular net attached to a bamboo pole, and of which the broad end is dipped in the water and suddenly raised, somewhat similar to an English shrimping-net. (8) *Bhesál jál*, a net similar to the above, but larger, and dragged by a boat. (9) *Dharma jál*, a square net, with a cross arched frame over it. (10) *Sanghá jál*, a drift net shaped like a bag, the mouth of which is armed with a bamboo rib acting like jaws, and closing by a drop or weight at the pleasure of the fisherman; it is dragged along the

bottom. (11) *Khorkí jál*, a net similar to the above, but smaller, and not dragged along the bottom. (12) *Chák jál*, a circular hand-net, surrounded with a bamboo frame, and dragged by the hand in shallow water. (13) *Cháp jál*, a cylindrical hand-net, used for shallow-water fishing. (14) *Hochá jál*, a triangular hand-net, used as above. (15) *Sotá jál*, a funnel-shaped net, set with stakes in a place where there is a current. Numerous bamboo traps are also used for catching fish, of which the principal are the following :— *Khádán*, *bánd*, *arinde*, *chárá*, *rávan*, *tupá*, *duár*, *bonchne*, *ghansi*, *paran*, *chai*, *nai*, and *phánsí*. Another mode, often resorted to for catching fish, is a mud embankment on either side of a *khál* or creek, constructed so as to limit the current to a narrow mid-space, which is closely staked with bamboo or wicker work sufficiently high to prevent the fish from jumping over. The embankments at the side are low, and the fish finding themselves crowded in the narrow space, leap over these into pits dug to receive them, and are easily captured. Rod and spear fishing is common, and in shallow pools drying up, fish are caught by the hand.

No fishing towns, properly so called, exist in Farídpur District, but the under-mentioned villages are largely inhabited by the fishing castes, namely—Dayárámpur, Kancharandá, Rákhálgáchhí, and Pánair, on the river Padmá; Rádhákántpur, on the Jaldángá *bil;* Alípur, on the Singair *bil;* Betangá and Maslandpur, on the Chandná river; Bhor Rámdiá, on the Hátimohan *bil;* Goálbárí, Hauslá, Napárá, and Satásí, on the Barásiá river; Rupápát, on the Kumár river; and Mubárakdiá, on the Ichhámatí *bil.* The Collector, in 1870, estimated the fishing population of Farídpur at about 1·56 per cent. of the whole population. His estimate, however, proves to have been considerably too low, as the Census disclosed a total of 29,297 persons, or 2·89 per cent. of the total population as belonging to Hindu fishing and boating castes. This is altogether exclusive of the Muhammadans, who form the majority of the population, and it may be fairly estimated that five per cent. of the total population of Farídpur District live by fishing. Besides the resident fishermen, however, there are a large but unascertained number of persons of the fishing class who come every year to Farídpur from the neighbouring Districts of Dacca and Pabná. Dr Basu, the Civil Surgeon, in his Report before referred to, states that the natives of this part of the country are the most regular fish-eaters to be found anywhere in India. All classes here consume fish, and even Vaishnavs and

Hindu widows, who usually abstain from it elsewhere, where fish is scarce, eat it in this District. The quantity of fish consumed cannot be ascertained, but it forms a large part, if not the greater part, of the food of the people. In certain seasons, when fish is unusually numerous and abundant, the lower classes may be said to almost live on this diet for months together. During the *hilsá* season, which generally lasts from April to July, a large salting business is carried on upon the banks of the Padmá, for the export of this fish to Calcutta and other distant markets. No other fish is so treated, and none is smoked or dried. The abundance of oil which the *hilsá* contains, and which it gives out freely in cooking, is sometimes carefully collected by the poorer classes to cook their food with in other seasons, as well as for burning purposes Notwithstanding the enormous quantities of fish captured every year, the supply does not appear to be diminishing. Dr Basu, who has had fifteen years' local experience, states that the markets have always appeared to be fully supplied, and sometimes glutted. In the *hilsá* season of 1872, the quantity of that fish brought to market so far exceeded the demand for some time, that a considerable part had to be thrown away at the close of each day's sale.

MARSH RECLAMATION AND CULTIVATION.—No rivers or marshes have been embanked in Farídpur with a view to the extension of cultivation. The Collector is of opinion that the marshes, if properly drained by cutting watercourses to connect them with the rivers, can be reclaimed, but it would involve a very great expenditure. The river banks do not produce any reeds or canes, nor does the Collector think they have any capabilities for doing so. The constant alluvion and diluvion going on in them, with the exception of the Kumár, and the strength of the current during the rainy season, renders it (he thinks) unlikely they could be utilised as reed or cane producing grounds. With respect to the marshes in the south of the District, however, the case is different; they produce both canes and reeds very largely, and an extensive trade in mats manufactured from them is carried on throughout the District, chiefly by the Chandáls, a low caste of the Hindus. The marshes abound in wildfowl, and are productive in other ways, thus described at page 21 of Colonel Gastrell's Report:—"Besides being remunerative in fish and fowl, these marshes afford employment to many of the poorer classes, in mat and basket making, in cutting grass and *hoglá* (a broad-leafed flag) for roofs, &c., and in collecting mussels

and snails, from the shells of which the lime is made which is eaten by the natives with *pán* and betel-nut. Large quantities of these crustacea are annually collected from the marshes, and laid out on the banks of the streams until decomposition enables those who collect them to extract the inmates more easily from their shells. Excellent clay is also found in many parts along the banks, from which the potters make the largest kind of earthen pots for packing fish and holding grain and water, measuring ordinarily from four to four and a half feet high by nine or ten feet in circumference."

LONG-STEMMED RICE is also pretty extensively cultivated in the marshes and swamps of the District. The stem increases in length in proportion to the increase of the water on the land in which it is grown; that is to say, it rises with the rise of the water, and ceases to grow as the water ceases to rise. This variety of rice can be grown in water to a depth of eighteen feet. The following are the names of the principal twenty-four varieties of long-stemmed rice cultivated in Farídpur:—*Bághá, lepá, mahishkándi, báliábet, bán sámartha, Lakshmí-dighá, dudh kalam, Lakshmí-kájal, malaj, rángí-nalaj, jhul, dulái, bágráil, dal-kachu, gílá-máitá, gáb-ruá, bhojan-karpur, bayrá, káláburá, gandha kasturí, pitti-ráj, máitchál, kách kalam*, and *bara dighá*.

LINES OF DRAINAGE.—During the rainy season, the District is flooded with water, principally from the north and west, by numerous little *kháls*, or watercourses, such as the Madhupur Khál, Napárá Khál, Kaonáir Khál, Ratandiá Khál, Mátlákhálí, &c. These watercourses fall into the marshes of Nasibsháhí and Mahimsháhí, which are connected with the Kumár river by the Hazrákhálí and other small streams and watercourses. The river flows in a southerly direction, and after many windings finds it way into the Ariál Khán at Mádárípur, in the extreme south-east of the District. The southern marshes are for the most part filled with water by the Nílákhí Khál, which connects them with the Ariál Khán and Padmá on the east, and by the Dhobádángá Khál, Boálmárí Khál, and Ghorákhálí, which connect them with the Barásiá river on the west. In September, when the waters of these streams begin to diminish, the marshes are drained by the same watercourses and streams through which the water enters into them, and also by numerous small channels which connect them with the Kumár.

NO MINERAL PRODUCTS, such as coal, metals, lime, or building stone, are found in the District. Pearls were obtained some years

ago from the Kumár river; they were found in the shell of a species of mussel, and the shells, after the extraction of the pearls, were burnt and converted into lime. The Collector in 1867 reported that the pearl-fishery on the Kumár river yielded about £400 or £500 a year. No caverns, hot springs, or striking phenomena, except the vast rivers and swamps, are found in the District.

NO IMPORTANT REVENUE-YIELDING FORESTS, or wild vegetable productions of marketable value, are found in Faríḍpur, nor any marketable jungle products or uncultivated pasture grounds. Among dyes, *sati* is the only wild plant which has any marketable value. A red powder, called *ábir*, largely used by the Hindus during the *Hulí* festival, is manufactured from the root of this plant. The following medicinal plants grow wild in the District:—*Báblá* (acacia); *mádár* (calotropis); *bhát* (clerodendrom); *anantamúl* (hemidesmus Indicus); *haritaki* (chebula); *chiretá* (agatholes); *dhai phul* (grisla tomentosa); *kaládás* (pharbitis); *dhuturá*; and *kshetrapatpati*. [I trust for the names to the Collector.] No class in Faríḍpur subsists by trading in jungle products.

FERÆ NATURÆ, &c.—The larger sorts of wild animals found in the District consist of buffaloes, leopards, and pigs. The latter swarm in almost all the villages in the north-west and south of the country, and do considerable damage. Their numbers of late years have increased to such an extent that the Collector expresses his opinion, that unless prompt measures are taken for their destruction, many of the villages of the District will be given back to the jungle. In some villages the outlying lands cannot find cultivators, owing to the depredations of wild hogs. The villagers have not yet learnt self-help, and seldom destroy these animals, which are allowed to breed and multiply undisturbed. The small village leopard, not the panther, is to be found throughout the District, and on the islands and sandbanks in the Padmá. Wild buffaloes are common during the cold season. The average expenditure by Government on keeping down wild animals during the six years ending 1869 amounted to only 17s. 6d. per annum. No rewards have ever been given in this District for snake-killing. The average recorded number of deaths from wild beasts and snake-bite during the six years ending 1869 amounted to 142 per annum. The smaller varieties of game consist of hares, porcupines, wild geese, wild ducks of various sorts, snipe, curlew, teal, quails, dove, *hariál* or green pigeon, &c. A list of the principal fishes has been already given. No trade is

carried on in wild-beast skins, and, with the exception of the fisheries, the *feræ naturæ* are not made to contribute in any way towards the wealth of the District.

Population.—No regular and systematic Census exists for Faríd-pur District before the year 1872. Formerly it was the custom to call for a return from every police station in the District of the number of inhabitants within its jurisdiction, the figures being filled in by the Police Inspectors. These returns, however, were little better than guess-work, and were formed on no fixed principle. At the time of the Revenue Survey of the District in 1856-63, a rough Census was made by the Civil Officers and employés of the Demarcation Establishment. The number of houses was counted as nearly as could be, and allowing on an average five souls to each house, a general and approximate return of the population of the District was arrived at. The result of the Census was as follows:—Number of masonry houses, 350; number of mud and thatch houses, 124,732; population, 409,995 souls. In 1869, in compliance with instructions conveyed in a Resolution of the Government of Bengal dated 11th November 1868, and a Circular from the Registrar-General dated the 23d of the same month, an experimental Census was taken of certain villages in the District, in order to accustom the people to the idea of a general Census subsequently. Two circles were formed, namely, the Kanáipur Circle in the centre, and the Belgáchhí Circle in the north of the District, the former tract consisting of six, and the latter of nine villages. The Census of these two circles was taken on the same day, the enumeration in the Kanáipur tract being conducted by the superior landlords of the place and their officers, with the assistance of some officers from the Collector's Court; while that of Belgáchhí was taken by the Police Inspector stationed there, with the co-operation of the superior landlord of Hamdínpur. The following was the result of the Census:—Nine villages of Belgáchhí—number of houses, 922; population, 2071 males and 1918 females; total, 3989; average number of souls per house, 4·33. Six villages in Kanáipur—area, 5360 acres; number of houses, 924; population, 1321 males and 1339 females; total, 2660; average number of souls per house, 2·88; average number of souls per acre, ·5.

Census of 1872.—A careful Census of the District was taken, by authority of Government, in the early part of 1872. The enumeration was made by village heads (*mátabbars*), police officers,

Magistrates' clerks, and other respectable natives selected by the Magistrate, the Census being taken simultaneously throughout the District on the night of the 15th January. It disclosed a total population of 1,012,589 souls, inhabiting 157,518 houses, the pressure of population being an average of 677 persons per square mile. The population is thickest in the northern part of the District, the southern part being swampy, and almost entirely inundated for a large part of the year. The police circle of Deorá, however, in the south-east of the District, is the most populous of all; it is intersected by two large rivers, the banks of which are high, and crowded with an immense population. The headquarters police circle has fewer inhabitants than might have been expected. The Magistrate and Collector of the District, Mr W. S. Wells, thus remarks on the distribution of the people in the several police circles:—"Faridpur police circle has only a population of 558 per square mile, but this is accounted for by a large portion of its area being covered by the lake, Dhol Samudra. Deorá *thánd* is reported to possess 947, and Bhúshná 846 inhabitants to the square mile. These two are the most densely populated police circles (*thánás*) in the District, but are physically very different from each other—the former lying in the inundated tract, whereas the latter is comparatively dry. Through Deorá run the Kumár and Sítal Lakhmiá, the former meandering all over the police circle, and these rivers join at Bhángá. Throughout their length their banks are covered by one continuous village, thickly peopled. Bhángá is a large and important town, the principal seat of commerce in the District, situated on the highroad to Calcutta from the whole of Eastern Bengal, and a place where much produce changes hands. The banks of the Barásiá, in Bhúshná, are densely populated, and although Sayyidpur has lost much of its former importance and notoriety as a great centre of trade, it is still a village which extends for miles. The comparative sparseness of the population in the police circle of Gopálganj results from this country being to a large extent covered by water all the year round, and nowhere, except in the immediate proximity of the Madhumatí, is the land not immersed several feet during the prevalence of the annual inundation. That the rich and high country to the north about Goálanda and Pángsá should possess a population of 767 and 717 respectively to the square mile, is not surprising. The Census, it must be borne in mind, was taken towards the

close of the cold weather, at a time when the paddy is all gathered in the inundated tracts, and where no cold weather crops are grown. The males of these parts generally migrate southwards in search of employment to the Sundarbans, or go there to cut timber, which they import; some, too, were attracted north by the works of the Eastern Bengal Railway, which runs through Belgáchhí and Goálanda. It is to the amount of repairs rendered necessary by the severe floods of last year that I attribute the return of a large excess in the male population of those police circles (*thánás*)." As regards the accuracy of the Census, "the Deputy-Magistrates," writes Mr Wells, "consider that the Census returns under their immediate care are thoroughly reliable, and I concur in thinking them so. As I have shown, the care taken was very great, and I believe the returns are perfectly correct."

The table opposite illustrates the distribution of the population in each Police Circle and Subdivision, with its pressure per square mile, &c. I have reproduced it *verbatim* from the Census Report of 1872:—

POPULATION CLASSIFIED ACCORDING TO SEX, RELIGION, AND AGE.—The total population of the Farídpur District amounts to 497,854 males and 514,735 females; total, 1,012,589; proportion of males to total population being 49·2 per cent. The area of the District as given in the Census Report of 1872 is 1496 square miles, the average density of the population being 677 to the square mile. Classified according to age, the Census gives the following results:—Hindus—under twelve years of age, males 67,629, females 54,844; above twelve years of age, males 136,426, females 162,089. Muhammadans—under twelve years of age, males 111,358, females 87,564; above twelve years of age, males 180,917, females 208,460. Christians—under twelve years of age, males 82, females 82; above twelve years of age, males 175, females 124. Other denominations not classified separately—under twelve years of age, males 467, females 461; above twelve years of age, males 800, females 1111. Total of all classes—under twelve years of age, males 179,536, females 142,951; above twelve years of age, males 318,318, females 371,784; grand total of all ages, 1,012,589. The total number of Hindus in the District is 420,988, Muhammadans 588,299, Christians 463, and others of unspecified denominations 2839. The number of insanes is returned at 299, or ·0295 per cent. of the total population; idiots at 69, or ·0068 per cent. of the total popula-

[*Sentence continued after the Table.*]

ABSTRACT OF THE POPULATION, &c., OF EACH SUBDIVISION AND POLICE CIRCLE IN FARÍDPUR DISTRICT, 1872.

Subdivision.	Police Circle.	Area in square miles.	Number of villages, mauzás, or townships.	Number of houses.	Total population.	Averages according to Census Report.				
						Persons per square mile.	Villages, mauzás, or townships per square mile.	Persons per village, mauzá, or township.	Houses per square mile.	Persons per house.
Headquarters Subdivision.	Farídpur,	142	107	13,165	79,251	558	·75	741	92	6·0
	Bhúshná,	136	267	21,296	115,132	846	1·96	431	157	5·4
	Awánpur,	158	257	16,482	102,146	646	1·63	397	104	6·2
	Sadrpur,	97	74	9,852	62,656	646	·76	847	102	6·4
	Deorá,	123	199	16,415	116,531	947	1·62	586	133	7·1
	Maksúdpur,	222	329	18,263	136,069	613	1·48	414	82	7·5
	Gopálganj,	189	148	12,320	97,666	517	·78	660	65	7·9
	Subdivisional total,	1,067	1,381	107,793	709,451	665	1·29	514	101	6·6
Goálanda Subdivision.	Goálanda,	117	229	14,349	89,725	767	1·96	392	123	6·3
	Belgáchhí,	136	308	14,865	87,337	642	2·26	284	109	5·9
	Pángsá,	176	389	20,511	126,076	717	2·21	324	117	6·1
	Subdivisional total,	429	926	49,725	303,138	706	2·16	327	116	6·1
	District total,	1,496	2,307	157,518	1,012,589	677	1·54	439	105	6·4

[*Sentence continued from the page before the Table.*]

tion; deaf and dumb, 314, or ·0310 per cent. of the total population; blind, 659, or ·0651 per cent. of the total population; and lepers, 417, or ·0412 of the total population. I take these figures as given by the Census Report of 1872.

POPULATION ACCORDING TO OCCUPATION.—The following paragraphs, showing the occupations of the people, are condensed from the tabular statements appended to the Census Report. The figures, however, must be taken as a rough approximation only, and the classification seems in many respects, perhaps unavoidably, imperfect. I reproduce them, however, as the first organised effort of the kind; and a discriminating eye, while rejecting some of them, will find curious hints as to the occupations of the people.

OCCUPATIONS OF MALES.—CLASS I.—Persons employed under Government, Municipal, or other local authorities:—Government police, 225; rural police, 1932; Covenanted English officers, 3; subordinate executive officers, 5; Public Works officials, 4; Post-office officials, 23; excise officials, 125; clerks, 12; *piyádás* (messengers), 43; others, 45; total of Class I., 2417.

CLASS II.—Professional persons, including professors of religion, education, literature, law, medicine, fine arts, surveying, and engineering:—Hindu priests (*purohits*), 3645; spiritual instructors (*gurus*), 423; astrologers (*áchárjyas*), 22; Muhammadan priests (*mullás*), 68; pilgrim guides (*pandás*), 9; priests of family idols 15; *Khondkárs*, 6; schoolmasters, 212; vernacular teachers (*pandits*), 34; village schoolmasters (*gurumahásays*), 2; Persian teachers (*munshis*), 8; students and scholars, 73; pleaders, 42; law agents (*mukhtárs*), 57; stamp vendors, 20; doctors, 12; Hindu physicians (*kabirájs*), 698; vaccinators, 6; cow-doctors (*gobaidyas*), 2; men-midwives, 205; compounders, 2; circumcisers, 2; musicians, 1102; singers, 139; actors, 4; painters, 57; surveyors or *ámíns*, 5; civil engineers, 5; total of Class II., 6875.

CLASS III.—Persons in service, or performing personal offices:—Personal servants, 4764; cooks, 27; assistant cooks (*masálchís*), 1; barbers, 3593; washermen (*dhobís*), 1476; sweepers (*mihtars*), 20; water-carriers, 4; gardeners, 238; genealogists (*ghataks*), 73; door-keepers (*darwáns*), 75; innkeepers, 1; unspecified, 2758; total of Class III., 13,030.

CLASS IV.—Persons engaged in agriculture and with animals:—Landlords (*zamíndárs*), 458; large leaseholders (*ijárádárs*), 19; holders of rent-free tenures (*lákhirájdárs*), 297; subordinate land-

lords (*tálukdárs*), 4151; cultivators with occupancy rights, 83; ordinary cultivators, 189,279; land-stewards (*gumáshtás*), 444; rent-collectors (*tahsíldárs*), 564; holders of land on military service, or as servants to the *zamíndárs* (*páiks*), 747; rent-collectors in charge of estates (*náibs*), 5; cattle dealers, 30; shepherds, 1; cowherds, 585; elephant drivers (*máhuts*), 1; grooms, 33; grass-cutter, 1; hunters (*shikáris*), 6; total of Class IV., 196,704.

CLASS V.—Persons engaged in commerce and in trade; as in the conveyance of money and goods, in keeping and lending money, and in the sale of goods:—Engineers, 9; engine-drivers, 5; railway stationmaster, 1; clerks, 6; other railway servants, 1; cabmen, 13; carters, 183; bullock-drivers, 38; palanquin bearers, 1979; Musalmán shipmasters (*nakodás*), 9; boatmen, 11,983; boat owners, 291; lascars, 128; warehousemen, (*áratdárs*), 23; weighmen, 53; bankers and *mahájans*, 473; money-changers, 2; money-lenders, 2179; merchants, 181; commission agents and retail sellers (*páikárs*), 105; petty dealers (*bepáris*), 1210; shopkeepers, 12,988; hawkers, 18; brokers or *dalás*, 63; clerks, 53; outdoor clerks (*sarkárs*), 7; vernacular clerks and writers (*muharrirs*), 333; messengers, 1; total of Class V., 32,335.

CLASS VI.—Persons employed in mechanical arts, manufactures, and engineering operations, and in the sale of goods manufactured or prepared for consumption:—Indigo manufacturers, 3; oil manufacturers, 481; contractors, 5; masons *rájmistris*), 80; stone-masons, 3; lime-burners, 58; sawyers, 218; carpenters, 2211; thatchers, 718; well-digger, 1; carriage-builder, 1; boat-builders, 114; blacksmiths, 806; dealers in hardware, 33; *Kánsáris*, 84; tinmen, 2; goldsmiths, 1272; potters, 2528; mat-makers, 222; fan-makers, 5; makers of baskets, 1640; makers of whips, 8; toymakers, 17; beadmakers, 8; *hookah*-maker, 1; garland-makers, 7; shell carvers, 238; cane-workers, 236; cotton carders, 2; cotton spinners, 129; weavers in cotton, 14,723; weavers in wool, 4; weavers in jute, 1; dyers, 2; tailors, 383; shoemakers, 194; cloth vendors, 343; ornament makers, 31; gunny-bag makers, 901; net-makers, 71; thread sellers, 43; wool sellers, 6; stationers, 149; bookbinder, 1; bookseller, 1; sellers of oil, 514; grain sellers, 94; rice sellers, 39; sugar-cane sellers, 4; spice sellers, 12; grain-husker, 1; baker, 1; grain parchers, 4; costermongers, 11; confectioners, 29; sellers of molasses, 429; butchers, 2; fishermen, 132; fish-

mongers, 12,325; milkmen, 1151; spirit sellers, 29; toddy sellers, 340; liquor shopkeepers, 17; tobacco sellers, 28; opium sellers, 4; *ganjá* sellers, 10; *pán* sellers, 1438; betel sellers, 4; salt sellers, 13; sellers of fireworks, 12; firewood sellers, 70; dealers in hides, 359; total of Class VI., 45,056.

CLASS VII.—Miscellaneous persons not classified otherwise :—House owners, 9; pensioner, 1; beggars and paupers, 3603; labourers, 16,871; unemployed, 1815, male children, 179,138; total of Class VII., 201,437; grand total of males, 497,854.

OCCUPATION OF FEMALES.—The following figures with regard to the occupation of females, reproduced from the Census Report, are to be accepted with special caution. Class I., *nil.* Class II., professional persons :—Priestesses, 108; female spiritual guides, 20; midwives, 72; female physicians, 4; musicians, 2; singers, 3; total, 209. Class III., females employed in service :—Personal servants, 1173; *ayahs*, 2; female barbers, 22; washerwomen, 54; female sweepers, 3; prostitutes, 761; total, 2015, Class IV., females employed in agriculture and with animals :—Female land-holders, 65; holders of rent-free lands, 38; subordinate land-holders (*tálukdárs*), 382; ordinary female cultivators, 2782; dealer in goats, 1; cowherds, 4; total, 3272. Class V., females engaged in commerce and trade :—Boat-owners, 10; money-lenders, 212; shopkeepers, 560; *bepárís*, 6; total, 788. Class VI., females employed in manufactures, and in sale of goods prepared for consumption :—Dealers in pottery, 32; dealers in lime, 4; basket-makers, 11; garland sellers, 19; spinners, 2124; weavers, 126; gunny-bag makers, 76; net-makers, 9; ornament sellers, 8; stationers, 37; rice dealers, 50; dealers in oil, 11; confectioner, 1; grain parchers, 16; grain huskers, 583; sellers of molasses, 2; fishwomen, 216; milk sellers, 71; *pán* sellers, 8; dealers in hides, 3; total, 3407. Class VII., miscellaneous females, not otherwise classed :—House owners, 6; beggars and paupers, 1515; labourers, 493; unemployed, 360,125; female children, 142,905; total, 505,044; grand total of females, 514,735.

ETHNICAL DIVISION OF THE PEOPLE.—The races inhabiting the District are Hindus and Muhammadans, non-Asiatics, Eurasians, and hill people from West Bengal. According to the Census of 1872, the Hindus numbered 420,988 in the District, and the Muhammadans 588,299. The number of non-Asiatics is returned at 65, viz., English, 42; French, 1; German, 1; Irish, 12; Nor-

wegian, 2; Scotch, 2; Welsh, 3; and American, 2. The Bunás are included among the semi-Hinduised aboriginals. They are immigrants from the hilly Districts of West Bengal, who came to work in the indigo factories. The indigo factories are now closed, and these people betake themselves, some to husbandry, and others to road-making, digging tanks, and all kinds of earth-work. They number 2412 in the District, and are looked down upon by the rest of the inhabitants. The villagers in the north of the District are mostly Musalmáns, and these, as well as those residing immediately south of the Civil Station, are similar in appearance to the Muhammadans met with in other parts of Bengal, stunted and lank specimens of Islám. Towards the south of the District, on the other hand, and amongst the vast swamps on the borders of Bákarganj, the country is almost entirely peopled by Chandáls, or low-caste Hindus, who are a much more muscular race of men than the people in the north. These Chandáls number a million and a half throughout all Lower Bengal, but are most numerous in Faridpur and other Districts of Eastern Bengal. Their number in Faridpur in 1872 was returned at 156,223. They are doubtless one of those aboriginal races who embraced Hinduism in Bengal, and, like the Kaibarttas, are mentioned in the sacred Epics, the "Ramayana," and "Mahábhárata." They are semi-amphibious in their habits, and capable of enduring the extremity of exposure and fatigue. Their superior physical development is attributed, not to their being of a different race, but to their mode of life: inhabiting a river District, and constantly employed in rowing, the muscles of the arms and chest get more developed than in men who pass their days at the plough. From time immemorial the Chandáls have been despised by the upper-class Hindus, and a Brahmán thought himself defiled by even treading upon the shadow cast by the body of a Chandál. A great part of them accordingly turned Musalmáns under the Afghán and Mughul Governments, and the remainder are now endeavouring to push themselves forward to a comparatively respectable position in the Hindu social scale. In the early part of this year (1873) the Chandáls made a general strike in the District, resolving not to serve any body of the upper class, in whatever capacity, unless a better position among the Hindu castes than what they at present occupy was given to them. A further reference to the Chandáls will be found in an extract from a Report by

the Collector on a previous page, where I was treating of the configuration and general aspects of the District.

IMMIGRATION AND EMIGRATION.—There is scarcely any immigration into, and no emigration from, Farídpur. The Bunás above mentioned appear to have permanently settled in the District, otherwise they would have returned to their original country after the indigo factories were closed. They do not amalgamate with the rest of the inhabitants, although they live in the same towns and villages with them. They build their houses close together, but apart from those of the other villagers. Many persons annually leave their homes in the District, and proceed to Calcutta and elsewhere as boatmen, or in other capacities, but return to their homes in nearly every instance. Many also leave the District during the harvest season as reapers, principally proceeding to Bákarganj.

CASTES.—The following is a list of the different castes in the District, arranged as far as possible in the order in which they rank in local esteem, and showing their occupations, numbers as ascertained by the Census of 1872, and the comparative degree of wealth of each:—(1) Bráhman; priests, religious preceptors, Government servants, &c.; number in Farídpur in 1872, 23,294. (2) Kshattriya; it is believed that there is no pure Kshattriya of the Sanskrit warrior caste existing at the present day, but 36 individuals have been returned as Kshattriyas in the Farídpur District, though only as a class of up-country traders, who lay a local claim to this rank. (3) Baidya; hereditary physicians, but chiefly now employed in Government and private service, &c.; number in 1872, 2032. (4) Káyasth; writers and clerks, but many are now landed proprietors, and others husbandmen; number in 1872, 57,026. (5) Chhatri or Rájput, another caste claiming to be Kshattriyas; peons, police constables, &c.; number in 1872, 901. (6) Gandha Banik, traders, 3038 in number. (7) Kámár, blacksmiths and workers in metal, 4758 in number. (8) Kumár, potters, 8196 in number. (9) Ágarwálá and Márwárí, up-country traders, 143 in number. (10) Águrí, cultivators, 1 in the District. (11) Támbulí or Támlí, traders, 235 in number. (12) Sadgop, cultivators, 693 in number. (13) Súdra, cultivators, 86 in number. (14) Kurmí, an up-country cultivating caste, 328 in number. (15) Tilí, oil-pressers and oil-sellers, also employed in service, trade, and husbandry, 7640 in number. (16) Málí or Málákar, dealers in flowers, pith, or *solá*,

1347 in number. (17) Kánsárí, makers of copper, brass, and bell-metal utensils, 3 in number. (18) Sánkhárí, dealers in shells and shell ornaments, few in number, and not returned in the Census Report. (19) Nápit, barbers, 12,685 in number. (20) Vaishnavs, followers of Vishnu, 5204 in number. (21) Bárui, cultivators of *pán*, 6120 in number. (22) Kaibartta, landed proprietors and cultivators, 13,649 in number. (23) Garerí, an up-country pastoral caste, 1 in number. (24) Madak or Mayrá, sweetmeat makers, 897 in number. (25) Gop or Goálá, milkmen and cattle-keepers, 2912 in number. (26) Subarna Banik, traders, bankers, and jewellers, 2280 in number. (27) Sekerá or Swarnakár, gold and silver smiths, 701 in number. (28) Sutradhar or Chhutár, carpenters, 5086 in number. (29) Sháhá or Surí, traders, landholders, husbandmen, &c., 26,677 in number. (30) Páitatá, manufacturers of fine mats (*páti*), not given in the Census Report. (31) Kalu, oil-pressers and oil-sellers, 178 in number. (32) Tántí, weavers, 3410 in number. (33) Jogí, weavers, 1698 in number. (34) Chunárí, lime-burners, 242 in number. (35) Patiál, labourers, 330 in number. (36) Jáliá, fishermen, 20,460 in number. (37) Kárál, sellers of fish, few in number, and not returned in the Census Report. (38) Karní, weavers, very few in number, and not returned in the Census. (39) Málá, fishermen and boatmen, 5466 in number. (40) Mánjhí, boatmen, 567 in number. (41) Pod, fishermen, 73 in number. (42) Tior, fishermen, 866 in number. (43) Purá, fish and vegetable sellers, 508 in number. (44) Báití, mat-makers, 891 in number. (45) Behárá and Duliyá, palanquin bearers, 2551 in number. (46) Dhanuk, personal servants, 181 in number. (47) Bágdí, labourers and cultivators, 1460 in number. (48) Pátní, ferrymen and boatmen, 1369 in number. (49) Koerí, traders and agriculturists, 1516 in number. (50) Chásá Dhobá, agriculturists, 561 in number. (51) Dhobá, washermen, 4132 in number. (52) Kacháru, makers of lac ornaments, very few in number, and not returned in the Census Report. (53) Chandál, agriculturists and boatmen, 156,223 in number. (54) Kapáli, manufacturers of gunny cloth, and agriculturists, 9359 in number. (55) Báuti, manufacturers of lime from shells, very few in number, and not mentioned separately in the Census Report. (56) Káhár, palanquin bearers, 1910 in number. (57) Muchí and Chámár, dealers in hides, and shoemakers, 3721 in number. (58) Pásí, toddy sellers, 25 in number. (59) Bind, labourers, 151 in number. (60) Chain,

labourers, 436 in number. (61) Dom, basket-makers and fishermen, 589 in number. (62) Dosadh, labourers, 4 in number. (63) Karangá, labourers, 18 in number. (64) Rájbansí, fishermen, 3862 in number. (65) Mál, snake-charmers, 957 in number. (66) Málo, 620 in number. (67) Hárí, swine-keepers, 372 in number. (68) Káorá, swine-keepers, 322 in number. (69) Bhuimálí, menial servants, 1836 in number. (70) Mihtar, sweepers, 1134 in number. (71) Bediyá, jugglers and thieves, 4 in number; and (72) Buná, labourers, 2412 in number.

The Muhammadans of Faríd pur follow various occupations, but the greater portion of them are engaged in husbandry; the rest are traders, manufacturers of oil, weavers, boatmen, palanquin bearers, &c. The Collector estimates that of the total number of Musulmáns in Faríd pur, ten sixteenths are poor, four sixteenths in easy circumstances, and the remaining two sixteenths rich. The higher and well-off class is respected, but the lower ranks are despised. No information can be given as to the immigration or first settlement of castes or races in the District, as, with the exception of the Buná labourers imported from Bánkurá, Bírbhúm, and Midnapur, and the Chandáls who came from Dacca, all the castes mentioned above have inhabited the District from time immemorial. The Collector reports that the Bráhman or priestly caste seems to have declined very considerably of recent years from their former rank and numbers. This is stated to be owing in a great measure to the increase in marriage expenses. Marriage has become a most expensive ceremony among the Faríd pur Bráhmans, and a father will not give his daughter in marriage unless he receives from his future son-in-law a sum varying from £70 to £100 as a present, or rather as a price, for his daughter. Many Bráhmans in consequence die without marrying, and their numbers are thus said to be gradually decreasing. The spread of English education also may be considered as having contributed to the decline of Bráhmanical influence. No predatory clans or castes exist within the District.

Religious Division of the People.—The inhabitants of Faríd pur may be divided into four religious classes, viz., Musalmáns, Hindus, Bráhma Samáj followers, and Christians. According to Colonel Gastrell's Survey Report, the Muhammadans numbered at that time (about 1865) 227,858, and the Hindus 182,137 souls. As already stated, the population of the District in 1872 was ascertained by a regular Census to amount to 1,012,589—497,854 males

and 514,735 females, the proportion of males being 49·2 per cent. The Hindu population numbers 204,055 males and 216,933 females —total, 420,988, and thus form 41·6 per cent. of the whole. The Muhammadan population consists of 292,275 males and 296,024 females, making a total of 588,299, or 58·1 per cent. of the whole inhabitants. The Christian population of Faridpur consists of 257 males and 206 females; total, 463, or ·04 per cent. of the population. The remainder of the population, not separately classified in the Census Report, consists of 1267 males and 1572 females—total, 2839, or say 0·3 per cent. of the whole inhabitants. The Collector thinks that the present number of Bráhma Samáj followers does not exceed thirty or forty; they are not returned separately in the Census Report. There is only one native Christian community in the District, situated in the village of Kálígrám on the Jiharpur marsh. The converts are very few in number, and are chiefly made from the Chandál caste. They are poor in circumstances, and are looked down upon by the rest of the inhabitants. At the Civil Station of Faridpur there is a branch of the South Australian Baptist Mission, with about twenty native followers. Deducting 84 for the European and Eurasian community, the result leaves a total native Christian population in Faridpur District of 379 souls. Christianity appears to make its principal settlement among the rural population, and the Bráhma Samáj in the towns. The Bráhma Samáj at Faridpur was established in December 1857 with ten followers, and services were held every Saturday evening in a house placed at the disposal of the Samáj by one of the members. Since the first year of its establishment, an anniversary Samáj is held every year, which is largely attended, not only by the Bráhmas themselves, but also by many of the orthodox Hindus at the Station. During the hot season of the year, service is held every Sunday morning. The Bráhma missionaries visit Faridpur from time to time, and deliver religious lectures in the hall of the Society.

THE MUHAMMADAN RELIGION does not appear to be making any further progress among the people. The Musalmáns are more numerous in the District than the Hindus, but the Collector reports that he can find no historical explanation of this circumstance. It is a current opinion that during the sovereignty of the Muhammadans, many Hindu families of the District, both high and low, were forcibly converted to Islám. Many Musalmáns are met with

in the District bearing the surname of *Thákur*, which is a Bráhmanical designation, and this leads the Collector to think that the popular opinion may not be without foundation. The Muhammadans of Faríḍpur are divided into Shiáhs and Sunís. Among the latter, a reformed sect called Faráizís has sprung up within the last forty-five years, and are a numerous and powerful body in the District. These Faráizís have the character of being stricter in their morals than other Musalmáns, but are intolerant and bigoted; and their open contempt for the religious opinions of others has been the cause of frequent affrays and disturbances, which have brought them under the notice of the authorities. The present Collector of the District, however, states that the death of Dudú Miyán, their late leader, has been a deathblow to their prestige and fanaticism. The following description of the origin of this sect is quoted from page 36 of Colonel Gastrell's Report:—"The founder of the sect of Faráizís, named Hájí Sharitullá, was born in the old village of Daulatpur, in the Police Circle of Sibchar, District Faríḍpur. He was possessed of a small estate, the greater portion of which, together with the village of his birth, has long since been cut away by the encroachments of the Padmá or Ganges. Objecting to the practice obtaining generally amongst the Musalmáns, of employing only certain persons to perform the ceremony of circumcision in families, and also to the habit of squandering large sums of money at marriage festivals, he, about the age of thirty-two, promulgated his new ideas on these subjects, and soon obtained a few devoted followers. These rapidly increased in number; and the greater part of the Muhammadans of the District, and many in the neighbouring Districts, have now joined the sect. On the Hájí's death, his followers assembled, and by common consent named his son, Dudú Miyán, as head of the sect. This man is said to have on several occasions abused the trust placed in him by his followers, and to have purchased an estate with the money placed in his hands for religious purposes. He then became a great tyrant, and complaints against him were numerous. On one of these he was tried, convicted, and imprisoned. In 1857 he was removed to Calcutta, and kept in custody there until the close of the mutiny of that year. On his return to the District, he was cleverly captured to answer another charge preferred against him by one of the Faríḍpur Police Inspectors, who, disguising himself and taking some policemen with him, presented himself before Dudú Miyán, and represented to him

that they all desired to join the sect of the Faráizís. Dudú, on hearing this, and suspecting nothing, left his hiding-place with them, was immediately captured, put on board a boat which the Inspector had in waiting, was taken to Faridpur, and lodged safely in jail. When again released, he left the District, then too hot to hold him, and it is believed sought refuge in Dacca, where in 1861 he was said to be very ill. He is since dead." There is also a sect of Faráizís called Rafiádís, but they are not numerous in Faridpur. A few followers are to be found in Khardiá, Tiljurí, and Durgápur. Their principles are the same as those of the Wahábí sect of Muhammadans. No new sects of Muhammadans or Hindus are springing up at the present day.

DISTRIBUTION OF THE PEOPLE INTO TOWN AND COUNTRY.—The Census Report of 1872 thus classifies the towns and villages:—There are 808 villages containing less than two hundred inhabitants; 826 with from two to five hundred inhabitants; 479 with from five hundred to one thousand inhabitants; 166 small towns with from one to two thousand; 21 towns from two to three thousand; 5 from three to five thousand; and 2 from five to ten thousand. The two towns containing a population of upwards of five thousand souls are the Municipalities of Faridpur and Sayyidpur. The principal towns, trading marts, and places of commerce in Faridpur are—(1) Bhángá, on the Kumár, situated in 23° 23′ 16″ lat. and 90° 0′ 45″ long., famous for importing rice, paddy, twist, chilies, salt, *khesárí*, mustard, and piece goods, and for exporting jute, molasses, and sugar. Its population in 1870 was estimated at about 1000. (2) Gopálganj, on the Madhumatí, situated in 23° 0′ 22″ lat. and 89° 52′ 15″ long., famous for jute, rice, salt, clarified butter, and the manufacture of mats of very fine quality. Its population in 1870 was estimated at about 2000. (3) Boálmárí, on the Barásiá river, in 23° 23′ 0″ lat. and 89° 48′ 30″ long., is remarkable for rice, piece goods, country cloth, mule twist, country yams, and tobacco; estimated population about 1000. (4) Sayyidpur, on the same river, situated in 23° 25′ 0″ lat. and 89° 43′ 45″ long., carries on an import trade in cotton, spices, iron, copper, brass, and bell-metal utensils; estimated population about 2000. (5) Madhukhálí, on the Chandná, carries on a trade chiefly in tobacco and salt; estimated population about 1500. (6) Kámárkhálí, on the same river, in 23° 51′ 30″ lat. and 89° 17′ 45″ long., is famous as an emporium for rice, mustard, and *khesárí*; estimated population about 1000. (7)

Jamálpur, on the Chandná, situated in 23° 35′ 30″ lat. and 89° 38′ 45″ long., is famous for cultivation of sugar-cane, and the manufacture of sugar and molasses; estimated population about 500. (8) Kanáipur, on the Kumár, situated in 23° 32′ 30″ lat. and 89° 49′ 0″ long., manufactures and trades in sugar and molasses; estimated population about 800. (9) Betangá, on the Chandná, situated in 23° 0′ 20″ lat. and 89° 57′ 15″ long., carries on an extensive trade in rice and pulses; estimated population about 500. (10) Goálanda, on the Padmá, situated in 23° 50′ 22″ lat. and 89° 47′ 0″ long., is famous for its trade in rice, paddy, and salt; estimated population about 1000. This place is rapidly rising in importance as a seat of commerce since the extension to it of the Eastern Bengal Railway. It has now also become the point of arrival and departure of the large Assam river steamers. (11) Sátair, near Sayyidpur, is celebrated for its fine Sítalpátí mats. This village is unrivalled for delicacy of manufacture of these fine mats. Some are made of such exquisite workmanship that a mat of the dimensions of six feet by four is sold for £15 and upwards. The population of the village is estimated at about 500. The places in the District important as being the seats of fairs are the following:—A fair is held at Sátair or Dhobághátá on the last day of the Hindu month of Fálgun, falling within the English month of March, where articles of country produce are brought for sale. The fair lasts four or five days, and is held in honour of an old mosque which enjoys a great repute as a place of peculiar sanctity by pious Muhammadans. At Dhanorá, near the police station of Maksúdpur, a fair is held on the last day of Chaitra, falling within our month of April, and is chiefly remarkable for the number of horses brought for sale; country produce is also disposed of. On the bank of *bil* Jhál Dángá, near Madhurdiá, a fair is held in March or April, and at which about fifteen thousand people assemble to bathe in the waters of the *bil*. The fair lasts only one day, and property worth about £300 is disposed of. At Dhuldí and Gajaná fairs are held on the occasion of the bathing festival of Gangá-snán. These fairs appear to be held principally for the benefit of the pilgrims; they only last a single day, and are not very largely attended. At the town of Farídpur during the first week in January an agricultural exhibition is held, where prizes for live stock and all descriptions of agricultural produce are competed for. This institution was first established in 1864, and an exhibition has been held every year

since then, with varying success. Latterly it has much increased in importance, both as to the amount of the sums subscribed to it, and the area over which its influence extends. A very considerable impetus has been given to the manufacturers and agriculturists of the District by this very useful institution. The Exhibition of 1870 lasted for eight days, and there was considerable competition for nearly all the products, and especially so with regard to rice. The following paragraph, extracted from the Committee's Report of the Exhibition, shows the interest taken by the people themselves in the Exhibition:—"4th January.—This day was fixed for the exhibition of rice. Early in the morning swarms of people literally poured into the Exhibition ground with various samples of rice in basketsful. Numerous spectators also pressed in, exhibiting the very great interest people have in the cultivation of this, the staple product of the country. The cultivation of rice engrosses the attention of the people *en masse*. The object of the Exhibition, therefore, has been, we are perfectly convinced, realised, as far as this department of agriculture is concerned. The undoubtedly great interest which everybody, both exhibitors and spectators, took in this day's exhibition, was very remarkable. Various specimens of *áman* and *áus* rice were exhibited, and the competition was so keen that the whole day and part of the night passed in selecting merely a number of the best sorts of *áman* exhibited for more careful examination on the day following. Of the *áman* rice there were 270 exhibitors and 49 species; of *áus*, 141 exhibitors and 28 species." The prizes varied in amount from £1, 4s. to 6d. There were altogether 1042 exhibitors, and the amount expended in prizes for products, live stock, &c., amounted to £50, 9s. 3d.

There are four places in the District held sacred specially for pilgrimage:—first, a temple sacred to Hari at Noliá near Jamálpur; second, at Muklobhá, a temple dedicated to Básudeb, a name for Krishna; third, a tree held sacred in the name of Kusalnáth, another designation of Siva, at Dulardángá, within the police circle of Talmá; and fourth, at Maddapur, within the Belgáchhí police circle, there is a large *pákur* tree dedicated to Siva, and called Ráj Rájeswar. All these places have lost much of their importance of late years; but at the latter two spots, large parties proceed every Friday and Saturday to fulfil a vow of sacrifice, by a goat or kid to the God of Destruction. There are one or two neglected

mosques in the District; one at Sátair, and another at Khábáspur, both reputed as places of sanctity. No town or village in Faríd pur is celebrated as being the scene of any important historical event. With regard to the comparative importance of the town and rural population, as shown by the returns in the Collectorate and Magisterial Offices of the classes of the people who furnish the largest proportion of the work of Administration, the Collector of the District states, that from inquiries instituted by him, he is of opinion that the richer portion of the inhabitants, such as the landlords, larger leaseholders, merchants and traders, resort to the Civil and Collector's Courts more frequently than the rural or cultivating class of the population. But the lower agricultural classes, particularly the Muhammadans, seem to furnish the greater share of the work of the Criminal Courts; although in cases of riot it is frequently the landlords or their agents who are at the bottom of the disturbance.

There are two MUNICIPALITIES in the District; one at the Civil Station of Faríd pur, and the other at the town of Sayyidpur. The following is a return of the local Municipal Revenue and Expenditure in 1869-70, together with the number of houses in each:—Faríd pur Municipality—Revenue in 1869-70, £233, 12s. 5½d.; balance in hand from previous year, £139, 10s. 5½d.; total, £373, 2s. 11d.; expenditure in 1868-69, £295, 19s. 8½d.; number of taxed houses within the Municipality, 1392. Gross municipal income in 1872, £319, 3s. 7½d.; municipal expenditure, £213, 19s. 2d.; rate of municipal taxation, 8⅞d. per head of the population. The population of the town, as ascertained by the Census of 1872: Hindus, males, 2427; females, 1885; total, 4312. Muhammadans, males, 2283; females, 1960; total, 4243. Christians, males, 16; females, 11; total, 27. Others, males, 3; females, 8; total, 11. Total of all denominations, males, 4729; females, 3864; grand total, 8593. Sayyidpur Municipality—Revenue in 1868-69, £102, 15s. 1⅜d.; balance in hand from previous year, £84, 15s. 3d.; total, £187, 10s. 4¾d.; expenditure in 1868-69, £103, 7s. 8d.; number of houses taxed within the Municipality, 854. Municipal income in 1872, £91, 4s. 9d.; expenditure, £136, 3s. 2d.; rate of taxation, 3⅜d. per head of the population. Population as ascertained in 1872: Hindus, males, 1440; females, 1550; total, 2990; Muhammadans, males, 1459; females, 1718; total, 3177. Others, males, 66; females, 91; total, 157. Total of all denominations, males, 2965; females, 3359; grand total, 6324. The Collector of the District reports that there

is a perceptibly increasing inclination on the part of the people to gather into towns, for the purpose of advantageously carrying on commercial pursuits, but they seldom settle there permanently. The Hindus have a profound veneration for their ancestral places of abode, and, however ill situated these places may be, either from a sanitary point of view or for trading purposes, nothing short of starvation or other sheer compulsion is sufficient to make them exchange their dwellings for places more healthy and better situated for commerce. The people in the District, therefore, do not appear to be tending towards permanent city life.

MATERIAL CONDITION OF THE PEOPLE.—The impetus which has of late years been given to tillage, with the increased price of rice and other articles, has materially contributed to better the condition of the people. The cultivating classes, who form the great mass of the population, are visibly better off than in former years, and they are gradually acquiring a taste for luxuries. The middle class of people, however, who live on fixed salaries, do not fare so well. The increased price of provisions has straitened their circumstances, so that they are now said to live from hand to mouth. A waist-cloth (*dhuti*), and a cotton sheet or shawl (*chádar*), and occasionally a sort of loose coat (*pirán*), form the ordinary dress of a well-to-do shopkeeper; that of an average husbandman consists merely of a waist-cloth and cotton shawl. A well-to-do shopkeeper has generally five huts in his homestead, all built within one enclosure—one for himself and his own family to live in, one for the other members of the household, one for cooking purposes, one for his cattle, and one for husking paddy and pulses. The house he lives in, and in the broad verandah of which he generally receives visitors, is substantially built, and usually costs between £30 and £40 to construct. An ordinary well-off husbandman has also the same number of houses, but they are not so costly. The building materials used by both classes are the same, differing only in quality. All the houses, with the exception of the few which are built of masonry, are constructed of bamboo, straw, jute, mats, wood, and canes. The furniture of a well-to-do shopkeeper consists of a large chest (*sinduk*), in which he keeps his valuables, three or four cane stools, two or three wooden platforms for sleeping on (*taktposh*), and one or two wooden benches for seats. An ordinary husbandman has no furniture beyond a few mats for sitting or sleeping on. The following is an estimate of the monthly expenses of a middling-sized household of a well-to-do shopkeeper, consisting of five members:—Rice,

10s.; pulses, 2s.; vegetables, 2s.; fish, 4s.; milk, 4s.; fruit, 1s.; sugar and molasses, 2s.; oil, 4s.; salt, 1s.; spices, 9d.; fuel, 2s.; sweet preparations of rice, such as *muri* and *murki*, 1s.; tobacco, *pán*, and betel-nut, 2s.; total monthly expenses, £1, 15s. 9d. The estimate for the same-sized family of an average husbandman is as follows:—Rice, 8s.; pulses, 1s.; fish, 6d.; vegetables, 6d.; sugar, 3d.; oil, 1s.; salt, 6d.; spices, 4½d.; *muri*, 1s.; tobacco, *pán*, and betel-nut, 1s.; total, 14s. 1½d. per month. Animal food is occasionally eaten by those who can afford it. A Hindu, of course, will never touch beef, and confines himself to the flesh of sheep or goats, after they have been sacrificed to some deity. Hindus also occasionally eat ducks and ducks' eggs. A Muhammadan will eat almost all kinds of ordinary animal food, except pork, which is only eaten by the very lowest classes of Hindus. The use of meat in any shape as an article of food is, however, very exceptional. It is only used as a luxury on great occasions, and in no way enters into the ordinary diet of any class of the people. I have referred to fish as an article of food on a previous page. The above estimate of cost, moreover, does not represent the actual expenses of a cultivator's household, but rather what he would have to pay if he purchased all his requisites. Almost all families grow their own rice, and sufficient vegetables for their own consumption; and often, when their day's field-work is over, they may be seen angling in the rivers, or trapping fish in the numerous swamps and marshes. They very seldom buy fuel, but procure it from the jungle.

AGRICULTURAL.—Rice forms the staple product of Farídpur; namely, *áman*, or winter rice; *áus*, or autumn rice; *boro*, or rice grown in deep water; and *ráidá* rice. Of these four, the first two are more generally cultivated, and form the chief staple food of the District, but the latter are almost always consumed by the peasant who raises them. The *áus* and *áman* rice are sown broadcast, the seeds being generally intermixed, on lands neither very high, nor yet too low. Where the *áus* rice is separately cultivated, however, it is generally planted in pretty high and dry ground in rotation to a crop of sugar-cane. The *áman* rice grows luxuriantly in rather low grounds where the rain-water collects. Some of the best qualities of *áman* rice are transplanted from nurseries into carefully prepared land, which has received repeated ploughings early in the rains, until the whole field is worked into knee-deep mud. All the superior kinds of rice are

derived from the *roá* or transplanted crop. The husbandman generally keeps this rice for sale, and uses the coarser varieties for his own consumption. In lands where the *áus* and *áman* are sown intermixed, the former can easily be reaped if the water rises slowly, but in the event of a sudden or rapid rise, would be destroyed. The *áman* rice is of two genera, the *baran* and *chhotná*, each comprising several varieties. Of these species, the former is regarded by the Hindus as sacred, but the latter is not. A Sanskrit verse (*sloka*) is quoted from the *Sástras*, containing a precept to avoid the use of *chhotná* rice, on account of its ripening before the setting in of the cold weather. The following is a list of the different sub-species of *áman* and *áus*, as well as those of the *boro* and *ráidá* rice, together with their seasons of sowing and reaping, &c., and the description of ground in which it is planted. The names marked with asterisks are varieties of rice not indigenous to the District, but the cultivation of which has been introduced from other parts of the country of late years. The twenty-three principal varieties of *baran áman* rice are—(1) *Chhatra bhog;** (2) *Dudhmani;** (3) *Lepá;* (4) *Mándráji* (Madras);* (5) *Gawá-rájal;** (6) *Gházi bhog;* (7) *Pitráj;* (8) *Kách kalam;** (9) *Jhul;* (10) *Sádá nalaj;* (11) *Sítá Lakshmiyá;* (12) *Bhojan karpur;* (13) *Mahishkándi;* (14) *Lál bádal;** (15) *Nárikel bádá;* (16) *Khaiyá mugri;* (17) *Bhágráil;* (18) *Muktáhár;* (19) *Dal-kachu;* (20) *Phul áman;* (21) *Báliá bet;* (22) *Lakshmi hidá;* (23) *Baerá.* The whole of these varieties are sown broadcast in marshy lands in Chaitra and Baisákh (March, April, and May), and reaped in Agraháyan and Paush (November, December, and January.) The impure *Chhotná áman* rice consists of the following thirteen varieties—(1) *Hariákáti;* (2) *Katiá lepá;** (3) *Sonádighá;* (4) *Khándi;* (5) *Madhusáil;* (6) *Dhaládígha;* (7) *Kánkuá;* (8) *Ghor bág;** (9) *Parpuri;* (10) *Básiráj;* (11) *Jhungásáil;* (12) *Mál bhog;* (13) *Hidá.* These thirteen varieties are sown broadcast in moist lands, in the months of Chaitra and Baisákh (March, April, and May), and reaped in Kártik (October and November.) The *áus* species of rice consists of twenty-seven different varieties, as follow:—(1) *Binna-phul;** (2) *Lohásalá;** (3) *Kautuk-mani;** (4) *Kálijirá;* (5) *Dasnagur;** (6) *Samudraphená;* (7) *Báigunbichi;* (8) *Bákui;* (9) *Bailán.* These varieties are sown broadcast on low lands in the months of Chaitra and Baisákh (March, April, and May), and are reaped in Áshár and Srában (June, July, and August). (10) *Párangi*, sown broad-

cast on low lands in Chaitra (March and April), and reaped in Jaishthya and Áshár (May, June, and July); (11) *Mallikā;* (12) *Nimtail;** (13) *Lakshmipurá;* (14) *Ghikarpur;* (15) *Pipráil;* (16) *Mánik-mandal.** These varieties are sown broadcast on low lands in March, April, and May, and reaped in June, July, and August. (17) *Shátiá,* sown broadcast in low lands in April and May, and reaped in June and July. (18) *Pájrá;* (19) *Sada;* (20) *Kedárchak;* (21) *Káojurí;* (22) *Bániábatar.** These varieties are sown broadcast on low lands in March, April, and May, and reaped in June, July, and August. (23) *Kumrail;* (24) *Kachárnárí.* These are sown both on high and low lands broadcast, but the seasons for sowing and reaping are the same as those given before. (25) *Sonághází;* (26) *Pakshiráj parángí;* grown on high and dry lands, but sown and reaped in the same seasons as above; (27) *Patnáigareswar;* sown broadcast on low lands in the same seasons as above. *Boro* rice consists of the following five varieties, which are grown in marshy lands and transplanted; they are all sown in Kártik and Agraháyan (October, November, and December), and harvested in Chaitra and Baisákh (March, April, and May)—(1) *Batar-páij;* (2) *Kaijor;* (3) *Sonár-gáijá;* (4) *Sáilkati;* (5) *Kaljágli.* The *ráidá* rice, which consists of four varieties, is sown and reaped at the same seasons as the *boro* rice. It is also transplanted, and grown in the same description of marshy soil as the *boro*—(1) *Dhákái;* (2) *Pipri;* (3) *Amaniá;* (4) *Desal.*

The following remarks regarding the mode of cultivation, method of husking, together with the various preparations made from rice, are condensed from Dr Basu's Report, before alluded to. As already mentioned, *áman* and *áus* rice are frequently sown together in the same fields during the early rains in March and April, but never later than the 10th May, in places that are annually flooded. They grow rapidly with the rise of the water on the inundated lands, the stem sometimes reaching fifteen feet or upwards in length, according to the depth of water in places where it grows. The *áus* crop being reaped first in June, July, or August, the pruning which the *áman* thereby necessarily undergoes, instead of doing any injury to the crop, rather improves it, as the shoots become more numerous and stronger after this cropping. It should be here stated that although the fields are very carefully weeded both before and during the rains, it is impossible to rid them of a species of wild grass which ripens almost at the same time with the *áus;* hence

the *áus* paddy is seldom free from the seeds of this grass. Indeed, this is so generally the case, that the presence of these wild seeds is regarded as a sure indication of *áus* rice. The *áman* rice, which is gathered later, and is sometimes also grown by itself in separate and distinct fields, is always free from these seeds. The *áman* rice is generally reaped in November or December, but there is an early species, *áswiní*, which is harvested in the Hindu month of that name, corresponding to the English September. In the same way, one early variety of *áus* ripens and is cut at the end of May. The other two kinds of rice, *boro* and *roá* (transplanted *áman*), are cultivated altogether on a different system. The *boro* is planted in the low beds of marshes and swamps, or on the borders of shallow receding rivers, such as the lowest parts of *chars*, *koals*, and *lcp chars*, as they are locally called. The seed is sown in nurseries in October or November, transplanted in January or February, and reaped in May or June. The *roá*, or transplanted *áman*, is grown on comparatively high lands, which are seldom or never submerged during the rains. The plants are raised in nurseries in May or June, transplanted in June or July, and reaped in November or December. The finer varieties of rice are obtained from the *roá* crop, and the next quality from the ordinary *áman*. Superior rice is seldom obtained from the *boro* crop, and never from the *áus*. Besides the defect of the *áus* rice already pointed out—namely, its admixture with grass seeds—there are others which render it a very inferior and undesirable article of food. The grain is coarse, never wholly free from a layer of reddish or brownish colouring matter when husked; has a tendency to clot together when boiling; and has scarcely any taste. Ordinary *áman*, although generally also coarse grained, is free from these objections, and more agreeable to the palate. *Boro* rice is generally coarse and heavy, and less sweet than *áman*, but superior in every respect to *áus*.

All the rice sown in the high lands and in shallow water, when ripe, is cut close to the ground, so as to leave as little stubble as possible, and to save all the straw for the cattle. In deep water, however, only the ears are cut off; the stems remain in the fields till the water subsides, when it is either burnt for manure, or collected for household fuel, or for thatching purposes. The different stages of rice cultivation are as follows:—The seed is known as *bíj*; when the seed germinates it is called *gajáu*; when it sprouts, *ankur*; the young plant, *chárá*; the young flower stock, *káinchghor*; the young

plant a little older, *thor;* the flowering plant, *phulán;* when the ear begins to form, *mohar átkán;* the young paddy in the milky stage, *dudholo dhán;* imperfectly matured paddy, *máchhbángo dhán;* ripe paddy, *páká dhán;* paddy when cut and trodden out, *dhán;* husked rice, *chául.*

HUSKING.—The process of husking is very simple. It is generally done either by a rude instrument called a *dhenki,* worked by a pedal, or by means of a wooden mortar and pestle (*ukli*). The *dhenki* is also worked on the principle of a pestle and mortar, the difference being that the pestle is fixed on a lever and worked by the foot, the long end of the lever being towards the mortar, which consists of a wooden vessel let into the ground or floor. Preparatory to husking, the paddy is either dried in the sun, the rice husked by this process being known as *átap,* or is first boiled and afterwards sun-dried. The rice obtained by the latter process is called *siddha* or *ushná,* and the husking is easier performed than from paddy merely dried in the sun. The difference in the mode of preparation is said to cause a difference in the quality of the rice. The *átap,* or paddy simply dried in the sun before husking, yields a lighter grain, sweeter and more digestible. It is, however, difficult to separate from the outer covering, and the percentage of loss from broken rice and rice dust is very large. The *siddha* or *ushná* rice, on the other hand, is a heavy and compact grain, comparatively more difficult of digestion, and takes more time in boiling. The finer sorts of *átap* rice are known as *Gobind bhog, chini sakkar,* and *kálijírá;* and the commoner kinds of *siddha* rice as *bálám* and *chaplás.* All the fine rice, as a general rule, is sold off in the bázár by the cultivators—not only as fetching high prices wherewith to provide for his other comforts, but as unsuitable for home consumption. It is a well-known fact that the labouring classes would not use them, even if they were equally cheap with the other kinds. The servants in the native families in the interior, who are fed at their master's board, would prefer a dish of coarse rice to one of a superior variety, of which latter they say they would require twice the usual number of meals. The greater portion of the coarse rice raised in the District is locally consumed by the agricultural and labouring classes. The *áus* crop, which comes in at a time when the cultivator's previous store of provisions is nearly exhausted, is almost entirely reserved for home consumption. There is, consequently, very little demand for this rice in the market, except among labourers who have no cultivation of their own.

Boiled Rice as Food.—In cooking rice, it should be so boiled that the whole grain becomes uniformly soft, and that no central hardness, or *máj*, remains. Old rice, besides being more wholesome than new, and less difficult of digestion, yields a greater bulk by boiling. Boiled rice is consumed either when quite fresh (*garam bhát*), or more or less stale (*thándá* or *bási bhát*). The latter, again, is used in three forms, namely, *karkara*, or simple cold rice, *parishti*, or boiled rice afterwards steeped in fresh cold water, and *pántá bhát*, the same as the foregoing, but steeped in water for a longer time. The *karkara* is usually what is left of the evening meal, and is eaten the following morning; it can only be preserved wholesome in the cold weather. In other weather, boiled rice, in order to be kept for subsequent use, has to be steeped in water. There is very little difference between the two forms of steeped rice. That which has been steeped in water for a short time, say not more than six hours, and is eaten when the saccharine matter is being formed in the rice by the decomposition of the starch, is called *parishti*; that which has been longer in water, and when, after the formation of the greatest quantity of sugar, the process of fermentation has commenced, as evinced by the slightly acid taste of the rice, is called *pántá bhát*.

The water in which this rice has been steeped forms an agreeable and cooling drink, known as *ámáni*. It is not easy to fix precisely the quantity of rice regularly consumed by any one individual, as the seasons of the year affect the amount. In the spring and summer, when an abundant supply of fruit is obtained, the ordinary meals are reduced, both in number and quantity. Again, the work of the agriculturist is not uniform throughout the year. During the rains, with the exception of occasional visits paid to his fields for weeding and reaping the *áus* crop, he leads a comparatively easy life, unless he hires himself out for other work, say as a boatman or day-labourer. This cessation of toil also influences the consumption of food. Taking all things into consideration, Dr Basu estimates the average quantity of rice consumed by an adult labourer at $1\frac{7}{8}$ lb. daily, and that by a man in a higher rank of life, who has a greater variety of food, at from $1\frac{3}{8}$ lb. to $1\frac{1}{2}$ lb. daily.

Preparations of Rice.—The following are the chief preparations of rice made and sold in Faridpur District, condensed from Dr Basu's Report, before alluded to:—

(1.) *Khai* is made from paddy by roasting it on heated sand. The sudden exposure to heat so distends the grain as to make it burst its

husk; it is then rubbed on a sieve with the hand to remove the fragments of broken husk. It is a very light article of food, and prescribed by native physicians as a low diet, both in its ordinary form, as well as in that called *manda*, prepared by boiling it to the consistence of pulp in water, a little sugar and milk being sometimes added. *Khai* enters into the composition of a good many native sweetmeats, and is mixed with fresh molasses or sugar-cane juice, and made into balls or cakes. It is often also eaten mixed with milk.

Rice is not the only grain from which this substance is prepared. The indian-corn, seeds of several species of water-lily, and other light farinaceous seeds, may be similarly treated, and also a kind of wild paddy called *báni dhán*, which is extensively consumed in this form. Ordinary *khai* sells in Farídpur District at a fraction over a penny a pound, and *khai* mixed with molasses or sugar-cane juice at three halfpence per pound.

(2.) *Muri* is another very light preparation of rice in its parched form, and tastes, when fresh and properly made, not unlike biscuit. It differs from *khai* in the manner of its preparation, taste, and quality. With regard to the first, while *khai* is prepared from paddy by simply exposing it to the action of heat through the medium of sand over a hearth, *muri* is obtained by a more complicated process. Particular care is necessary in boiling the paddy from which the rice for this purpose is obtained. It has to be boiled twice, so that the grain partly protrudes through the husk; it is then dried by exposure to the sun before husking. The effect of this process is to harden the grain, which is distinguished from common rice by its darker colour and harder texture. It is now roasted on a fire in an open earthen vessel, stirring it well, with the addition of a little solution of salt and water from time to time. While this is being done, sand is heated in a separate and larger vessel. As soon as sufficient heat has been absorbed, the rice is thrown in handfuls at a time into the vessel containing sand, and shaken briskly with a bundle of thin sticks for a minute or two, when the heated grains swell. The *muri*, thus prepared, is then separated by allowing the sand to pass through a sieve. *Muri* is also made into sweetmeats. This preparation sells in Farídpur District at three halfpence a pound.

(3.) *Chirá* is another form in which rice is consumed. It is made thus: The paddy, after being steeped in water for two or

three days, is removed to another vessel and partially roasted on a fire; it is then beaten flat, and separated from the chaff by the rice pedal. The substance thus obtained is tough and difficult to masticate, but it absorbs water readily, and when well soaked, it is difficult to distinguish it from boiled rice, which it also resembles somewhat in taste. If natives of Bengal were to betake themselves to a seafaring life, this substance would answer admirably all the purposes of sea-biscuits. It can be kept wholesome for any length of time with ordinary care, and requires no additional preparation, except soaking in water, to render it at once fit for use. Native passengers, when proceeding from one place to another, whether by land or water, and when the cooking of a meal of boiled rice is not only inconvenient, but attended with loss of time, always prefer *chirá* to anything else: nor are the facilities for obtaining it wánting, for by the side of the most lonesome roads or river of any importance—wherever, in short, there exists a grain shop of any sort—if nothing else is to be had, *chirá* and *gur*, salt, tamarind, and sometimes curd (*dahi*) and plantains, are sure to be procured. Another preparation of the same article is by parching it on a pan of hot sand, called *chirá bhájá*, which is also extensively used as a light outdoor meal (*jalpán*) and likewise as an ingredient of many cakes and comfits. *Chirá* is sometimes steeped in water till it becomes sour, the liquor being administered as a cooling and nourishing drink by native physicians. Ordinary *chirá* sells at about three farthings a pound.

(4.) *Chául bhájá*, or simple parched rice, is extensively made use of as a cheap and light meal in native families, especially by the women, eaten with a little mustard, oil, and salt, and sometimes bits of chilies by way of an additional relish.

(5.) *Chhátu*. These are made by reducing to powder parched rice or grain, such as *chául bhájá*, *muri*, *khai*, *chirá*, *jab bhájá* or fried barley, &c. The best is that prepared from barley, and this is the only way in which the latter grain is commonly consumed in Lower Bengal. *Chhátus* are also obtained from gram, peas, and other pulses, but these are chiefly used in the preparation of sweetmeats.

(6.) *Pithás*, or native cakes, are compound preparations of rice flour, with more or less sugar, milk, or other substances. They are home made, and never sold.

LIQUID PREPARATIONS OF RICE.—The liquid preparations of

rice are *ámbajaler kángidesí sharáb*, or country spirits, and *pachwai*, or rice-beer. The first-named preparation is made in the following manner:—A small quantity of cooked rice is put into an earthen pot with water every night, and this is repeated during a month or so. In the course of this process the rice gradually dissolves at the bottom of the pot, and then emits a sour smell, and becomes somewhat saltish to the taste. This preparation is chiefly used for medicinal purposes; for instance, it forms an ingredient in several kinds of medicinal oils. It is also used in making *jári*, a mixture given in cases of measles, and other similar complaints. It is only made for home consumption, and is not sold. The process adopted in manufacturing country spirits from rice is the same in Faridpur as elsewhere in Bengal, and is too widely known to need a detailed description. To sell the spirit at a slightly enhanced price, the native shopkeepers dye it with the extract of red sandal-wood and add some spices to it, when they give it the name of *Ghote Goláb*. *Jáoábim*, *Kenádár* and *ánis* are different kinds of country spirit, and are sold at about one shilling and ninepence per quart. The people of this District do not drink *pachwai*, but the extension of the Eastern Bengal Railway line to Goálanda has brought many hill people there, and shops for the sale of it have been opened. It sells at about a farthing a quart.

Extension of Rice Cultivation.—No improvement is visible in the quality of the different species of rice grown in Faridpur. The greater part of the District is owned by a class of non-resident proprietors, who have little or no local knowledge, and probably feel disinclined to improve the condition of their estates, as these are not immediately under their own control, but have passed into the hands of subordinate holders, such as *patnídárs*, *jotdárs*, &c., owing to the system of sub-infeudation, which has been carried on to a great extent here as everywhere else throughout Bengal. The cultivators follow in the footsteps of their forefathers, neither knowing nor áttempting to learn how to improve the quality and quantity of the crops raised by them. As before stated, however, the varieties of rice have increased of late, and in the foregoing list of rice crops, all those marked with asterisks have been introduced into the District within the last twenty years. The increase in the number of species of rice is owing to the annual exodus of husbandmen from Faridpur to the Sundarbans, and to the Bháwál Fiscal Division in the north of Dacca, during the harvest season in November, De-

cember, and January, when the cultivators in Farídpur have either finished the reaping of their fields, or are able to leave somebody behind to look after them. These men generally bring back with them the seeds for new varieties of rice from other places. The cultivated area under rice has also greatly increased of late years, owing to the closing of the indigo factories, and the silting-up of the Mará Padmá and other watercourses. In former times, the indigo planters cut a number of small watercourses (*kháls*) from the Nasibsháhí marshes to the river Chandná. These have now become partially filled up, and many thousands of acres have thus been reclaimed. The following is a list of the principal of such *kháls* cut by the indigo planters:—(1) Ratandígháá Khál, in the north-west of the District, running under village Ratandígháá. (2) Maddápur Khál, running under the village of the same name in the north-west of Farídpur. (3) Napárá Khál, also in the north-west of the District, takes its name from the village near which it runs. (4) Baharpur Khál and Tetuliá Khál, also in the north-west of the District, run alongside the villages from which they take their names. (5) Ráipur Khál, near village Ráipur, in the west of the District. (6) Matlákhál, runs under the village of the same name in the west of the District. (7) Singár Khál, also in the western part of Farídpur, passes a little below the village of Betangá. (8) Lánjáná Khál, runs under village Lánjáná, in the west of the District; and (9) Cháltá Talár Khál, situated in the south-west of the District. These watercourses have done much towards draining the marshes, and have enabled a considerable portion of them to be brought under profitable cultivation. Rice has always been the staple product of the District, and has in no locality been introduced as a substitute for inferior cereals.

THE OTHER CEREAL CROPS of Farídpur District are the following:—Wheat (*goham*), sown broadcast on moist land in November and December, and reaped in March or April. Barley (*jab*), grown on the same description of land, and sown and reaped at the same seasons as wheat. It is not, however, an article of general or even ordinary consumption. Oats (*jai*), sown on high land in October, and reaped in February. Indian-corn (*bhuttá*), sown on high dry land in June, and cut in September. There is but very little cultivation of the two last-named cereals in the District, indeed only one or two gardens in the Civil Station contain small patches of land growing these crops. Two or three varieties of millet are also raised, but they are only

consumed by the lower classes in seasons of scarcity, when the rice crop fails, as a cheap substitute for that universal staff of life.

PULSE CROPS.—*Máskalái* (Phaseolus radiatus) is extensively cultivated throughout the District, by sowings on lands just emerging from the inundation in September or October, the seed being simply scattered over the soft ground before it dries. This crop, which is always a most luxuriant one, is gathered at the end of December or beginning of January, when it is readily bought up in the local markets for export to Calcutta and other places. The new grain is generally sold at from 2s. 8d. to 3s. 4d. a hundredweight. *Mug* (Phaseolus mungo) is of three varieties—*soná* (yellow) and *gorá* (white), and *porá mug*. All three varieties are sown in high land, but they have different seasons for sowing and cutting. The best species, the *soná mug*, is sown in August or September, and gathered in November or December. This pulse is a wholesome, nourishing, and an easily digestible article of diet. It is sometimes eaten raw (previously softened by steeping in water), with sugar, as a morning repast after bathing. Price from 6s. 8d. to 8s. 2d. a hundredweight. *Matar* or peas (Pisum sativum). The variety of pea with which the people of Farídpur District are most familiar, and which they cultivate extensively in the cold season, is the *desí matar*, a dwarf species of the common pea: sown broadcast on fields lightly ploughed, and from which the rice crop has been just reaped, in Nov. or Dec., and cut in Jan. or Feb. The pea is hard, almost like duck-shot; in fact, is sometimes actually so employed. It is frequently eaten parched, and, when boiled, occasionally forms a meal by itself, in lieu of rice, for the poorer labourers. Its price is from 3s. to 4s. a hundredweight. *Arhar* or *harar* (Cytisus cajan), sown in high land along the borders of fields and gardens in the early rains about April and May, and cut at the end of the cold weather in February or March. The average price of the pulse is from 5s. 4d. to 6s. 8d. a hundredweight. *Khesárí* (Lathyrus sativus); this is a very common grain, and is extensively grown, both as a quick-growing fodder for the cattle and as an inferior pulse for the poorer classes. The crop is cultivated in the same way as peas, sown on low land in October or November, and cut in February or March. *Khesárí* in some places has the reputation of being a poisonous lentil, but no injurious effects from its use are noticeable in Farídpur. Average market price from 2s. to 2s. 8d. a hundredweight. *Thikrí kalái* (Dolichos pilosus), a grain much resembling *khesárí*, is sown on high

land in May or June, and cut in August, September, or October. *Musurí* (Ervum lens) is extensively cultivated as a cold-weather crop, being sown on high lands in November or December, and cut in March or April. The pulse is light, easy of digestion, and forms a favourite article of food with all classes. *But* or *gram* (Cicer arietinum), sown in high land in November or December, and gathered in March or April. *Gram* is not much cultivated in Faridpur, and has a comparatively limited consumption in the District. It is eaten either parched or softened in water, with coarse sugar or molasses and ginger. As food it is said to be strengthening, although rather difficult of digestion. Average market price from 4s. to 5s. 4d. a hundredweight. *Sim* or beans; three varieties of beans are commonly met with, viz., one with flat pods from two to four inches long and half an inch broad; one round and inflated, of a blackish green colour, and another similar to the last, but with the pods of a blackish purple; these varieties are called respectively *sádá sim*, *kálá sim*, and *lál sim*: all sown during the rains, but flower and pod in the cold weather. *Mákhan sim* (Canavália gladiata) is another bean: a perennial twiner, with a large, flat, sword-shaped pod, from six inches to a foot in length, and about an inch broad. It is sown solitarily under trees, up which it climbs. [As I am no botanist, I trust for the scientific names to the official reports.]

TUBERS.—*Gol álu*, or potato (Solanum tuberosum), is not much grown in the District, but imported potatoes from Dacca are always to be obtained in the bázár. They are eaten boiled, roasted, fried, and also cut up and cooked as an ingredient in many native curries and dishes. *Mithá álu*, or sweet potato (Convolvulus batatus), is the long, red, tuberous, underground stem of the plant, which has a sweetish taste, and a peculiar pleasant flavour. The plant is usually multiplied from cuttings of the parent stem, which are inserted in ridges in May or June. The tubers become ripe at the beginning of the cold season; it is eaten like ordinary potatoes, and sometimes also raw. *Chuprí álu* and *garán álu*, or yam (Dioscorea globosa and Dioscorea rubella). Only two varieties of yams are met with—one long and cylindrical, the other of a round form, and both occasionally employed for culinary purposes. They are fleshy and farinaceous, and may be used as excellent substitutes for potato towards the close of the rains, when they come to perfection, and the latter vegetable is scarce. *Mánkachu* is the well-known, large, tender rhizome of Arum indicum. When cooked, it is both nutritive

and wholesome, and is in great demand among all classes of the people. *Ol* (Arum campanulatum); the globular underground stem of this plant is also now and then used for food.

OIL SEEDS.—*Til* (Sessamum orientale), is of two kinds—*til*, sown on low land in August or September, and cut in November and December; and *kálá til*, sown on high land in February or March, and cut in June or July. This plant is cultivated all over the District for the seed, as well as for the oil obtained from it, both of which are in much request. The oil, when pure, is sweetish, and will keep for months without change or turning rancid. Two varieties of mustard seed are grown in the District, viz., the ordinary black mustard, *sarishá* (Senapis nigra), and *rái* (Senapis ramosa). Both sorts are sown about October or November, but one variety ripens earliest, and is gathered in January or February, while the other is gathered in March. Of the two sorts, *rái* has a larger grain, and yields the most and best oil, three hundredweights of seed usually giving one hundredweight of oil; while from the other sort it takes four hundredweight of seed to express one hundredweight of oil. The price of mustard-oil varies, according to the season, from £1, 18s. to £2, 11s. per cwt., and the seed from 8s. 2d. to 13s. 4d. per cwt., according to quality. Both seed and oil are extensively consumed for a variety of purposes. *Masiná*, or linseed (Linum usitatissimum), is sown on high land in October or November, and cut in February or March. *Bherándá*, or castor-oil (Ricinis communis), is sown on high land in April or May, and cut in January or February.

FIBRES.—*Koshtá*, or jute (Corchorus olitorius), sown on high land in March and April, and cut in July, August, or September. *Meshta* (Hibiscus cannabinus), sown on high land in March or April, and cut in July, August, or September. [See "Dacca District."] *Son*, or hemp), is of two species—namely, *bágbá son*, planted in high land in April, May, or June, and cut in July, August, and September; and *phul son*, planted in high land in October and November, and cut in February, March, or April.

OTHER CROPS.—SUGAR-CANE.—*Ákh*, or sugar-cane (Saccharum officinarum). Four species of sugar-cane are cultivated in Farídpur, viz., *kájlá*, *dhal sundar*, *khailá*, and *chuniá*. The two first varieties are sown on high, and the two last on low lying land; but all are planted and cut at the same seasons, being sown in January or February, and cut in February or March of the following year.

Sugar-cane is largely cultivated in Farídpur, and its produce forms an important article of District trade. No attempt seems to have as yet been made to introduce any of the superior varieties of cane, and it is doubtful whether any innovation, either as regards the old plant, or the present modes of culture, would prove acceptable to the cultivators. The only manure used in the cultivation of sugar-cane is cow-dung. This is spread over the field during the rains preceding the cultivation, after which the land is allowed to remain fallow till sowing-time. The crop is never grown on the same field for two successive years, and requires careful ploughing and pulverisation of the soil before the young shoots are put into the ground. During the growth of the plant, the only care required is to tie or roll up from time to time the growing stalks with their own leaves, and sometimes to pick out a species of larvæ, which drills into the young cane, and does great damage if not timely guarded against. A description of the process of extracting the juice, boiling, and refining, will be found on a subsequent page.

The Date-Palm or Khejur-Tree (Phœnix sylvestris) is very largely cultivated in Farídpur, and the sugar produced from the juice of the tree forms the most important article of export from the District. The trees are generally planted along the raised boundaries of fields, and throughout the village sites, about eight or nine feet apart, and as a rule are allowed to grow on the spot where they are first sown. But if the ground be low, and subject to inundation for any length of time, the seedlings are first propagated in a nursery. They are transplanted from the nursery during the months of May and June, or soon after the commencement of the rains, a certain degree of moisture being absolutely necessary to ensure their flourishing in the new site chosen for them. The natives generally prefer a deep, rich clay soil for date cultivation, if possible well above inundation limits. An account of the process of extracting the juice from the trees, and its manufacture into sugar, will be given on a subsequent page. [See also my "Account of Jessor District."]

Níl or Indigo is planted on high lands, or those which are only inundated at the height of the rains, or are protected by embankments. There are two seasons for sowing indigo, one at the close of the rainy season, called the "October sowing," and one at the commencement of the hot weather, called the "Spring sowing." Spring sowings are preferred in Farídpur District. Even where lands have been sown as an experiment in October, they are sometimes

broken up and re-sown in April for spring produce, without a fair trial having been given to the October plant, so highly are the chances of a good spring crop prized. Indigo cultivation is not popular with the peasantry, and since the indigo disturbances of 1860, of which I have given a brief description in my "Statistical Account of Nadiyá District," the cultivation and manufacture of the dye has almost ceased. All the large factories in Farídpur District are now closed.

SAFFLOWER OR KUSUM (Carthamus tinctorius) is grown to a considerable extent in the District, and the following particulars regarding its cultivation, &c., are quoted from Colonel Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report :—"The cultivation of safflower is on the increase in Farídpur. The land generally chosen for this plant is the rich light soil near the banks of the large rivers or on the islands. The seed is sown in October, and the flowers gathered in April following; six or eight good ploughings are needed before the seed is put in the ground. Rape-seed is generally sown down with the safflower, and occasionally in Farídpur bearded wheat. The fields require to be kept clear of weeds, and the earth round the roots of the plants to be occasionally loosened. The crop is a very exhausting one, and if manure be not available, it is usual to alternate it with oil-seeds or rice. After the safflower crop has been gathered in, the ground is often ploughed up immediately, and prepared to be sown with rice. One acre of safflower cultivation requires about sixty pounds of seed, valued at 3s. 9d. to 5s. 7½d., and yields from sixty-six to seventy-eight pounds of dried flowers, worth from £1, 7s. to £1, 19s. It also produces from eleven to thirteen hundredweights of seed, from which a coarse lamp-oil is expressed by heat, representing a money value of about 18s." Prices have now risen (1873).

TOBACCO is only sparingly grown in small patches round the homesteads by the cultivators; but the leaf, although well-formed, and the out-turn pretty fair as regards quantity, is very weak, owing probably to the too humid character of the soil and climate; and this is perhaps why cultivation is not carried on on a large scale. The little tobacco raised is never brought to market, being principally kept for home consumption by mixing it with the superior imported sorts. The mode of cultivation is not different from that followed elsewhere. There is only one form in which the weed is used for smoking, namely, that commonly known as *guruk támák*, or cake tobacco, prepared by mincing the dry leaves, previously chopped fine

with a *dáo*, or reduced to powder in an *ukli* (wooden pestle and mortar), with *gur*, and then kneading the whole well with the hand into a hard paste. A few spices are sometimes added to give it an agreeable scent. Although at present a comparatively insignificant product in Bengal, I am inclined to believe, from personal inquiry and observation, that tobacco will yet become an important crop. Cheroots are not made in the District. The apparatus for smoking is the same as elsewhere. A little tobacco leaf is sometimes chewed by old women with *pán*, and a little is also consumed as snuff, but not much.

SIDDHI, CHARAS, AND GANJÁ (Cannabis indica).—This intoxicating drug is used in two forms in the District, viz., either as *bhánng* or *siddhi*, consisting of the dried upper leaves and the loose panicles without the stalks, which the natives collect during the rains while the plant is in flower, it growing quite wild in the waste places in the villages; or as *ganjá*, its dried clustered raceme, which is always imported and sold under Government license. Of these, *ganjá* and *charas* are smoked for intoxicating purposes, *siddhi* being chiefly employed medicinally.

PÁN OR BETEL LEAF (Piper betel) is grown on high land. The creeper is planted in the months of February, March, and April, the leaves being gathered at all seasons of the year as soon as the plant has arrived at maturity, which is usually about a twelvemonth after it has been sown. *Pán* is cultivated in a sort of greenhouse, known as a *pán baraj*, a garden patch, enclosed on all sides and also at the top with a reed thatch, to protect the plant from the sun. These *pán* gardens or houses are scattered all over the District, and several of them sometimes close together. Besides requiring shading from too much sun, the plant needs other careful nurture, which the *báruis*, the caste who cultivate the *pán*, alone understand how to bestow upon it. The soil of an elevated spot is essential, and it must be well drained and kept constantly manured, the best manure for the purpose being old *khol* (mustard oil-cake). The *pán* produced in the District is of the common kind—no *chháchi pán* being here grown, although to meet the Dacca market quantities of this variety of leaf are raised on the other side of the Padmá, just within the Dacca District. The leaf is universally chewed, daubed at first with a little quicklime, and then placing over it a few slices of the areca-nut and a small fragment of *kath* or *khayer*; the whole is afterwards folded into a flattish cone or packet with the leaf outside

—*pán khili*—a clove being often pierced through the upper open end of the cone as a pin to prevent the ingredients from falling out. The lime and *kath* when chewed together give a deep orange or red colour to the cud, and thus dye the lips and tongue in the peculiar manner so common among the natives of this District. The *pán* thus eaten, generally after a meal, serves as a powerful digestive stimulant to the stomach, while, owing to the lime it contains, it prevents any undue acidity. The chewing of the betel is also supposed to preserve the teeth.

SUPÁRI OR BETEL-NUT TREES (Areca catechu) are cultivated throughout the District, every village site of any standing being studded with these graceful palms. Colonel Gastrell in his Revenue Survey Report, says—"They are sometimes scattered indiscriminately about the villages, but are more generally planted out in regular plantations. Each tree yields on an average a hundred nuts per annum, the value of which varies greatly. These trees thrive best in damp rich soil, and in places where their roots are well shaded. They do not appear to impoverish the land much, and admit of crops of rice or other grain being sown, and thriving on the same field. The natives, indeed, affirm that the trees are greatly improved, and bear more fruit, when paddy or rice is sown throughout the plantation. The wood of the betel is of very hard fibrous texture, and works up into lathes of great length, strength, and durability, which are largely used for flooring of boats, &c."

TURMERIC OR HALDÍ (Curcuma longa) is sown on very high land in April or May, and is cut in the following January or February. Ginger or *ádá* (Ammomum zingiber) is also sown on the same description of land, and is planted and cut at the same seasons as the above.

FRUIT-TREES.—The following list and brief description of the various fruit-trees met with in Faríḍpur District is also condensed from Dr Basu's valuable Report already alluded to.

MANGO OR AM (Mangifera indica).—This stately evergreen forms alone at least fifty per cent. of the trees grown in the District; indeed the tree is so common, that there is scarcely a hut which is not more or less shaded under its widely extended foliage. The tree blossoms about the beginning of February, and the fruit generally ripens by the middle of May. There are at least twenty varieties of the fruit in the District, varying in size, shape, and flavour; but as they are all more or less infected with

a species of beetle, they are not used by Europeans, and indeed are scarcely fitted for the table. Generally speaking, the best sorts are the most injured by these insects; the natives, notwithstanding, greedily eat them, and they are also made into *ámsatta*, which is prepared by exposing the expressed juice of the sarcocarp in a thin layer on a plate or piece of cloth to the sun until quite dry, when it is pulled off and folded and kept for use. When carefully prepared and kept from damp, *ámsatta* preserves all the flavour of the fresh mango for months. It is a wholesome preserve, and is given to the sick or convalescent as an appetiser, and to promote digestion.

PINE-APPLE, *ánáras* (Bromelia ananas).—The pine-apple met with in the local markets is for the most part imported from Dacca or Bákarganj. The fruit is in season in June, July, and August, and is eaten by the natives sliced with a little salt, or steeped in rosewater and sweetened.

JACK FRUIT, *káthál* (Artocarpus integrifolia).—This is another very common fruit, and perhaps the largest known in the world. A large jack will often weigh as much as three quarters of a hundredweight. The edible part is a thick yellow fleshy pericarp enclosing a large ex-albuminous seed. A collection of these, closely packed together on a stunted branch, and encased in a thick spiny, leathery integument, constitutes the entire fruit. It has a peculiar strong unpleasant smell, but is nevertheless highly prized and largely consumed by the people. The farinaceous seeds of the jack form a valuable culinary article in a native household, and when roasted are said to be not unlike chestnuts in flavour.

CUSTARD APPLE, *átá* and *noná* (Annona squamosa and Annona reticulata).—These two fruits are very much like each other, having a round form with a soft skin, containing a number of seeds embedded in a mass of soft whitish flesh resembling custard. The *átá* differs from the *noná* by its tubercular appearance and the superior delicacy of its flavour.

ORANGES, &c., *nebu*.—*Nebu* is a general term applied to all fruits of the order Aurantiacæ; hence citrons, lemons, the shaddock, and orange are all *nebus*. The varieties indigenous to the District are the *kágchi* and *páti nebus*, the jungle *nebu*, and the *bátábi nebu* (pumplenose). They all owe their acidity to citric acid contained in their pulp. The first two varieties are much resorted to either for making sherbets with sugar or salt, or to impart an agreeable

acid taste to rice. The usual method is to cut the *nebu* into three slices vertically, so as to admit of taking out the central tough placenta, and then to squeeze the juice between the fingers into the sherbet or the dish of rice. The juice is cooling, a stomachic, and powerfully antiscorbutic. The pumplenose, when ripe, contains a cooling sub-acid juice, used more as a dessert than the limes are.

BEL (*Ægle marmelos*).—This tree is a very common one, bearing a large smooth round fruit with a hard rind. The flesh of the ripe *bel* is sweet and fragrant, and is noted for its nutritive, astringent, and cathartic properties. The fruit is in season in the hot weather.

COCOA-NUT, *nárikel* (Cocos nucifera).—This is not a very common tree in the District, and besides forming an article of food, is put to a variety of useful purposes.

The other fruit-trees of Farídpur District may be summed up as follow:—*Bádám*, or country almond (Terminalia catappa), occasionally met with on the roadside, with a kernel not unlike the regular almond in taste and flavour. *Tut*, or mulberry (Morus Indica); the fruit comes in season soon after the cold weather, but is not much cared for. *Péárá* or *guava* (Psidium pyriferum); only one variety of this tree is met with in the District, the fruit being white, and in size and shape like an ordinary pear; in season in July and August. *Ghulláb jám*, or rose-apple (Eugenia jambos), and *jámrul*, or star-apple (Eugenia alba); both these trees are not unfrequently met with in native gardens; the one bearing a round white fruit with a rose flavour, the other a conical fruit of the size of a small pear, but with a shining waxy appearance, and insipid in taste; both come in season in the rains. *Tarmuj*, or water-melon (Cucurbita citrullus), and *phuti*, or musk-melon (Cucumis momordica); these fruits are found in abundance during the rains, and are eaten greedily, although not very wholesome. Peach (Amygdalis Persica); this tree is not altogether unknown in the District, but the fruit is generally watery and insipid, and hardly worth anything. *Gáb* (Embryopteris glutinifera); the fruit is only eaten occasionally by poor persons. *Wiláyati gáb* (Diospyros glutinosá) is occasionally met with; the fruit, which ripens in August, has a rich crimson down round it, and resembles a plantain in taste; the fruit is pear-shaped, with generally three flattish stones in the centre. Plantains and bananas, *kalá*; the varieties commonly met with are

sapri, champá, chini-champá, martábán, rámkalá, kanyá, bási, mádná and *biche kalá* or *kantáli*. The two last kinds, although the sweetest, are not much prized. Plantains are largely consumed, and eaten either alone, or with rice and milk, much in the same way as the mango. *Lichi* (Nephellium lichi); pomegranate (*dárim*), and *papeya* (Carica papaya) trees, are also met with.

AREA OF DISTRICT: OUT-TURN OF CROPS, &c.—The Surveyor-General returned the area of the District in 1871 at 1524·06 square miles, of which I have the details of 1506⅔ square miles, or 964,035 acres. These details are as follow:—1143·44 square miles or 731,806 acres were returned in 1871 as actually under cultivation; 133 square miles or 85,120 acres as uncultivated, but capable of cultivation; and 229·85 square miles or 147,109 acres as under jungle and water, and uncultivable. It is impossible to state accurately the comparative acreage under the principal crops, but the following is an estimate of the cultivated area of the more important crops in 1870:—472,313 acres were estimated as under rice cultivation; barley, 500 acres; wheat, 500 acres; pulses, 160,000 acres; oil-seeds of different kinds, such as *sarishá, til*, &c., 20,000 acres; jute, 20,000 acres; sugar-cane, 10,000 acres; indigo, 1500 acres. There are no lands in the District which are rented as high as 18s., or even 9s. an acre. The yield of grain as compared with the acreage is comparatively low, and the rates of rent are low in consequence. The best descriptions of land in Faridpur yield no more than about seven and three quarter hundredweights of *áman* paddy per acre on an average, and these are generally rented at an annual rent of 3s. 9d. an acre. Except in the case of marsh lands, *áus* seed is generally intermixed with the *áman*, and consequently the total out-turn per acre is something higher. The *áus* crop alone amounts to an average of a little over four and a third hundredweights of paddy per acre, and the produce is generally sold at about fifty pounds for a shilling for the unhusked paddy. Lands which do not yield on an average more than six and three quarter hundredweights of *áman* paddy are rented at 3s. an acre per annum; and the lowest kinds of paddy land, which produce not more than five and a half hundredweights per acre, were returned in 1871 at 2s. 3d. an acre. These estimates seem rather low, as it will be seen from the statement of rents given on a subsequent page that in very many cases rice land rents as high as 7s. 6d. an acre, and very seldom falls below 3s. an acre per annum. The paddy grown on all the

three kinds of land mentioned above is the same both in kind and quality, and towards the end of 1870 was selling (unhusked) at the rate of forty-three to forty-five pounds for a shilling. In almost all paddy lands, other cereals and different kinds of pulses are grown. Sometimes these are sown after the harvest, and sometimes before it. The cereals and pulses thus grown as a second crop are mentioned below, with the approximate yield per acre, and their prices as they stood at the end of 1870:—(1) *Musurí*, average yield four and a third hundredweights per acre, worth 4s. 8d. a hundredweight. (2) *Matar* (peas), average yield about six and three quarter hundredweights, worth from 4s. to 4s. 8d. a hundredweight. (3) *Mug*, average yield three and a third to four and a third hundredweights per acre, worth about 6s. 8d. a hundredweight. (4) *Máskalái*, average yield five and a half hundredweights per acre, worth about 2s. 8d. a hundredweight. (5) *Khesárí*, average yield seven and three quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about 1s. 8d. a hundredweight. (6) *Sarishá*, average yield two and a quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about 8s. a hundredweight. (7) *Rái*, average yield two and a quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about the same price. (8) *But* (gram), average yield four and a third hundredweights per acre, worth about 3s. 4d. a hundredweight. (9) *Jab* (barley), average yield eight and three quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about 1s. 4d. per hundredweight. (10) *Goham* (wheat), average yield six and three quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about 8s. a hundredweight. (11) *Chiná*, average yield six and three quarter hundredweights per acre, worth about 2s. per hundredweight. (12) *Masiná*, average yield four and a third hundredweights per acre, worth about 5s. 4d. a hundredweight. (13) *Chhota piyáj* (small onions), average yield twenty-six hundredweights per acre, worth about 2s. 8d. per hundredweight. (14) *Bara piyáj* (large onions), average yield fifty-four hundredweights per acre, worth about 10d. a hundredweight. On the whole, the Collector is of opinion that a fair profit from an acre of rice land rented at 3s. 9d. an acre is about £1, 10s. a year; and estimates that of an acre rented at 3s. at about 18s. per annum, after allowing for all costs of cultivation, including the value of the peasant's own labour. The total weight of the crops produced during the year depends upon the sort of second crop which the cultivator plants in his fields.

No Returns exist in the Collectorate Records showing the rates of rent in the different Fiscal Divisions in olden times, but at the

present day the lands of the District, with the various rates of rent assessed upon each, may be classified as follows:—(1) *Bástu*, or homestead lands, on which the villagers' houses are built; rent from 6s. to 7s. 6d. an acre. (2) *Bágichá*, or garden land, generally situated around the homesteads; rent from 5s. 3d. to 5s. 7½d. an acre. (3) *Ákh*, or sugar-cane land; rent from 4s. 10½d. to 5s. 3d. an acre. (4) *Sani*, or straw land; rent from 4s. 1d. to 4s. 6d. an acre. (5) *Pán* land; rent from 7s. 6d. to 9s. an acre. (6) Superior rice land; rent 3s. 9d. an acre. (7) Second quality rice land; rent, 3s. an acre. (8) Third quality rice land; rent 2s. 3d. an acre. More exact details of the rates of rent for different sorts of land will be given, *parganá* by *parganá*, on a subsequent page.

CONDITION OF THE PEASANTRY.—A farm of thirty-three acres or upwards would be considered a very large holding for a peasant in Faridpur District; and one of three and a half acres a very small one. A fair-sized holding for an ordinary peasant would be a farm of about ten or twelve acres, but including, in addition to his rice fields, a certain quantity of garden and other descriptions of land for growing higher kinds of crops. A cultivator is considered to be in fair circumstances when the necessaries of life can be supplied from the produce of his own fields. An ordinary pair of oxen cannot cultivate more than five acres of land; an unusually stout and healthy pair might be able to cultivate between six and seven acres of land throughout the whole year, but certainly not more. A farm of five acres in extent does not make its holder so well off as a respectable retail shopkeeper, but a holding of this size which included a patch of sugar-cane land would render a cultivator better off than a money payment of sixteen shillings a month. About ten or twelve years ago the cultivating class was generally in debt, but the enhanced prices of rice, sugar-cane, and in short in all the necessaries of life produced in Faridpur, have so far improved their position that more than half of them have cleared off their old debts, and are now in comparatively easy circumstances. The Collector of the District is of opinion that about one sixth of the whole cultivating class is still in debt.

DIFFERENT CLASSES OF CULTIVATORS.—It is difficult to state the proportions of the different classes of tenants in Faridpur, that is to say, the number of those who hold their lands with a Right of Occupancy, and of those who are not liable to enhancement of rent, as compared with those who are mere tenants-at-will. The same man

may have a Right of Occupancy to his homestead, or certain other land, and yet be a mere tenant-at-will with regard to some other piece of land which he may hold as a Non-Resident or *Páikásht* cultivator. *Khúdkásht*, or Resident husbandmen, are mostly tenants with Occupancy rights with respect to the land on which they dwell, and are sometimes *miráshdárs* or holders of long standing on a fixed rental. Very few *Khúdkásht*, or Resident cultivators, are tenants-at-will with respect to their homestead lands, and indeed the proportion of cultivators who hold even their farm lands as mere tenants-at-will is said to be not more than thirteen per cent of the whole. The great bulk of the cultivating class in Farídpur, or about seventy-five per cent. of the whole, are acknowledged to possess Occupancy Rights defined by the provisions of Act X. of 1859. The higher class of husbandmen who hold their lands permanently, and at a fixed rent not liable to enhancement by the superior landlord, and acknowledged and registered as such under the provisions of the same Act, amount to about twelve per cent. of the whole. There are very few cases in Farídpur of small proprietors who own, occupy, and cultivate their hereditary lands without either a superior landlord above them or a sub-holder or labourer of any sort under them. The Collector states that the number of such holders in the District is not supposed to exceed ten or fifteen. During the ten years (1860–70) in which the Land Law (Act X. of 1859) has been in operation in Farídpur, forty-nine tenants have established Rights of Occupancy in Court, and eighty-two have established their rights to hold their land in perpetuity without enhancement of rent. An average husbandman can comfortably support a middling-sized household, consisting of five members, on about £1 per month.

THE DOMESTIC ANIMALS of the District consist of cows, buffaloes, horses, sheep, goats, dogs, cats, pigs, fowls, ducks, &c. Oxen are used for agricultural purposes; also buffaloes, but not so commonly. Sheep, goats, pigs, fowls, and ducks, &c., are bred for food, as well as for purposes of trade. The common domestic fowl is largely reared in the District by the Muhummadans, who constitute almost three fifths of the population; it is bred both for local consumption and for export to Calcutta. For the most part, the Musalmán women attend to the management of the poultry-yard. No household of a Muhammadan can be said to be complete without its pair or two of sitting hens with a large cock or two, and generally a fair stock of their progeny. In many houses a small separate

hut, thickly staked with long bamboo pegs outside to prevent depredations from jackals and other wild animals, is specially provided for the accommodation of the poultry. In others, however, where no such provision is made, the poultry either share the same room with its human inmates, or they find shelter in the cow-shed. They wander free all day, and it is of course an understood thing that they must pick up their own food as best they may from what they can get about the house; excepting the young brood or the hen sitting on the egg, for which some rice or other suitable food has to be allowed. Most of the poultry thus reared is intended for the market. A few stray quails are occasionally seen.

The price of an average cow is from £1 to £1, 10s., and of an average pair of oxen from £3 to £4. Buffaloes are of two kinds in Faríd pur, namely, *bángar* and *kasár*. A pair of female buffaloes of the *bángar* class sells from £5 to £6, and a pair of male buffaloes of the same class at £3 to £3, 10s. A pair of female *kasar* buffaloes is worth from £10 to £12, 10s., and a pair of males from £4 to £6. The *bángar* buffalo is timid and inoffensive, and used in drawing carts and ploughing. The *kasar* buffalo is of powerful make, and very ferocious. A score of sheep costs about £2; a score of female kids, six months old, £1, 10s.; a score of male kids, six months old, £4; a score of full-grown pigs, from £14 to £16.

THE AGRICULTURAL IMPLEMENTS in use in Faríd pur are very nearly the same as those in other parts of Bengal, and consist of a *nángal* or plough, *mai* or clod-breaker, *nánglá* or rake, *kodáli* or hóe, and *káchi* or sickle. To prepare land for the seed, the field is ploughed in furrows both lengthwise and across, until the surface is pretty well broken. The *mai* is then drawn over the field, generally by four oxen, with two men standing upon it to give it weight, in order to break the clods turned up by the plough, and to smooth the land. The *mai* is made of two parallel pieces of bamboo joined together by cross bars, and resembles a ladder. After the land is thoroughly broken and made loose, the field is again ploughed into furrows. The seeds are then sown broadcast, and the *mai* is once more dragged over the land to cover the earth over the seed. The *nánglá* is a kind of rake with wooden teeth. After the plants have grown to a certain height, the land is harrowed with this implement, the object being to destroy the weeds. In some parts of Bengal, this instrument is called *bidá*. The *káchi* or sickle is also used for weeding, besides reaping when the crop has reached

maturity. The *kodáli* or hoe is used in clearing jungly lands when brought under cultivation for the first time, or which have been allowed to lie fallow for a length of years. The cattle and implements ordinarily required to cultivate what is technically known as "one plough" of land, or about five acres, are one pair of oxen, and one of each of the implements enumerated above, representing a capital of about £4, 10s. [Information on this head not precise.—W. W. H.]

WAGES AND PRICES.—Wages have doubled within the last fifteen years. The present wages of day-labourers and artisans, compared with fifteen years ago, are as follow:—In 1855, day-labourers earned from 2¼d. to 3d. per diem; in 1870, they received from 4½d. to 6d. Smiths received from 14s. to £1 per mensem in 1855; in 1870, they earned from £1, 4s. to £1, 10s. per month. A bricklayer's wages, which amounted from 10s. to 12s. per month in 1855, increased to from £1 to £1, 4s. per month in 1870. Carpenters, who received from 12s. to 16s. a month in 1855, earned from £1 to £1, 4s. in 1870. Properly speaking, there is no class in Farídpur who habitually follow the occupation of agricultural day-labourers. An extract from the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (Farídpur Section, p. 197), fully explains the system pursued in this District for obtaining assistance in tillage:—"In ploughing and weeding, a cultivator has generally to procure extra hands; for this, however, no payment is tendered, as the person so assisted repays the debt by working himself for those who helped him. This system of mutual assistance is known in this District as *gáti* or *gátá*. Sometimes a certain number of ploughs are engaged and paid for at the rate of six or eight ploughs for the rupee. But this is not usually the case. Those who do not labour at the plough themselves, such as the *jotdárs*, or husbandmen of the better class, employ this kind of labour, or else hire farm-servants, who are paid by monthly wages. There is another way in which agricultural labour is obtained in this District. A man supplies a plough and the bullocks to draw it; another man works with them. The employer gets sixteen days' work in a month, and the workman fourteen days for himself. In this way field labour is obtained without the actual payment of wages. The reaping is generally done by labourers, who are paid out of the produce of the field reaped. The general agreement seems to be that the labourer takes for himself one bundle out of every five or six reaped by him. The cost of reaping, calculated at this allowance, is something more

than a shilling a man per diem, and the consequence is, that at the harvest season almost all labourers abscond from their usual work to find employment as reapers." The rate of wages at harvest-time seems to be somewhat overstated in the above extract, and the designation of "farm-servant" must not be understood in its English sense. Here he is a servant for all sorts of household work, and when his services are not required in the field, he repairs his employer's house, plies his boat, and assists him in various other capacities. At the present day he is generally paid money wages at the rate of 5s. per mensem, besides his food. Formerly he used to receive 2s. 6d. a month besides his meals. Another mode of getting assistance for agricultural purposes was sometimes resorted to. When a cultivator required extra hands for ploughing or weeding, he had only to promise a good dinner, and he was sure of getting as many men as he needed. This system, however, has fallen into disuse, as the return on the labour thus obtained hardly compensated for the expenses incurred in providing a substantial dinner. Such labourers are called *niyárá pairád.*

PRICES OF PRODUCE.—Food grains have also increased in price during the last ten years. In 1860 the best variety of cleaned rice sold at 3s. 4d. a hundredweight; in 1870 its price was 4s. a hundredweight. Common rice, such as that used by labourers and the poorer classes, sold at 2s. 8d. a hundredweight in 1860, and 3s. 4d. a hundredweight in 1870. The best unshelled rice or paddy sold at 2s. 8d. a hundredweight in 1860, and in 1870 it was selling at the same rate. The coarser quality of unshelled rice sold at 2s. 4d. a hundredweight in 1860, but in 1870 it was returned at 2s. 2½d. a hundredweight. The maximum price for rice and paddy during the famine of 1865–66 was as follows:—Best cleaned rice, 12s. 3d. a hundredweight; common cleaned rice, 10s. 11d. a hundredweight; best unhusked rice, 6s. 1½d. a hundredweight; common unhusked rice, 5s. 5½d. a hundredweight. Other products now sell as follow:—Unshelled barley sells from 1s. 4d. to 1s. 6d. a hundredweight, and when husked and reduced to powder, at 8s. 2d. a hundredweight. Indigo is not sold int he District; the little that is manufactured is exported to Calcutta. Molasses extracted from the juice of the date-tree is sold at 10s. 11d. a hundredweight. The best kind of sugar manufactured from sugar-cane is sold at 19s. 1d. a hundredweight, and the inferior kind at 16s. 4d. a hundredweight. The following price list of the remaining principal products is taken from page 207 of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," and

refers to the year 1867 :—Linseed, from 6s. 9½d. to 7s. 6d. a hundredweight; turmeric, 12s. 3d. a hundredweight; capsicums, 13s. 4d. a hundredweight; tobacco, first quality, 13s. 7¾d. a hundredweight; tobacco, inferior, 8s. 2d. a hundredweight; cotton, £3 to £3, 2s. 8d. a hundredweight; cocoa-nuts, £3, 10s. per hundred; oil-cake, 1s. 4d. a hundredweight; *ghi* or clarified butter, £2, 14s. 7d. to £3 a hundredweight. The prices of pulses and country spirits have been already given on a previous page.

WEIGHTS AND MEASURES.—Unhusked rice or paddy is sold wholesale according to the following measure; the English equivalents being also given :—1 *káchá ser* = 1 lb. 8 oz. $10\frac{3}{5}\frac{4}{5}$ dr.; 10 *ser* = 1 *ádlá* = 15 lb. 6 oz. $13\frac{5}{7}$ dr.; 2 *ádlá* = 1 *kátá* = 1 qr. 2 lb. 13 oz. $11\frac{3}{7}$ dr.; 20 *kátá* = 1 *sali* = 5 cwt. 2 qr. 1 lb. 2 oz. $4\frac{4}{7}$ dr.; 20 *sali* = 1 *pati* = 5 tons 10 cwt. 0 qr. 22 lb. 13 oz. $11\frac{3}{7}$ dr. It is the husbandmen alone who sell paddy and all sorts of pulses by the above standard. Rice is sold by the shopkeepers and merchants according to the following measure, which is the standard throughout Bengal :—1 *páká chhaták* or 5 *tolá* = 2 oz. $0\frac{3}{3}\frac{2}{5}$ dr.; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *poá* = 8 oz. $3\frac{2}{3}\frac{3}{5}$ dr.; 4 *poá* = 1 *ser* = 2 lb. 0 oz. $14\frac{2}{3}\frac{2}{5}$ dr.; 5 *ser* = 1 *pasuri* = 10 lb. 4 oz. $9\frac{1}{7}$ dr.; 8 *pasuri* = 1 *man* or *maund* = 82 lb. 4 oz. $9\frac{1}{7}$ dr. Oil, tobacco, salt, different kinds of pulses, in short, all articles except rice, are sold by the shopkeepers according to the following measure :—1 *káchá chhaták* or $3\frac{3}{4}$ *tolá* = 1 oz. $8\frac{2}{3}\frac{4}{5}$ dr.; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *poá* = 6 oz. $2\frac{2}{3}\frac{6}{5}$ dr.; 4 *poá* = *ser* = 1 lb. 8 oz. $10\frac{3}{5}\frac{4}{5}$ dr.; 5 *ser* = 1 *pasuri* = 7 lb. 11 oz. $6\frac{6}{7}$ dr.; 8 *pasuri* = 1 *man* = 61 lb. 11 oz. $6\frac{6}{7}$ dr. Gold and silver measure is as follows :—12 *máshá* = 1 *rati* = $1\frac{7}{8}$ gr.; 6 *rati* = 1 *aná* = $11\frac{1}{4}$ gr.; 16 *aná* = 1 *tolá* = 180 gr. Cloth measure :—8 *anguli*, or thumb-breadths = 1 *mushti* = 6 inches; 3 *mushti* = 1 *háth* or cubit = 18 inches.

Lineal distances are in this District measured by the time they occupy in travelling. The *kos*, the common measure in other parts of Bengal, is unknown here. Time measure :—60 *bipal* = 1 *pal* = $\frac{2}{5}$ of a minute; 60 *pal* = 1 *danda* = $\frac{2}{5}$ of an hour; $7\frac{1}{2}$ *danda* = 1 *prahar* = 3 hours; 8 *prahar* = 1 day of 24 hours. The *bighá* is the local land measure in one part of the District, and the *páki* in another; but these measures with their component parts vary very greatly in different Fiscal Divisions, as the following statement will show; the English equivalents for each measure is also given :—(1) In Hávilí Fiscal Division the measure is as follow :—*chhaták* = 1 yard 6 feet 39 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 7 feet 12 inches; 20 *dhur*

= 1 *káthá* = 135 yds. 6 ft. 96 in.; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2714$\frac{4}{5}$ yds. (2) In Hákimpur Fiscal Division the following land measure is current:—1 *chhaták* = 1 yard 6 feet 9 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 6 feet 36 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 133 yards 8 feet; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2678 yds. (3) Sherdiá Fiscal Division:—1 *chhaták* = 1 yd. 6 ft. 105 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 8 feet 132 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 139 yards 7 feet 48 inches; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2796$\frac{1}{4}$ yards. (4) Núrullapúr Fiscal Division:—1 *chhaták* = 1 yard 6 feet 37 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 7 feet 4 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 135 yards 5 feet 80 inches; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2712$\frac{1}{3}$ yards. (5) Kásimnagar Fiscal Division:—*chhaták* = 2 yards 2 feet 31 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 8 yards 8 feet 124 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 179 yards 6 feet 32 inches; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 3594 yards. (6) Muhabbatpur Fiscal Division:—1 *chhaták* = 8 feet 76 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 3 yards 7 feet 16 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 75 yards 7 feet 32 inches; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 1516 yards. (7) Telíhátí Fiscal Division:—1 *chhaták* = 1 yard 5 feet 9 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 2 feet 36 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 125 yards; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2500 yards. (8) Mukimpur Fiscal Division:—1 *chhaták* = 1 yard 5 feet 99 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 6 yards 4 feet 108 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 130 yards 5 feet; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 2611$\frac{1}{9}$ yards. (9) Jalálpur, Char Mukuńdiá, Pátpasár, Khotakpur and Baulor Fiscal Divisions:—1 *chhaták* = 2 yards 1 foot 19 inches; 4 *chhaták* = 1 *dhur* = 8 yards 4 feet 76 inches; 20 *dhur* = 1 *káthá* = 170 yards 0 feet 80 inches; 20 *káthá* = 1 *bighá* = 3401$\frac{1}{4}$ yards. In the Fiscal Divisions where the *páki* is the standard of measurement, the same difference exists in different localities. (10) In the Fiscal Divisions of Shájápur, Salímpur, and Rasidpur, the *páki* consists of six *nals* or rods long by five broad, each *nal* consisting of 15 *háths* or cubits of 18$\frac{3}{4}$ inches each. The following are the component parts of this standard of measurement, with their equivalents in English measure:—1 *rek* = 15 yards 2 feet 46$\frac{3}{4}$ inches; 4 *rek* = 1 *káni* = 61 yards 0 feet 43 inches; 30 *káni* = 1 *páki* = 1830 yards 8 feet 138 inches; 16 *páki* = 1 *khádá* = 29,296 yards. (11) In Sátair and Nasibsháhí Fiscal Divisions the *páki* consists of six *nals* long by five broad, 11 *háths* or cubits to the *nal*, and 22$\frac{1}{2}$ inches to the *háth*. The following is the measurement:—1 *rek* = 11 yards 7 feet 50$\frac{1}{4}$ inches; 4 *rek* = 1 *káni* = 47 yards 2 feet 57 inches; 30 *káni* = 1 *páki* = 1417 yards 8 feet 126 inches; 16 *páki* = 1 *khádá* =

22,687$\frac{7}{9}$ yards. (12) In Naldi Fiscal Division the *páki* and *khádá*, and their subordinate parts, are much larger than in other parts of the country. The *páki* consists of six *nals* long by five broad, each *nal* comprising 22 cubits of 34 inches each. The measurement is as follows:—1 *rek* = 107 yards 8 feet 46$\frac{3}{4}$ inches; 4 *rek* = 1 *káni* = 431 yards 6 feet 43 inches; 30 *káni* = 1 *páki* = 12,951 yards; 16 *páki* = 1 *khádá* = 207,216 yards. All calculations of area, out-turn, &c., in this Statistical Account are based on the Government standard *bighá* of 14,400 square feet, nearly equivalent to a third of an English acre.

LANDLESS DAY-LABOURERS.—No class of day-labourers exists in Farídpur neither possessing nor renting land. The higher class of husbandmen generally engage servants who cultivate their fields, as well as perform other work, and who are paid by monthly wages. Most of the servants of this class, however, have lands of their own, which during their absence are cultivated by their brothers or other near relatives. The terms on which these men work, and the system of mutual assistance in cultivating each other's lands instead of employing hired labour, have been described on a preceding page. Children are largely employed in the fields, but not the women.

SPARE LANDS.—In addition to the marshes and swamps, there is a good deal of spare land in Farídpur. Large quantities of land have of late remained untilled on account of the devastations of wild pigs. Formerly, when indigo was largely cultivated throughout the District, the wild pigs were kept down by the planters and their servants.

LANDED TENURES.—The chief landed tenures are known as *zamíndárí*, *patní* or *pattaní*, *darpatní*, *mirásh*, *darmirásh*, *katkiná*, *jot*, *hawálá*, *nimhawálá*, *shámilát táluk*, *shámilát jot*, *gánthí*, *bemiádí*, and *miádí*. The denominations of the first three of the tenures, and the rights they confer, are explained in my other District Accounts, and there is no necessity to recapitulate them. A *mirásh* is a tenure in perpetuity, and conveys to the cultivators the rights of sale, gift, or transfer. Such a tenure is not liable to enhancement of rent. A bonus or *salámí* is invariably given when a tenure of this sort is created, and the superior landlords and middlemen are very averse to granting such tenures. A *darmirásh* is a subordinate tenure to a *mirásh*, and confers the same rights. It is created by the *miráshdár*, but is liable to become null and void when the *mirásh* is sold at auction for its own arrears. *Hawálás* and *nimhawálás* are

tenures similar to the two last named, and are supposed to convey similar rights. *Jot* tenures are (1) leases which have been held at an unvarying rent from a time anterior to the Decennial Settlement, or held at an unvarying rent from the time of the Permanent Settlement, and therefore presumed to be tenures at a fixed rent; (2) holdings which, though not with a fixed rental, are yet assessable at fixed rates of rent; or (3) tenures with variable rents assessed according to fixed rules, as, for instance, the rates of rent prevailing in the neighbourhood. *Gánthí* tenure is another name for a *jot*, and is pretty extensively used towards the south of the District. *Shámilát táluks* are dependent estates that have to pay their rent or revenue through the owners of other estates, but in every other respect are independent tenures. *Shámilát jots* are in the same way dependent on the *jots* to which they are attached. *Bemiádí* leases are tenures without any limitation as to the time of holding. They are non-transferable, and are liable to enhancement. The lessee cannot dig tanks, manufacture bricks, cut trees, or sink wells, without the permission of the lessor. *Miádí* tenures are leases with a limitation of time, at the expiration of which the lessor can oust the cultivator at pleasure. This latter class of tenures is, however, gradually decreasing, as the cultivators do not like to take them. The number of *bemiádí* tenures without any stipulation as to time is proportionately increasing, probably because of the dislike of the proprietors to give *mirásh* tenures, and the equal reluctance of the tenants to accept *miádí* leases. Most of the lands of the District have by this time passed from the hands of the superior landlords into that of intermediate holders, such as *hawáládárs*, *jotdárs*, &c.

RATES OF RENT, &C.—No records exist in the Collectorate, nor can the *zamíndárs* supply any information, showing what rates of rent were prevalent in olden times, or at a period prior to the Permanent Settlement. The rates prevailing immediately before the passing of the Land Law (Act X. of 1859) were the same as those ruling at the present day, and the operation of that law does not appear to have generally affected the rates of rent current in Farídpur District. Where enhancements have taken place, they have been principally made on lands found to exceed the quantity covered by the leases, or on lands originally assessed at a lower rate than neighbouring fields of the same description and quality. I have already given a *general* statement of the present rates of rent, as reported to me by the Collector in 1871. The following return of rates for each Fiscal

Division, specially called for by the Government of Bengal in 1872, shows how these rates for the same description of land vary in different localities, according to situation, quality of soil, &c.

HAVÍLÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice lands, from 1s. 6d. to 6s. 9d. an acre; sugar-cane land, from 4s. 10½d. to 10s. 1½d. an acre; orchard land, from 4s. 10½d. to 12s. 9d. an acre; vegetable land, from 3s. 4½d. to 10s. 1½d. an acre; betel-leaf gardens, 10s. 1½d. an acre; spice land, growing turmeric, ginger, &c., 4s. 10½d. an acre.

PÁTPASÁR FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, from 3s. 9d. to 5s. 7½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, from 5s. 7½d. to 11s. 3d. an acre; orchard land, from 5s. 7½d. to 11s. 3d. an acre; vegetable land, from 4s. 6d. to 5s. 7½d. an acre; *pán* or betel-leaf gardens, from 4s. 6d. to 11s. 3d. an acre; spice land, growing turmeric, ginger, &c., from 5s. 7½d. to 11s. 3d. an acre.

NASIRSHÁHÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, 4s. 10½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 13s. 6d. an acre; orchard land, 8s. 3d. an acre; vegetable land, 6s. 9d. an acre; *pán* or betel land, 13s. 6d. an acre; spice land, growing turmeric, ginger, &c., 4s. 10½d. an acre.

DHULDÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, 2s. 7½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 7s. 6d. an acre; orchard land, 4s. 6d. an acre; vegetable land, 3s. 9d. an acre; *pán* or betel land, 7s. 6d. an acre; and spice land, 2s. 7½d. an acre.

KHOTAKPUR FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, 5s. 7½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 8s. 3d. an acre; orchard land, 7s. 6d. an acre; vegetable land, from 5s. 7½d. to 7s. 6d. an acre; spice land, 4s. 6d. an acre.

SALESWARÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, 5s. 7½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 2s. 7½d. an acre; orchard land, 11s. 3d. an acre; vegetable land, 5s. 7½d. an acre; spice land, 5s. 7½d. an acre.

SÁTAIR AND POKTÁNÍ FISCAL DIVISIONS.—Rate for rice land, 4s. 1½d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 10s. 1½d. an acre; orchard land, 13s. 6d. an acre; vegetable land, 6s. 9d. an acre; *pán* or betel-leaf gardens, 16s. 10½d. an acre; spice land, 6s. 9d. an acre.

TELIHÁTÍ FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, from 4s. 10½d. to 5s. 3d. an acre; sugar-cane land, 12s. 9d. an acre; orchard land, from 5s. 3d. to 12s. 9d. an acre; vegetable land, from 4s. 10½d. to 6s. an acre; *pán* or betel-leaf gardens, 6s. an acre; spice land, from 5s. 3d. to 9s. 9d. an acre.

MUHABBATPUR FISCAL DIVISION.—Rate for rice land, 7s. 6d. an acre; orchard land, 12s. 4½d. an acre; vegetable land, 9s. 4½d. an acre.

KÁSIMPUR FISCAL
sugar-cane land, 18s
vegetable land, 5s. 7
an acre ; spice land,

MOKIMPUR FISCA
orchard land, 7s. 6d

SHÁHPUR FISCAL
vegetable land, 3s. 4

KHARARIÁ FISCA
and vegetable land,

HABIBPUR FISCAL
land, 1s. 10½d. an a

FATHIJANGPUR F
table land, 1s. 6d. a

KOSHÁ FISCAL D
sugar-cane land, 2s.
vegetable land, 4s.
acre ; spice land, 3s

JALÁLPUR FISCAL
to 6s. 9d. an acre
from 5s. 7½d. to 15s
acre ; pán or betel
to 11s. 3d. an acre.

NALDÍ FISCAL DI
an acre ; sugar-cane
from 1s. 6d. to 3s.
1s. 7½d. an acre ; pa
spice land, from 1s.

HÁKIMPUR FISCA
sugar-cane land, 5s.
table land, 6s. an ac
land, 5s. 3d. an acre

CHAR MUKUNDIA
2s. 3d. to 6s. 4½d. an
land, 10s. 1½d. to 11
10s. 1½d. an acre ;
land, 11s. 3d. an acr

KÁSIMINAGAR FIS
to 3s. an acre ; suga

3s. 9d. to 6s. 4½d: a
land, from 2s. 7½d.
ALÍPUR FISCAL
orchard land, 5s. 7
pán or betel garden
SHERDIÁ FISCAL
sugar-cane land, 4s.
vegetable land, 9s.
acre; spice land, 4
NASIBSHÁHF FISC
for rice land, 4s. 1½
orchard land, 13s. 1
acre; spice land, 1
MAHIMSHÁHF AN
land, 4s. 1½d. an a
land, *pán* gardens, a
DHULDÍ FISCAL
for rice land, 4s. 1
orchard land, 7s. 1½
AMÍRÁBÁD FISCA
cane land and orcha
BHAR FATHIJANG
an acre; orchard la
SHÁJÁPUR FISCAL
cane land, 4s. 6d.
3s. an acre.
ROKANPUR AND S
3s. an acre; sugar
acre; *pán* or betel g
KÁSIMNAGAR FIS
Rate for rice land,
12s. an acre; orcha
JAHANGÍRÁBÁD AN
land, 7s. 6d an acre
15s. an acre; spice
BELGÁCHHÍ AND
land, 3s. 9d. an acr
13s. 10½d. an acre;
9s. an acre.
SHUJÁBÁD, MUHA

SIONS. — Rates for rice land, from 1s. 10½d. to 3s. an acre; orchard land, 7s. 10½d. an acre; spice land, 2s. 7½d. an acre.

In returning the foregoing list of rates, the Collector makes the following remarks :—"The information given has been carefully prepared, after consulting every public officer and private person likely to possess any valuable knowledge of the subject. No one has been able to state definitely the reason for the existence of a separate scale of measurement and rent for nearly every Fiscal Division in the District. It is allowed that they were made when the *párganás* were created. It is not unfrequently seen that the same kind of lands, actually contiguous, in the same Police Circle, and growing the same kind of crops, pay different rates of rent; and this is generally attributable to the proprietor of the one being powerful and exacting; or, if the rent is light, the cultivators of a village acting in combination to resist every enhancement or cess. As a rule, a weak and poor landlord must be content with low rates. When rice land is neither very high nor very low, *áus* and *áman* are generally mixed and sown broadcast, and this description fetches the highest rates. *Áus* and sugar-cane, too, are sometimes grown alternately, and the rent is then as high as for sugar-cane lands. Date-trees are grown as a border to rice-fields, as well as on homestead and in orchard lands, and no special rent is paid for them. The owners sometimes cut the trees themselves, but often let them out for the season. Pulses and cereals other than rice are sown on paddy lands in the northern and less inundated parts of the District, both before and after the rice harvest is gathered in. After the paddy is off the field, cattle are sometimes left loose to graze at will, and this tends to prevent the culture of winter cereals in some places. Where the rates for sugar-cane land appear very low, it is because the cane is of an inferior kind, which will stand inundation, and which yields comparatively little sugar."

MANURES. — The annual inundations of the Padmá and the Chandná supply sufficient deposits of fertilising silt, and little or no manure is necessary in the low-lying grounds in which the *áman* crop is cultivated. In the higher levels fit for the cultivation of *áus* rice and sugar-cane, cow-dung is used. It is not sold, but merely gathered by the husbandmen. From four to six tons of cow-dung a year are reported as ample for an acre of *áus* and sugar-cane land. In *pán* gardens, oil-cake is used as manure; thirty-five hundredweights being required for an acre—value about £3.

IRRIGATION, is not practised in the District except in lands on which *boro* and *ráidá* paddy are grown. Generally, however, these lands remain under water, and irrigation only becomes necessary when the natural supply dries up. For this purpose a narrow trench is dug from some watercourse or marsh to the field, where the water is raised by means of a hollow tree called a *don*, worked by the hand with leverage, and turning on a fulcrum formed by a mound of earth. There are no canals or artificial watercourses constructed for irrigation purposes. The cost of irrigating an acre of *boro* rice land is about six shillings per annum. Sugar-cane fields are not irrigated in this District. Rotation of crops is only practised where *áus* rice and sugar-cane are grown in alternate years on the same land. These lands are never allowed to remain fallow, but the fields in which *áus* only is grown are, in some instances, allowed to remain fallow for a year or two after every six or seven years.

NATURAL CALAMITIES.—BLIGHTS occur nearly every year, and do considerable damage, but never throughout the whole District. They affect only a few spots here and there in a large field, and the damage caused by them is not seriously felt. Blights are chiefly caused by insects and worms, which are of three different kinds; namely—(1) a kind of insect called *gaichá pharing*, about an inch or an inch and a half long, and of a blue or greyish colour; (2) a species of worm called *marichá pharing*; and (3) another species called *barshá pokú*, about an inch long, of a greyish colour, and of a soft body. This worm lives under ground during the day, and destroys the stalks of corn during the night. It is chiefly found on lands from which the waters have subsided, and at the time when the corn is nearly ripe. The sugar-cane crops are also subject to the attacks of a kind of worm called *bángá*, about half an inch in length, of a greyish colour, with a glossy head. The young plants are generally attacked when they are about a month old. Farídpur is not subject to locusts, although they occasionally visit the District. In 1862 a swarm of locusts did considerable damage, but only remained one day. No blight has occurred within the memory of the present generation on a scale large enough to affect the general prosperity of the District. In order to keep down the *gaichá pharing*, the cultivators place branches of trees in an erect position all over the field, on which the crows alight and eat up the obnoxious insects. The *marichá pharing* is got rid of in another way. A long pole or bamboo is drawn by two men over the whole field, and torments the insect till

it flies to a neighbouring plot of ground. Against the attack of the *barshá poká* there is no remedy, but the husbandmen try to avoid a great loss by reaping the harvest as quickly as possible. When the sugar-cane is attacked by the *bángá* worm, the part affected becomes a little reddish; the cultivator then makes an incision at the place, extracts the worm, and kills it.

Floods occur every year in a greater or less degree, caused by the rising of the rivers Padmá and Chandná before they enter the District. They inundate the whole District, but seldom destroy the crops. Floods rarely arise from an accumulation of rain water. In the case of an excessive rainfall, only the low lands adjoining the marshes are seriously inundated. Three times within the memory of men now living, the floods have caused a general destruction of the crops. They occurred in the years 1824, 1838, and 1871, although in the latter year the unusually high and prolonged inundation did not materially affect the final out-turn of grain. There are no embankments or other defences against the rivers in this District. Formerly, the mouths of the numerous watercourses connecting the Chandná with the marshes in the interior were dammed up by the indigo planters before the rivers began to rise, with a view to save the indigo crop from inundation. When the crop was gathered in, the husbandmen were consulted, and the dams were opened one after another as the river subsided. By these means the crops affected by the rise of the river Chandná were protected from damage. Since the collapse of the indigo factories the mouths of these watercourses are always left open, and the Collector reports that there is now a great need for such temporary embankments, in order to protect the crops. The Collector also states, that it is desirable that similar embankments should be constructed at the mouths of the Rájápur Dhalá in the Belgáchhí Police Circle, and of the Majurdiár Khál, before the Padmá begins to rise, and that after the *áman* crops in the low lands have grown to a sufficient height, they should be opened by degrees.

Drought.—The District is not subject to drought, but in some years the lateness of the setting in of the rains retards the sowings. This, however, does not seriously affect the crops, provided that the rivers do not rise suddenly before the plant has well grown; but the cultivators anxiously look out for an early fall of rain in February or March. No droughts have occurred within the memory of the present generation on a scale which affected the general prosperity

of the District. No precautions are taken against drought, nor is there any necessity for irrigation works, Faridpur being a low-lying District, and flooded every year by the rivers. Cuttings, however, are required to drain and reclaim the numerous swamps and marshes; and the Collector regrets that the large landholders, especially the family which owns the whole of the Telíhátí Fiscal Division (a very considerable portion of which remains under water throughout the year), do not perceive the advantage of opening out watercourses, so as to drain the land.

Compensating Influences in cases of Floods or Droughts.—As by far the greater portion of the District consists of low-lying lands, any failure of crops in them caused by floods is not compensated by the increased fertility of the higher levels; but on the other hand, in a year in which there is a deficiency of rainfall, the produce of the low lands can to a limited extent compensate for the failure of crops on the high ground. The price of rice in Faridpur depends to a great extent on the importations from neighbouring Districts, such as Bákarganj, Tipperah, Bogra, and Maimansinh; and a local failure of the crop is not very much felt, provided that there is no scarcity in the above-named Districts. For instance, in 1870-71, the floods destroyed nearly the whole of the crops on the low grounds, and yet the price of rice, instead of rising, fell considerably below the rates ruling during the corresponding months of the previous year.

Famine Warnings.—The maximum price of rice, &c., during the famine of 1866 was as follows:—Best cleaned rice, 12s. 3d. a hundredweight; common quality cleaned rice, 10s. 11d. a hundredweight; best unhusked rice, 6s. 1½d. a hundredweight; common unhusked rice, 5s. 5½d. a hundredweight. The Collector states that local prices have now returned to what were considered their ordinary rates before the famine. During the famine of 1866, there was no failure either of *áman* or *áus* crops in the District itself, but the heavy price of grain in the Districts adjacent to it told severely upon the people. From the experience of that year, it is the general impression that famine rates are reached when the price of rice rises to ten lbs. for a shilling, and that even with rice at thirteen or fourteen lbs. for a shilling, serious scarcity is to be apprehended. It is stated that during the famine of 1866, when the price of rice was between nine and eleven pounds for a shilling during four months, men who in ordinary times would be considered in fair circumstances were

gradually reduced to one meal a day, and the poorer classes were obliged to ask for a share of the meals of their more fortunate neighbours. In fact, many poor people had to live almost entirely upon *hilsá* fish, which was fortunately very cheap during the most pressing months. Yet the distress never reached such a pitch in Farídpur as to render relief operations on the part of Government needful. On the whole, the Collector estimates that Government interference in the shape of relief works would become necessary if the price of rice rose to the rate of eight pounds for a shilling. It is difficult to state what rates after the harvest in January and February should be considered as a warning of famine later in the year, for the District depends so much upon imported rice, that even if the rates in Farídpur were very high, any new influx of rice would at once restore the equilibrium. If, however, the supply from the neighbouring Districts fell off, and the price of grain rose to sixteen pounds for a shilling in January or February, a famine later in the year might be considered probable. A failure of the local crops alone would not cause a famine, but would produce much individual suffering. The District contains ample means of communication with other parts of the country, being bounded on all sides by large rivers, which would to a considerable extent mitigate the extremity of famine by importation from outside. The Collector reports that the construction of the following works would still further tend to prevent the isolation of the District in time of famine:—1st, a road from Goálanda to Madhukhálí *via* Hamdampur and Jamálpur; and, 2dly, another from Kanáipur to Madhukhálí.

Foreign and Absentee Landlords.—Four European landholders are registered as proprietors on the rent roll, and in 1870 paid a total land revenue of £224, 13s. 6d. Although the Muhammadans form the majority of the population, there are only 609 Musalmán proprietors in the District, paying a rental to Government of only £1485 in 1871-72 of the £27,263 which formed the total land revenue of Farídpur. By far the greater portion of the District, or about three fourths, has passed into the hands of absentee landlords.

Roads and Means of Communication.—There are only three important lines of road in Farídpur, and they are all under the management of the Magistrate of the District. (1) The Calcutta and Jessor imperial road, from the station of Farídpur to Dhuliághátá

on the Barásiá, nineteen miles in length; cost of repairs in 1870, £89, 19s. (2) The Belgáchhí road, from the town of Faríḍpur to Kálínagar, sixteen miles in length; cost of repairs in 1870, £543, 5s. 2d. (3) The Talmá road, from the town to Talmá, ten miles in length; nothing was expended in repairs on this road in 1870. No large markets have lately sprung up on these lines of traffic. Every road in the District suffered seriously from the successive inundations of 1870 and 1871; the allotment for roads in 1871 being entirely spent in repairing the damages caused by the floods. All the roads, except that part of the Jessor and Calcutta road which passes through the station, were more or less under water for forty days in August and September 1871. Several bridges were also washed away, and others more or less injured by the inundation. The Eastern Bengal Railway line runs for twenty-two miles from west to east through the north of the District, having its terminus at Goálanda, at the junction of the Garai and Jamuná rivers. The extension of the railway through Faríḍpur has been made so recently that no large centres of industry or important marts have yet sprung up along the line of railway. Goálanda, however, is rapidly advancing in importance. No canals exist in the District.

Manufactures.—The most important manufacture of Faríḍpur, and indeed the staple article of District trade, is sugar, prepared both from the juice of the date-tree, and from the cane. The following description of the mode of extracting the date-juice, and the out-turn of the produce, is taken from Colonel Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report, pp. 8, 9:—"The trees should not be tapped to extract the sap until they are six or seven years old. But the natives seldom permit them to attain that age, commencing the tapping ordinarily after the fourth, and sometimes as early as the third year. The evil consequences of this improvidence are small returns of sap, weak and sickly growth of trees, and finally their deterioration and destruction many years before they would otherwise have been exhausted. On the other hand, the advantages obtained by early tapping are quicker returns for the money laid out during the first years of the tree's growth; but these by no means compensate for the loss in after years. Tapping generally commences early in October, when the rainy season is passed, and continues until the middle of March following. Some persons continue to extract the juice still later, but the heat of the weather after that

period generally causes it to ferment so rapidly, that little or no *gur* (coarse crude sugar) can be obtained from it. The trees, moreover, require rest to recover themselves, after being deprived of so much sap for so long a period. Shortly before the regular process of tapping begins, the men employed in this work strip off the lower leaves of the tree, and make a horizontal incision close under the crown leaves, which are left untouched, through the outer bark or skin, and well into the underwood, about five or six inches in breadth by two or three inches in depth. Below this cut, the wood and bark is pared away to the length of ten or twelve inches, preserving a flat surface sloping outwards and downwards from the inside of the top cut, and forming a deep notch in the tree, down the centre of which, and from both sides sloping downwards, small grooves are scooped out of about a quarter of an inch in depth, meeting at a point. These serve to conduct the sap to a small bamboo tube which the tapper inserts at their point of junction, and below which an earthen pot is suspended to catch the juice. The sap runs all night, and is collected early in the morning in other pots by the same man who made the incision the previous night, aided by one or two boys. It is then carried away to the boiling-house, which is generally close at hand, and is at once boiled down. On the freshness of the juice and its freedom from fermentation depends the return of *gur*; it is therefore essential to collect it early in the cool of the morning, and to convey it to the boiling-house as soon as possible. In the evening the tapper revisits the trees, scrapes the surface of the cut, cleans out the grooves, and hangs up the pots that he left in the morning. He repeats this process for three days in succession, after which it is usual to give the trees a rest for three days before tapping again. In favourable weather this rule is followed throughout the season. But it is also usual to give the trees rest when fogs are heavy, or rainy weather sets in; both states of the weather operating injuriously on the flow of sap, and rendering the tree liable to rot and die, if tapping be persisted in. As a rule, only one cut is annually made in the tree; but occasionally a second incision on the opposite side may be resorted to, although this is very rarely done. These cuts are made annually, and alternately on opposite sides of the tree, the age of which may be easily determined from the number of notches. One man, with the assistance of one or two boys or women, can efficiently look after and collect the sap of sixty trees. His wages would be, on an average, from

6s. to 7s. per month during the tapping season. He and his assistants receive their food daily; and at the close of his labours he is presented with a pair of waistcloths (*dhuti*) and one pair of shoes. The life is a hard one, and not free from danger. Serious accidents sometimes happen to these men from the breaking of the rope which they loop round their bodies and the tree to aid them, first in climbing the trees, and afterwards to support them. If the rope breaks or the knot slips, nothing can possibly save the man from falling headlong backwards to the ground. Date-trees are usually rented by the score. Rates differ, but the general one appears to be three-halfpence per tree, or 2s. 6d. the score. Young trees are said to yield about eight to ten pounds of juice per diem for the first few years; sixteen pounds when in full bearing; and again only eight to ten pounds when old, or perhaps an average of about ten pounds throughout. The best and most productive, and at the same time the largest quantity of sap, is collected during the cold season in the months of December, January, and February. The colder and drier the season is, the more favourable is it for the sap-grower. If the sap be of first-rate quality and quite fresh, six pounds will boil down to about one pound of the coarsest kind of ungranulated brown sugar. But of sap of ordinary quality, from eight to ten pounds would probably be requisite to obtain that quantity of *gur*; seven pounds may therefore be taken as the average quantity of juice required to yield one pound of *gur*." The apparatus for boiling the juice into *gur* consists of a number of earthen pots, arranged in a circle over a fire in a cavity dug in the ground, and covered over with a clay roof or ceiling, having as many holes as there are pots to be inserted. The annual expenses for maintaining a hundred trees, such as rent of trees and land, wages, food and clothing of two men, pots, pans, and fuel, contingencies, &c., amount to about £8, 16s. I have several rather inconsistent reports as to the profits and other details of the manufacture. The native sugar-boilers of the District informed Colonel Gastrell that a hundred trees would produce eighty-seven hundredweights of *gur*, worth about £11, 12s., thus leaving a clear gain to the producer of £2, 16s. per annum. Other data, given by Mr S. H. Robinson in his prize essay on the cultivation of the date-tree, return the produce of a hundred trees at sixty-six hundredweights of *gur*, worth £8, 18s. 9d. This calculation only leaves a profit of 2s. 9d. per annum on a hundred trees. I believe it to be below the truth, especially at present prices. See also my Account of Jessor District.

CANE-SUGAR.—The second kind of *gur*, or crude sugar, is called *kusuri*, or *ákh gur*, and is obtained by boiling the juice of the sugar-cane. The process of extracting the juice is thus described in Colonel Gastrell's Report, page 11:—"The mill in common use ordinarily consists of two endless, coarse-threaded wooden screws, of about eight to ten inches in diameter, set vertically in two horizontal cross pieces, and firmly fixed to two uprights which are let well into the ground. These screws have their threads cut right and left, and play into each other. They are made of any hard, close-grained wood, tamarind being preferred. To the upper end of one of the screws, which projects above the horizontal bar, a long pole is attached, to which the bullocks that turn the mill are yoked. The cane is generally passed twice through the mill before being cast aside to dry for fuel. The expressed juice is received in a basin formed for the purpose below the screws. Women or boys are usually employed to feed the mill with canes and drive the bullocks." The juice which collects in the basin is then boiled down into *gur*, the process of boiling being the same as for the sap of the date-tree.

SUGAR REFINING.—The process of refining sugar is the same, whether it is obtained from the juice of the date or of the cane. The following description of the mode of manufacture is condensed from Dr Basu's report before mentioned:—Two modes of manufacturing sugar from *gur* are resorted to. By the first method, the boiled juice, in the form of *gur*, is placed in stout gunny or sackcloth bags. The molasses or refuse is squeezed out partly by twisting and tightening the mouths of the bags, and partly by laying weights upon them for additional pressure. The article thus produced is of a brownish colour. By far the largest quantity of sugar manufactured in the District, however, is prepared in a different way. The process, rather a cumbrous one, is as follows: The *gur* is at first boiled with a certain proportion of water in a large iron vessel, a quantity of diluted milk being added from time to time to separate the impurities, which are skimmed off as soon as they form on the surface. When no more skim appears, the thickened liquor is poured into a number of circular earthen pots or strainers, made wide at the top and pointed below, with a hole in the centre, called *bhárnis*, and left for two or three days in the open air to cool. It is then removed to the refining house, where the final separation of the solid crystalline portion from the treacle is effected. The straining pots are generally arranged in

rows on a bamboo frame at a certain height from the ground, and earthen pitchers are placed under each to receive the molasses as it slowly drains from the refining pot above. To complete the arrangement, as well as to quicken the operation, fresh moist leaves of a water weed called *pátá sáolá* are now placed on the top of the refining pot, and as soon as a layer of sugar from one to two inches thick is formed at the top, it is removed by scraping with the knife, fresh weed being laid on the remainder, and the same tedious process is repeated several times until the entire quantity of sugar is made. The native confectioner makes extensive use of this sugar for the purposes of his art; but before it is fit for use, it has to be clarified again by further boiling with the addition of a solution of milk as in the last process. When this is allowed to cool, it forms a hard crust, which requires to be broken and pounded before it can be employed. The molasses which drains off from the sugar in the process is employed for preparing *hookah* tobacco, inferior sorts of sweetmeats, &c., and the rest is sold for making country rum. Dr Basu estimates the total quantity of *gur* or raw sugar prepared in Farídpur District from the juice of the cane and date-tree, to be between two hundred thousand and three hundred thousand hundredweights, or from three to four *lákhs* of *maunds* per annum. [See my "Account of Jessor."]

INDIGO MANUFACTURE was formerly carried on in Farídpur to a considerable extent, but, with one exception, all the European factories have now been closed. The cultivation still carried on by the natives is so insignificant in quantity, that it can hardly be called a manufacture of the District, and no description of the process is needed here. A full account of indigo cultivation and manufacture will be found in my "Statistical Account of Nadiyá District."

JUTE is cultivated to some extent in Farídpur District, and the process of preparing the fibre is thus described in Colonel Gastrell's Revenue Survey Report, page 15:—"The plant is gathered into bundles, and steeped in the nearest watercourse or marsh until strong fermentation has set in, and the decomposition of the grainy matter of the plant allows the fibre to separate easily. The plant is then beaten and spread out on the banks to dry; and lastly, the woody parts are separated by hand labour from the fibre, which is then either stored for use or carried to the market for sale. Very little care is ordinarily taken in cleaning such fibre as may be intended for

making common cordage. But when prepared for making fishermen's nets, much more attention is paid to the process." The only other manufacture of importance in the District is that of a species of fine mat called *sítal páti*, which is much used by the upper classes during the hot-weather months. This manufacture is also extensively carried on in the District of Silhet; but that made in the Sátair Fiscal Division of Faríḍpur is of a superior texture, and is reckoned the best of its kind in India. The plants are cut lengthwise into several parts, well scraped and boiled, and then interwoven. The weaving is performed chiefly by women, and a girl who knows how to weave the mat is eagerly sought for in marriage.

THE SOCIAL CONDITION OF THE MANUFACTURING CLASSES varies in proportion to the amount of their business and the extent of their personal property; a rich man being treated with deference, while a poor one is not held in much esteem. The manufacturers, generally speaking, do not conduct their business by means of hired labour, but work for themselves. Sugar, however, is manufactured by means of hired labourers, who are paid monthly wages. One man, called a *pasárí*, is employed to examine and superintend the manufacture, and is paid at the rate of £1 per month. The inferior workmen, whose business it is to collect and boil the molasses, and do other duties of the kind, receive money wages at the rate of 6s. per mensem, besides their food, the value of the whole amounting to between 12s. and 14s. a month. With the exception of sugar, all the manufactures of the District are carried on by the people on their own account, and in their own houses. The system of advancing money for manufacturing purposes by merchants is not usual in the District, but occasionally the men employed in large sugar manufactories take their pay for six months or a year in advance. There are no cases of manufactures having died out in the District, nor any legends of ancient processes that are no longer made use of.

TRADE AND COMMERCE.—The principal articles of trade are rice, pulses, oil-seeds, oil-cake, jute, molasses, made both from the juice of the date and of the sugar-cane, brown sugar, refined sugar, onions, cocoa-nuts, betel-nuts, clarified butter (*ghí*), salt, cotton twist, piece goods, iron, timber, spices, mustard, oil, mangoes, fish, oranges, potatoes, honey, paper, wines and brandy, and brass, bell-metal, and copper utensils. The more important seats of commerce are Bhángá, Gopálganj, Boálmárí, Sayyidpur, Madhukhálí, and Kámárkhálí. The minor trading villages are Jamálpur, Salímpur, Dhanchí, Godárbandar, Panchuriá,

and the station of Faríḍpur. The District trade is carried on by means of permanent markets. No fairs are held in Faríḍpur where trade is conducted on a large scale. The few that are held are as follows:—(1) at Sátair, held in February or March, which lasts for one day; (2) at Dhánnorá, near the Police Station of Maksúdpur, held in March or April, which also lasts for one day; (3 and 4) small fairs are also held at Dhuldí and Gujuriá, on the occasion of the great bathing festival; (5) during the great Agricultural Exhibition, at a fair held at the town of Faríḍpur in the first week of January, of which mention has been made on a previous page, a brisk trade is carried on. With the exception of sugar and *gur*, which are largely exported, the local manufactures do not suffice to meet the local wants. Nearly all other articles have to be imported largely for local consumption. The imports consist of the necessaries and luxuries of life, with the exception of rice, sugar, *gur*, onions, jute, and pulses.

Capital and Interest.—In small loan transactions, where the borrower pawns ornaments or household vessels, the current rate of interest is 7½d. in the pound sterling per mensem, or thirty-seven and a half per cent. per annum. The lender always takes care that the articles pawned are worth at least half as much again as the amount borrowed. In large transactions, when a mortgage is given upon movable property, the rate of interest varies from twelve to eighteen per cent. per annum. In the same class of transactions, where the lender is secured by a mortgage upon houses or lands, interest is charged at the rate of from nine to twelve per cent. per annum. Petty agricultural advances to the cultivators, either upon personal security, or with a lien upon the crops, are not customary in Faríḍpur. A fair return on the purchase of a landed estate is considered to be ten per cent. per annum upon the money invested. A loan office has been established at the Civil Station of Faríḍpur, and there are native banking establishments at Sayyidpur, Madhukhálí, Boálmárí, and Bhángá. None of these establishments, at the highest estimate, have a capital of more than £5000. Money is also lent by the landholders and principal merchants, and small loans are made by the village shopkeepers.

Imported Capital.—There are no industries in the District, such as tea factories, silk filatures, or mines, conducted with European capital or by European agency. The only indigo factory in Faríḍ-

pur conducted by means of European capital is one at Nakandá, and even there the manufacture is only carried on upon a small scale. The out-turn in 1869 was reported at five hundredweights of indigo. The Bábukhálí concern in Jessor District sows a small portion of land with indigo on the alluvial char lands of the Chandná in Faríḍpur District.

INSTITUTIONS.—The principal native Association in the District is a "Society for the reform of *Kulinism*, and the abolition of *pan*, or the sale of daughters in marriage," recently established in the town of Faríḍpur. The object of this institution, as its name implies, is to introduce social changes among the *Kulin* Bráhmans of the District, and to avert polygamy and the sale of daughters, which are still very prevalent. The society was started in the middle of 1870, but does not seem to have made much progress. There are no newspapers published in the District, nor are there any printing-presses. The educational and charitable institutions of Faríḍpur will be dealt with on a separate page, when treating of the administrative features of the District.

INCOME-TAX, &c.—The estimated income of Faríḍpur District, as calculated for the purposes of the Income-Tax Act of 1870, that is to say, the total of all incomes over £50 per annum, is returned at £149,080. The net proceeds of the tax, which was levied at the rate of $3\frac{1}{8}$th per cent., amounted in 1870–71 to £2802, 8s. Inthe following year, the tax was reduced to one third of its former rate, or $1\frac{1}{24}$th per cent.; the minimum rate of income liable to the cess was raised to £75, and all cultivators whose holdings did not exceed £50 per annum were exempted from the assessment. In this year, the tax realised a net sum of £877.

ADMINISTRATION.—An account of the formation of the District, and of its early administration and changes of jurisdiction, were given in the earlier pages of this Statistical Account. The District has made rapid strides under British administration, and especially so since the country passed under the Crown. No records exist in the Collectorate showing the revenue and expenditure of the District in the early years after it was separated from Dacca. The first year for which materials have been found is 1844–45. In that year, the total net revenue of Faríḍpur District amounted to £9616, 6s., and the expenditure to £6004, 4s. In 1850–51 the net revenue had increased to £10,229, 4s., and the expenditure on Civil Administration to £8374, 16s. Within the next twenty years the increase

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4. Miscellaneous

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Government land revenue in that year amounted to £27,263, being an average payment of £11, 16s. 4d. by each estate, or £8, 14s. 5d. by each registered proprietor or coparcener. The Collector reports that the general average indicated by these figures fairly represents the state of landed property in the District. The Government land revenue is collected under the provisions of Act XI. of 1859 ("An Act to improve the law relating to sales of land for arrears of revenue in the Lower Provinces"); but in the case of estates of which the Government is the proprietor, the revenue is collected, upon default being made by the lessee, by distraint, and sale of the defaulter's movable property, &c. The latest dates of payment are the 28th June, 28th September, 12th January, and 28th March in each year.

THE AMOUNT OF PROTECTION TO PERSON AND PROPERTY has also increased greatly of late years. In 1850 there were two Magisterial and eight Civil and Revenue Courts; in 1862 there were three Magisterial and nine Civil and Revenue Courts; and in 1869 there were four Magisterial and eleven Civil and Revenue Courts in the whole District, making a total of fifteen Courts. One Covenanted English Officer was at work in the District throughout that year. There are no records in existence showing the number of Courts or Covenanted Officers prior to 1850. The number of rent cases instituted under the provisions of Act X. of 1859 is as follows:—In 1861-62, 5029 original suits were instituted, besides 1544 miscellaneous applications; in 1862-63 there were 1937 original suits and 2072 miscellaneous applications; in 1866-67, 2981 original suits and 2724 miscellaneous applications; and in 1868-69, 3091 original suits and 3158 miscellaneous applications.

POLICE.—Great improvement has also taken place in the organisation of the Police Force within the last thirty years. In 1840 the force consisted of 106 foot police with 25 native officers, besides 1635 village policemen. The cost of officering this force, above the rank of head-constable, amounted to £679, 16s. In 1860, the number of policemen and officers was nearly exactly the same, but the cost of officering the force had increased to £1002. The present police force of Faridpur consists of the Regular Police, a Municipal Police, and the Village Watch. At the end of 1871 the Regular Force of the District stood as follows:—1 European superintendent, on a salary of £720 per annum; 56 subordinate officers, maintained at a total cost of £2292, or an average pay of £40, 18s. 6d. each; and 257 foot constables, maintained at a total cost of £1999, 4s., or an

average pay of £7, 15s. 6d. per head per annum. Besides these salaries, the following items are included in the cost of the Regular Police :—Travelling allowance of Superintendent, £135 ; pay and travelling allowances of office establishment, £205, 4s. ; contingencies and all other charges, £1074, 8s. The Regular Force of Faridpur District, therefore, consists of 314 officers and men, maintained at a total cost of £6425, 16s. in 1871. The area of the District, as returned by the Surveyor-General in 1871, is 1524 square miles, and the population, as ascertained by the Census of 1872, is 1,012,589 souls. According to these figures, the strength of the Regular Police as compared with the area is one man to every 4·85 square miles, and as compared with the population, one man to every 3225 of the population. The cost of maintaining this force is £4, 4s. 4d. for every square mile of area, or a fraction over 1½d. per head of the population. Attached to the Regular Police Force is a River Patrol, consisting of four boats with a crew of thirty-one men, besides four head constables and eight constables. The cost of this river police amounted to £240 in 1871, and is included in the total charge of the Regular Police. The Village Watch or Rural Constabulary not subject to the rules of the Regular District Police, amounted in 1871 to 2026 men, receiving a total pay of £7658, 4s., contributed by the landholders and villagers, or an average pay of £3, 15s. 7d. per man per annum. According to the area and population of the District, this sum represents a charge of £5, os. 6d. per square mile, or just over 1¾d. per head of the population. The strength of the force is one man to every ·75 square miles, or one to every 500 of the population. Each rural watchman has on an average seventy-seven houses under his charge. The Municipal Police is a small force for the watch and ward of the two municipal towns, Faridpur and Sayyidpur, and consists of one officer and nineteen men, maintained at a cost of £147, 12s. from local sources. Including the Regular Force, the Municipal Police, and the Village Watch, the total Police Force of Faridpur consists of 2360 men of all ranks, being one man to every 0·64 square miles of area, or one man to every 429 of the population. The total cost of protecting person and property in Faridpur District, therefore, is £14,231, 12s., or £9, 6s. 9d. per square mile of area, or nearly 3⅜d. per head of the population. During the year 1870, the police conducted 851 cognisable cases, in which they obtained 385 convictions, or forty-five per cent. of convictions to the cases. The total number of cognisable and

non-cognisable cases conducted by the Police in 1870 was 929, the proportion of convictions being 68·2 per cent. In serious cases they were pretty successful: two murders were committed during the year, and detection followed in both instances; out of five cases of gang-robbery, three were detected. The value of property stolen in 1870 was reported to be £1277, of which property to the value of £386, 10s., or 30·2 per cent. was recovered. In 1871, 1110 cognisable and 2946 non-cognisable cases were conducted by the Police, the percentage of final convictions to men brought to trial being 56·1.

CRIMINAL CLASSES.—The Inspector-General of Jails in his Report for 1868 states that the chief crimes committed in this District are murders, gang-robberies, thefts, rioting, and unlawful assemblies. Gang-robberies are generally committed by Chandáls, or such of the lower order of Káyasths as have no fixed occupation, and who, being ashamed to follow trades or to cultivate land, derive a precarious subsistence by gang-robberies and thefts. The great rivers Padmá, Ariál Khán, and Madhumatí afford great facility for the commission of river robberies. Murders are generally committed by the Musalmáns of the lower classes. Farídpur being a District where clubmen are found, rioting, and affrays, and unlawful assemblies are in consequence more numerous than in other parts of the country. These clubmen, or *láthiáls*, belong for the most part to the Musalmáns, Chandáls, and Bhuimálís.

The following figures, showing the number of prisoners admitted into and discharged from the Farídpur jail, proportion of sickness and mortality, &c., for the years 1857–58, 1860–61, and 1870, are compiled from statistics furnished to me by the Inspector-General of Jails, Lower Provinces. The figures given for the years 1857–58 and 1860–61, however, must only be accepted as approximate to correctness. Owing to a faulty method of preparing the returns in former years, many prisoners were entered twice over, under-trial prisoners subsequently convicted being entered under both heads. It is impossible now to correct the error, and the figures for the years prior to 1870 must be accepted with caution, and as only approximating to accuracy. A new system of preparing the returns was introduced in 1870, and the figures given for that year may be taken as absolutely correct.

In 1857–58, the daily average number of prisoners in Farídpur jail was returned at 344, the total number of prisoners admitted

into jail during the year being returned at 860. The number discharged from jail in that year was as follows:—Transferred, 78; released, 830; escaped, 6; deaths, including 2 executed, 4; total number discharged, 918. The admissions to hospital amounted to 145·93, and the deaths in hospital to 0·58 per cent. of the mean jail population. In 1860–61 the daily average number of prisoners was 385, the total number of prisoners admitted being 687. The discharges were as follow:—Transferred, 18; released, 617; escaped, 6; died, 22; total discharged, 663. The admissions to hospital amounted to .248·83 and the deaths to 5·71 per cent. of the mean jail population. In 1870 the daily average number of prisoners was 315, or one criminal always in jail to every 3214 of the population. The total number admitted during the year amounted to 683, the average term of residence of each prisoner in jail being 233 days. The prisoners discharged in 1870 were as follow:—Transferred, 6; released, 637; escaped, 4; died, 9; total discharged, 656. The admissions to hospital in 1870 amounted to 104·76 per cent., and the deaths to 2·86 per cent. of the mean prison population. An unusual number of deaths occurred in the jail in 1868. This, the Inspector-General reports, was attributable partly to the dampness of the tiled walls of the jail from constant leakage, at times drenching the inmates when locked up for the night; partly to over-crowding, which continued during a part of the year; partly to the rains having ceased too early; and lastly, to the fact that sixteen per cent. of the admissions of the year were men in bad health. A few were old and decrepid on admission, and five of the deaths were cases of old men upwards of sixty years of age.

The cost of maintenance, rations, clothing, and all other charges, excluding cost of Police Guard, amounted to £4, 11s. 2d. per head in 1857–58; £3, 17s. 2d. per head in 1860–61; and £4, 17s. 2d. per head in 1870. The cost of the prison Police Guard in 1870 amounted to £1, 8s. 11d. per head of the jail population. The gross cost to Government of the Faridpur jail, inclusive of the Police Guard over prisoners, amounted in 1870 to £1836, 14s. Deducting the cost of the jail Police, which is included in the general Police Budget of the District, the cost of the jail amounted to £1416. A certain proportion of the cost of the jail, however, is covered by the value of the prisoners' labour. Manufactures have been carried on in the Faridpur jail for a period of thirty years. In 1857–58 the net profit

from prison manufactures amounted to £109, 5s. 4d., or an average earning of 15s. 6d. from each prisoner employed in manufactures. In 1860–61 the prison industries yielded a profit of £254, 7s. 2d., or an average earning of £1, 1s. 2d. from each prisoner employed in manufactures. In 1870 jail manufactures yielded a profit of £65, 5s. 4d., the average earning of each prisoner actually employed on manufactures being £1, 0s. 4¾d. The hard-labour prisoners in the Faridpur jail are mostly employed in cloth or gunny making, gardening, husking rice, making bamboo or rattan articles. Deducting the profit derived from the prisoners' labour in 1870, the net cost to Government of the Faridpur jail in 1870 amounted to £1771, 9s. inclusive of the cost of the jail Police Guard, and to £1350, 15s. exclusive of the cost of the jail Guard.

EDUCATION has not as yet made much progress among the people. The following remarks are condensed from a recent report by the Collector of the District, published in the Report of the Educational Department for 1871–72 :—Both the Muhammadans who inhabit the north, and the Chandáls who principally dwell in the south, and who form nearly the whole native population of the District, are averse to education; the former from prejudice against teaching which does not assimilate with their religion. The latter are an outcast Hindu sect, who, from a long course of oppression and dependence, have a tradition that they must do and live as their forefathers before them. Unfortunately the middle class in this District, excepting in the north, is very poor, and although numbers are anxious to send their children to school, they have not the means to set up schools without help. Five new schools have been started, but they only live in the hope that Government will ultimately help them. Moreover the richer of the landlords are absentees, and the subdivision and sub-infeudation of landed property has done much to create a number of poverty-stricken men who call themselves *tálukdárs*, who are ashamed to dig, and remain a check to all progress or improvement, living from hand to mouth on the miserable pittance their inheritance provides. Pángsá, Goálanda, and perhaps Belgáchhí, form an exception to these remarks. Persons who are not connected with the land are tradèrs and money-lenders, and these, probably the richest residents of the District, are as a rule a very miserly, penurious class, who consider their children only require to obtain the small acquaintance with writing and arithmetic necessary to keep shop. Such men send their children to sugar-factories,

where, in exchange for their labour, the overseer gives them some little idea of reading, writing, and accounts. Amongst the Muhammadans, every landed proprietor of the least pretensions keeps a *munshi*, on a salary of two or three shillings a month in addition to his food and clothing. This man teaches the children of the house and a few outsiders, but the education he imparts is small in amount, and of the most useless character. The *Kurán* is read in Arabic, a language their teacher understands little or nothing of; and their time is wasted in getting by heart sentences of which they do not know the meaning, and in learning to read pages of a book which they do not understand. Our grant-in-aid system only reached the middle classes, until Sir George Campbell's reforms in 1872 extended education to the whole people. The upper classes are opposed to the lower orders being taught at all. The Bráhmans and Káyasths deem education to be strictly their inheritance; and in losing the co-operation of the wealthy classes, Government unavoidably fails to reach the ordinary cultivator; for however much the latter may be oppressed, he looks to the former to interpret every action of the foreign race which rules him.

The Collector is of opinion that the only way to reach the lower strata is for Government to make education compulsory, and to insist upon all teachers being licensed. He thinks that the objections of the Muhammadans to send their children to school would be removed if the certificated teacher was a member of their own faith. With regard to the Chandáls, the barrier would be broken if education were offered free of charge. One difficulty in any educational operations in Faridpur is the physical condition of the country during a great part of the year, when the District is more or less covered with water. In the southern tracts, the inundations render it impossible to move about except in boats, and a poor family which may own only one skiff, requires it to go to market, and to carry on the daily avocations of its principal members. Another recommendation made by the Collector is that civil engineering should be taught in the higher schools, and scholarships granted tenable in the Calcutta Civil Engineering College.

The total number of Government and aided schools in Faridpur District in 1856–57 was 10, attended by 602 pupils; in 1860–61 the number of these schools had increased to 30, with 1421 scholars; and in 1870–71 the Government and aided schools had further increased to 52, attended by a total of 2000 scholars. Govern-

ment expenditure on education has increased from £344, 2s. 6d. in 1856–57 to £846, 15s. 5d. in 1870–71; the amount of private contributions, subscriptions, fees, &c., to the Government and aided schools increasing from £275, 6s. 9d. to £872, 15s. 4d. within the same period. The following table, compiled from the reports of the Education Department, gives the number of schools of each description, number and religion of pupils, cost of each to Government, and amount subscribed by private contributions, subscriptions, &c., for the years 1856–57, 1860–61, and 1870–71. It must be remembered, however, that it only includes Government and aided schools, and not any private schools not under inspection by the Education Department.

The table on the opposite page is exclusive of Government and aided schools in Pángsá Police Circle, recently added to Farídpur. The Educational Report for 1871–72 gives ten schools in this tract attended by 342 scholars. The cost to Government for these schools amounted to £109, 10s., the amount derived from subscriptions, fees, &c., being £110, 7s. 8d., the total outlay on the ten schools being £293, 10s. 6d. Adding these figures to the following table, we have now a total of 62 Government and aided schools in Farídpur District, attended by a total of 2342 scholars. The total cost to Government was £956, 5s. 5d.; the amount derived from private sources, schooling fees, &c., being £983, 3s.; and the total outlay on the 62 schools, £2089, 11s. 4d. As before stated, no statistics exist from which the number of schools not under inspection by the Educational Department can be gathered, nor any information as to the number of pupils, or cost of education in these private schools.

Sir George Campbell's Reforms, 1872.—The General Report on Public Instruction in Bengal for 1872–73 affords an important indication of the valuable consequences that may be anticipated to follow in the course of the next few years from the resolution dated September 30, 1872. This report only extends over six months of the period during which the new system came into operation, but both in the results actually achieved, and in the tendencies disclosed, it shows that the main obstacles to the progress of primary education alluded to in a previous page are now in process of being removed. The Inspector of Schools reports with reference to Farídpur, that "the Chandáls are willing to accept education if Govern-

[*Sentence continued on page* 352.]

RETURN OF GOVERNMENT AND AIDED SCHOOLS IN FARÍDPUR DISTRICT FOR THE YEARS 1856–57, 1860–61, AND 1870–71.

Classification of Schools.	Number of Schools.			Pupils.											Cost to Government.			Private Contributions, Subscriptions, Fees, &c.			Total Cost.		
				Hindus.			Musalmáns.			Others.			Total.											
	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.	1856–57.	1860–61.	1870–71.
															£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.	£ s. d.
Government English Schools	1	1	1	118	94	136	8	4	5	1	...	...	127	98	141	250 12 5	274 14 6	261 8 6	134 5 5	87 6 5	184 19 7	384 17 10	376 8 4	446 8 2
Government Vernacular School,	...	...	1	...	...	19	...	...	1	...	...	...	...	...	20	...	...	18 14 0	...	...	5 17 0	...	...	24 11 0
Aided English Schools,	4	9	14	155	368	659	24	39	89	...	...	1	179	407	740	51 6 0	115 7 0	208 19 11	75 16 3	165 16 6	368 0 7	105 11 2	246 11 6	619 11 9
Aided Vernacular Schools,	5	20*	33	214	675	963	82	74	93	...	...	...	296	916	1056	42 4 1	169 3 1	332 1 0	65 5 1	213 10 1	268 6 2	94 0 4	365 9 3	616 7 11
Aided Girls' Schools,	...	...	3	...	...	35	...	...	3	...	...	5	...	...	43	...	...	25 12 0	...	...	45 12 0	...	...	*89 2 0
Total,	10	30	52	487	1137	1803	114	117	191	1	...	6	602	1421	2000	344 2 6	559 4 7	846 15 5	275 6 9	466 13 0	872 15 4	584 9 4	988 9 1	1796 0 10

* Details for two aided Vernacular Schools not given; no information as to expenditure, or the proportion borne by Government as compared with that contributed from other sources; the total number of pupils is only given, without any classification according to religion. The total cost of schools for that year, therefore, will somewhat exceed the amount shown in the table, and the total number of pupils will not agree with the classified columns of Hindus, Musalmáns, &c., for 1860.

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POSTAL STATISTIC

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Private letters receive	
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Private newspapers r	
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Total books received,	
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Private letters despat	
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Private parcels despa	
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Total books despatch	
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Postal expenditure,	

FISCAL DIVISION
in Farídpur District
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Revenue Statistics

* The returns for 1
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† No return has yet
in 1870-71.

‡ Exclusive of £30,
correspondence. Prior
revenue.

of the following forty-three Fiscal Divisions, showing the area, number of estates, amount of land revenue, &c., of each :—

(1.) AMRÁPUR, area 34 acres, or 0·5 square miles; contains 1 estate, and pays an annual Government revenue of £3, 2s.

(2.) AMÍRÁBÁD, area 4240 acres, or 6·62 square miles; 5 estates; land revenue, £266, 10s.

(3.) AMÍRNAGAR, or AMINNAGAR, area 2517 acres, or 3·93 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £115, 14s.

(4.) BAIKUNTHPUR, area 4106 acres, or 6·41 square miles; 9 estates; land revenue, £246, 16s.

(5.) BÁKÍPUR, area 136 acres, or 0·21 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £9, 14s.

(6.) BAULAR, area 47 acres, or 0·07 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, 8s.

(7.) BANDARKHOLÁ, area 447 acres, or 0·69 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £128, 12s.

(8.) BELGÁCHHÍ, area 20,866 acres, or 32·60 square miles; 28 estates; land revenue, £795, 4s.

(9.) BINODPUR TAPPÁ, area not mentioned; 1 estate; land revenue, £4.

(10.) BIRÁHIMPUR, area 9087 acres, or 14·19 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £277, 12s.

(11.) BÍRMOHAN, area 29,203 acres, or 45·63 square miles; 602 estates; land revenue, £955, 14s.

(12.) DHULDÍ, area 36,958 acres, or 57·74 square miles; 59 estates; land revenue, £1044, 4s.

(13.) FATHIJANGPUR, area not mentioned; 19 estates; land revenue, £159, 2s.

(14.) GANGÁPATH, area 32 acres, or 0·05 square miles; 6 estates; land revenue, £226, 10s.

(15.) HÁKIMPUR, area 14,017 acres, or 21·90 square miles; 32 estates; land revenue, £824, 4s.

(16.) HÁVILÍ, area 2820 acres, or 4·40 square miles; 131 estates; land revenue, £118, 16s.

(17.) JAHÁNGÍRNAGAR, area 75 acres, or 0·11 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £4, 2s.

(18.) JALÁLPUR, area 67,058 acres, or 104·77 square miles; 687 estates; land revenue, £1341.

(19.) KÁSHTHASÁGARÁ, area 287 acres, or 0·44 square miles; 1 [illegible] land revenue, £1.

(20.) KÁSIMNAGAR, area 4824 acres, or 7·53 square miles; 22 estates; land revenue, £222, 8s.

(21.) KOSHÁ, area 7 acres, or 0·01 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, 8s.

(22.) MAHIMSHÁHÍ, area 5866 acres, or 9·16 square miles; 27 estates; land revenue, £217, 10s.

(23.) MAHMUDPUR, area 2774 acres, or 4·33 square miles; 114 estates; land revenue, £155, 14s.

(24.) MUBARAKPUR UJIÁL, area 30 acres, or ·04 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £3, 10s.

(25.) MUKIMPUR, area 4858 acres, or 7·59 square miles; 8 estates; land revenue, £54, 8s.

(26.) NALDÍ, area 41,721 acres, or 65·18 square miles; 104 estates; land revenue, £756, 2s.

(27.) NASIBSHÁHÍ, area 2851 acres, or 4·45 square miles; 97 estates; land revenue, £1960, 16s.

(28.) NASRATSHÁHÍ, area 121 acres, or ·18 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £5.

(29.) NÚRULLÁPUR, area 1339 acres, or 2·09 square miles; 4 estates; land revenue, £69, 4s.

(30.) PÁTPASÁR, area 1265 acres, or 1·97 square miles; 28 estates; land revenue, £133, 16s.

(31.) POKTÁNÍ, area not mentioned; 1 estate; land revenue, £205, 8s.

(32.) RÁJNAGAR, area 814 acres, or 1·27 square miles; 5 estates; land revenue, £35, 14s.

(33.) ROKANPUR, area 240 acres, or ·37 square miles; 2 estates; land revenue, £14, 10s.

(34.) RUPAPÁT TARAF, area 18,598 acres, or 29·05 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £1003, 2s.

(35.) SHÁJÁPUR, area 140 acres, or ·21 square miles; 3 estates; land revenue, £1, 2s.

(36.) SÁTAIR, area 82,324 acres, or 128·63 square miles; 86 estates; land revenue, £4576, 18s.

(37.) SHÁHPUR TAPPÁ, area 542,107 acres, or 847·04 square miles; 49 estates; land revenue, £3766.

(38.) SHERDIÁ, area 1190 acres, or 1·85 square miles; 18 estates; land revenue, £53.

(39.) SINDURÍ, area 1338 acres, or 2·09 square miles; 8 estates; land revenue, £23, 16s.

(40.) SULTÁNPUR KHÁRARIÁ, area 6445 acres, or 10·07 square miles; 14 estates; land revenue, £21, 12s.

(41.) TELÍHÁTÍ, area 105,947 acres, or 165·64 square miles; 24 estates; land revenue, £1570, 4s.

(42.) TELÍHÁTÍ AMÍRÁBÁD, area 7144 acres, or 11·16 square miles; 77 estates; land revenue, £213, 18s.

(43.) TELÍHÁTÍ MUHABBATPUR, area 7442 acres, or 11·62 square miles; 1 estate; land revenue, £408, 10s.

Total area 1,031,315 acres, or 1611·42 square miles; 2287 estates; land revenue, £21,994, 14s. The difference between these totals and those given in the paragraph on the Land Tax is due to alterations of boundary, &c., since these statistics for the Fiscal Divisions were drawn up. Nearly all these Fiscal Divisions are permanently settled.

The list of Fiscal Divisions furnished to me by the Collector differs, with regard to numbers, very considerably from the above. Two or more Fiscal Divisions are sometimes included in one in the Board of Revenue's Statistics. The list furnished by the Collector numbers seventy Fiscal Divisions, as follow:—(1) Amrápur, (2) Amrápur Tappá, (3) Amírnagar, (4) Amírábád, (5) Aurangábád Tappá, (6) Baikunthpur, (7) Bákípur, (8) Bákípur Tappá, (9) Bandarkholá, (10) Baular, (11) Belgáchhí, (12) Bikrampur, (13) Birálimpur, (14) Bírmohan, (15) Chándpratáp, (16) Char Mukundiá, (17) Dhuldí, (18) Durgápur, (19) Fathiábád, (20) Fathijangpur, (21) Gangápath, (22) Garwárish, (23) Hákimpur, (24) Hávilí, (25) Hávilí Tappá, (26) Ichhápur Tappá, (27) Ishakábád, (28) Islámpur, (29) Jafar Ujiál, (30) Jahángírnagar, (31) Jalálpur, (32) Kálná, (33) Káshthaságará, (34) Kásimnagar, (35) Kásimpur Kalyán Srí, (36) Kásimpur Telíhátí, (37) Khánpur, (38) Khargapur, (39) Koshá, (40) Lashkarpur, (41) Mahimsháhí, (42) Mahmúdpur, (43) Mubárak Ujiál, (44) Muhabbatpur, (45) Mukimpur, (46) Naldí, (47) Nasibsháhí, (48) Nasratsháhí, (49) Núrullápur, (50) Pátpasár, (51) Poktání, (52) Rájnagar, (53) Rokanpur, (54) Ságardí, (55) Shájápur, (56) Sáleswarí, (57) Salímpratáp, (58) Salímpur, (59) Sátair, (60) Sherdiá, (61) Shafípur, (62) Sháhpur Tappá, (63) Shujábád, (64) Shujábád Kutabpur, (65) Sindurí (66) Sonárgáon, (67) Sultánpratáp, (68) Sultánpur Khararíá, (69) Telíhátí, (70) Telíhátí Muhabbatpur.

SUBDIVISIONAL ADMINISTRATION.—Farídpur District contains only two Subdivisions, viz., the Headquarters or Sadr Subdivision, and the Goálanda Subdivision. The Headquarters Subdivision comprises

the seven Police Circles (*thánás*) of Faridpur, Bhúshná, Awánpur, Sadrpur, Deorá, Maksúdpur, and Gopálganj. It contains an area of 1067 square miles, 1381 villages or townships, 107,793 houses, and a total population of 709,451 souls. The Muhammadans number 200,306 males and 208,130 females; total 408,436, or 57·6 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of Muhammadan males to total Musulmáns, 49·0 per cent. The Hindus number 144,456 males and 154,272 females; total, 298,728, or 42·1 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of Hindu males to total Hindu population, 48·4 per cent. The Christian population consists of 210 males and 190 females; total 400, or ·1 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of Christian males to total Christian population, 52·5 per cent. Other denominations comprise 869 males and 1018 females; total 1887, or ·2 per cent. of the total population. Proportion of males, 46·1 per cent. Average pressure of subdivisional population per square mile, 665; average number of villages or townships per square mile, 1·29; average number of persons per village, 514; average number of houses per square mile, 101; average number of inmates per house, 6·6.

GOÁLANDA SUBDIVISION consists of the three Police Circles (*thánás*) of Goálanda, Belgáchhí, and Pángsá, and comprises an area of 429 square miles, 926 villages or townships, 49,725 houses, and a total population of 303,138 souls. The Muhammadans number 91,969 males and 87,894 females; total 179,863, or 59·4 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of Muhammadan males to total Musulmáns, 51·1 per cent. The Hindus number 59,599 males and 62,661 females; total 122,260, or 40·3 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of Hindu males to total Hindus, 48·7 per cent. The Christians number 47 males and 16 females; total 63. Proportion of males, 74·6 per cent. Other denominations consist of 398 males and 554 females; total 952, or ·3 per cent. of the subdivisional population. Proportion of males 41·8 per cent. Average pressure of subdivisional population, 706 per square mile; average number of villages per square mile, 2·16; average number of persons per village, 327; average number of houses per square mile, 116; average number of inmates per house, 6·1.

CLIMATE AND SEASONS.—The climate of Faridpur is, like that of other Districts of Eastern Bengal, very damp, and not suited to persons with a tendency to rheumatism or subject to coughs. The sea-

sons are divided into the rainy, the cold, and the hot weather. The rains generally set in early, often at the end of April, and by the end of June the greater part of the District is under water. The cold weather commences from the beginning of November, or a little later, and continues till the middle or latter end of February. The hot weather begins in March, and lasts till the commencement of the rains. The average annual rainfall for the ten years ending 1868, is stated by the Civil Medical Officer of the District to be 85·42 inches. The average temperature for the same period is said to be as follows:—Mean temperature at sunrise, 73·56; mean at 10 A.M., 78·03; mean at 4 P.M., 80·50; mean at 10 P.M., 75·58.

MEDICAL HISTORY: ENDEMIC DISEASES.—The diseases principally met with in Farídpur are, as may be expected, fevers of a malarial or paludial origin, of which the forms most prevalent are quotidian and tertian ague; the remittent and continued forms are extremely rare. These fevers are, as a general rule, considered as a single disease, and usually increase in intensity at the time of the first setting in of the rains, becoming more and more severe as the season advances, until they assume their highest intensity and development about, or soon after, the cessation of the rains, in October or November. The attacks then gradually become milder through the remainder of the cold season and the ensuing spring and hot weather, till the next rains, when the malaria seems to receive a new impulse, and so on in every succeeding year. The first fevers in the cycle are of the mildest ague kind, seldom remittent or continued, and generally complicated with catarrhal affections. Rheumatic fevers, of a purely malarial origin, are also occasionally met with about this season. The attacks which follow these in July, August, and September are of a more severe character, the fever being generally high and of longer duration, often setting in as a remittent of a continued type, or assuming one or other of these forms in the course of its progress. The next seizures in the series, which occur in October and November, are almost always paroxysmal, and they are apt to be complicated with enlargement of the spleen and liver, with other subsequent organic diseases, if neglected. During the remaining months, the few cases of ague which present themselves are, generally speaking, slight and uncomplicated. No sanitary or other efforts, such as the drainage of swamps, increased cultivation, clearance of jungle, &c., have been carried out in recent times, so as to reduce the extent of the prevailing diseases.

EPIDEMICS.—Epidemics seldom occur in Faríd̀pur District, and no epidemic sickness of any kind made its appearance in 1869. Sporadic cases of cholera are, however, met with all over the District during the hot-weather months. Choleraic diarrhœa is also very common about this season. In January and February 1869 an epidemic broke out among the cattle in a few villages near Faríd̀pur city, causing considerable mortality. No record was kept of the death-rate, but the Civil Surgeon is of opinion that at least two thirds of the affected animals succumbed to the disease, and that not less than a hundred head of cattle were thus carried away in the three villages which principally suffered.

MEDICAL CHARITIES.—The Padamdí Branch Dispensary, established in June 1867, is situated in the Goálanda Subdivision, and is under the charge of a native doctor. The number of outdoor patients treated in 1871 was 1078 against 922 in the previous year. The local income amounted to £35, 16s. against £34, 2s. in 1870, and was sufficient to meet the expenses of the Dispensary. This is the only medical charity in the District.

NATIVE PRACTITIONERS.—There are a very few good native practitioners (*Kabirájs*) in the District. But the majority of them (of whom one or two may be met with in almost every large village) appear to have degenerated into mere quacks. The remedies used by the *Kabiráj* are cold sedatives, relaxants, depressants, and cooling agents generally; dry astringents, absorbents, &c.; warm tonics, carminatives, &c.; hot stimulants, condiments, &c., and moist diluents, demulcents, watery food, &c. There is not a mineral to be found in Bengal, nor an indigenous drug of any efficacy, which has not a place in their pharmacopœia. Mercury is sparingly employed by them. Metallic tonics, especially oxides of gold, silver, and iron, are largely resorted to in chronic ailments. The celebrated *bísh bari*, or poison pills, are also administered in low fevers. Arsenic and opium, with doses of *pánchan* (a thick febrifugal infusion of a number of drugs), are their sheet-anchor in all ordinary fevers. In dysentery and diarrhœa, *kutráj*, bark of Wrightea antidysenterica, dried pulp of *bel* fruit, mango stones, &c., are largely had recourse to. These village *Kabirájs* follow no particular system. They use quinine and some few European medicines freely, especially those of the purgative class. Salivation by mercury is their last resource in all forms of chronic disease, except splenetis. In all minor and undefined ailments, issues are a favourite application with the *Kabiráj*; they are generally

inserted in the middle of a leg or arm, and are sometimes kept open for months.

INDIGENOUS DRUGS.—No minerals from which drugs are made are indigenous to the District. *Mom* (Cera flava) is made into an ointment, and used as an emollient. The bázár drugs are thus given by the Civil Surgeon :—(1) *Báblár átá* (Acacia arabica); the gum is an excellent substitute for gum-arabic, and is used as a demulcent. (2) *Supári* (Areca catechu); a solution given as a demulcent. (3) *Bel* (Ægle marmelos); the pulp made into sherbet is given as an astringent, nutritive, and tonic. (4) *Mádár* (Calotropis gigantea); the bark of the root reduced to powder forms a tolerably effective substitute for ipecacuanha. (5) *Lál marich* or *lanká* (Capsicum annuum); used as a stimulant and carminative. (6) *Bhát* (Clerodendron infortunatum); an infusion or decoction of dried leaves, used as a tonic, vermifuge, antiperiodic, and febrifuge. (7) *Nárikel* or cocoa-nut (Cocos nucifera); the oil used as an emollient. (8) *Golancha* (Tinospora cordifolia); an extract made from the stem of the plant is used as a tonic; it is best used in the convalescent form of fevers and other diseases. (9) *Kachu* (Colocasia esculenta); the fresh juice is a powerful styptic in external hæmorrhage from cuts and wounds. (10) *Anantamúl* (Hemidesmus indicus); a decoction made from the root is given as an alterative, tonic, diaphoretic, &c., and is a good substitute for sarsaparilla. (11) *Madhu* or honey (mel); a demulcent. (12) *Lál chitá*, or red lead (Plumbago rosea); a plaster, used as a rubifacient and vesicant. (13) *Til* (Sesamum orientale); the pulp of the seeds powdered up and taken with sugar is a mild laxative for habitual constipation. (14) *Rái sarishá* or mustard; a plaster, used as a stimulant and rubifacient. (15) *Hará haritaki* (Terminalia chebula); a powder, given as a laxative, alterative, and tonic. (16) *Indrajab* (Wrightea antidysenterica); the seeds and bark used as a tonic and astringent. (17) *Sunt* or dried ginger (Zinziber officinalis); a powder, given as a stimulant. Many other vegetable drugs may be bought in the bázárs, but they are not indigenous to the District. I trust to the Civil Surgeon for the scientific nomenclature, verified to the best of my power.

CONSERVANCY, &c.—Act VI. of 1868, passed by the Council of the Lieutenant-Governor of Bengal, was introduced into the town of Faríd-pur in April 1868, and since then all matters relating to the conservancy and improvement thereof are managed by a Town Committee, of which one third are official members, with the Magistrate of the

District presiding as Chairman. The roads and drains are kept in very fair order; nuisances are prevented as far as possible; and the water supply is carefully conserved as regards the public tanks. A sum of £5 a month, which at present is all the town can afford, is allotted for the purposes of keeping down jungle, preserving cleanliness, and for conservancy generally. The dry-earth system is followed in the jail, in strict accordance with the rules of the Bengal Jail Code. Elsewhere there is no system at all with regard to this point. For the purposes of nature, the poorer classes go to the nearest fields, where the excreta are left to rot, or to be washed away by the rain, as the case may be. In the houses of the few well-to-do natives, some sort of a privy is generally constructed, often merely a hole in the earth, two or three feet deep, with a mat for a screen. The ordure is never deodorised or removed. No military cantonments are situated in the District.

SANITARY CONDITION OF THE DISTRICT.—The following brief account is extracted from page 205 of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (Faridpur Section):—"The only place in which sanitary matters have hitherto received any attention is the Station of Faridpur; and, on the whole, the sanitation here is fair and satisfactory. It is situated on the banks of the Marà Padmà, and bounded on the south by a fresh-water lake called the Dhol Samudra, the water of which affords ample drainage, except in the height of the rains. The drainage is ample, and duly looked after. The houses are clean and not overcrowded; the water supply is good and tolerably wholesome. In the interior the houses are not well raised; at least many are not sufficiently elevated to withstand the heavy floods. There are no roads in the villages, unless the numerous cattle-tracks may be so called; but during the dry season of the year, the dried-up watercourses are an easy means of thoroughfare. The drains of the villages are anything but good; they are simply numerous ditches, trenches, and small watercourses (*málás*), overgrown with weeds, and choked with dead and decaying matter of every sort. The water supply is chiefly confined to tanks; any pit or hole is so named; they are scarcely less noisome than the drains, and are generally filled with filth. The only means of communication in the height of the rains is by boat or by floating rafts made of bamboos or plantain stems. Defective drainage is not the only evil to be complained of. The malaria arising from the ditches and pools alluded to cannot readily escape, for the houses are embedded in rank, close jungle,

consisting of trees and bamboos, and the interstices filled with brush-wood and creepers, altogether forming a barrier impervious to air and sunshine. The wonder is that people can exist in such an atmosphere. Subsist, however, they do, though the progeny they rear is weak and sickly."

APPENDIX.

APPENDIX

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in 1165 (1758–59 A.D.), and as having borne a revenue of £4701, 10s. in 1135 (1728–29 A.D.), and of £10,627 in 1170 (1763–64 A.D.) It is also alluded to at some length on a previous page of this Statistical Account.

The oldest *zamíndárí* in the District appears to be that of Chandradwíp, which is said to have belonged to the Rájás of Chandradwíp for several centuries before the Permanent Settlement; a brief description of it is given at a previous page of this Statistical Account, quoted from the Special Report on the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (1867). The Salímábád *zamíndárí* is also a very old one, and the *parganá* is situated partly in Jessor and partly in Bákarganj. For long the lands comprised in it remained uncultivated, as the manufacture of salt was conducted to a large extent in it. It is now one of the most profitable estates in the District. Bozargomedpur originally belonged to Agá Bákar, who is said to have given his name to Bákarganj District. It then passed into the hands of Rájá Rájballabh Sen, and on his death, and after his heirs had, by quarrelling among themselves, failed to pay up the Government revenue, it was put up to sale and bought in by Government in 1801. The *parganá* as a *zamíndárí* at one time contained several dependent *táluks*. Of these, many have been gradually sold by Government. There are still 228 dependent *táluks* in the *zamíndárí*, and the revenues of all of them are paid directly and separately into the Treasury, although they are included in one number in the rent-roll. These two large *zamíndárís* are also alluded to at greater length on a previous page, the description being slightly condensed from the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (1867).

Independent Táluks.—As stated above, the number of *táluks* separated from the parent *zamíndárís* at the time of the Decennial Settlement, and the revenues of which were thenceforth made payable direct to Government, numbered 4545. The annual Government revenues paid on account of them varies from £1948, 15s. to as low as three farthings. The largest of these *táluks* are situated in *parganá* Bozargomedpur, while the smallest and the most numerous are in *parganá* Bángrorá. The Mission *táluk* at Sibpur is one of old standing. It is composed of four *hawálás*, made over in 1764 by Rájá Rájballabh of Rájnagar for the maintenance of a Christian priest at Sibpur. The revenue of the *táluk* is £176, 3s. The most profitable of the estates permanently settled after the Permanent Settlement is Ailá Phuljhurí; it yields an income of about £10,000,

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terms offered them by Government. These estates are classified as under, according to the amount of revenue paid by them :—Number of estates paying £1000 a year and upwards, *nil;* number paying between £100 and £1000, 13; number paying between £10 and £100, 23; number between £5 and £10, 11; number paying between £1 and £5, 13; number paying less than £1, 12. Total of temporarily settled estates, 72.

The Lákhiráj Estates are of two kinds: (1) estates held rent-free under valid grants; and (2) estates of which the Government revenue has been redeemed. Of the first description there are nine estates, seven of which are situated in *parganá* Chandradwíp, and two in *parganá* Salímábád. Two of these estates are held under *bádsháhí* grants, or estates granted rent-free by the Mughul governors; the others are held under *sanads*, or deeds of gift, from the *zamíndárs*. Of the *zamíndárí* grants two are *debottar*, or lands assigned for the worship of the gods; one is *brahmottar*, or land assigned for the support of Bráhmans; the other four are *khánábárí*, or unassessed homestead land. The two *bádsháhí* grants are situated in *parganá* Chandradwíp. The first is held by the descendants of one Lakshman Sinh, to whom a grant of 77 acres of land was made by Sháh Shujá in consideration of the services of his family in a fight with the Maghs. The other, consisting of 368 acres, is held by the descendants of one Kutab-ud-dín, who received the grant from Sayyid Kulí Khán. The *lákhiráj* estates, of which the Government revenue has been redeemed, are eighteen in number, of which thirteen are situated within *parganá* Srírámpur.

The Government Estates held in Farm are either island *chars* or estates purchased at auction sale on account of arrears of revenue. They number 214 in all, and are classified as under, according to the amount of revenue paid by them :—Number of estates paying an annual revenue of £1000 and upwards, 6; estates paying between £100 and £1000, 35; estates paying between £10 and £100, 52; estates paying between £5 and £10, 18; estates paying between £1 and £5, 25; estates paying less than £1, 78. Total number of estates, 214.

Estates under Government Management.—Previous to April 1873, there was only one estate in Bákarganj under direct Government management (*khás*), and that was Jainagar, in the Subdivision of Dakshín Sháhbázpur. Since that period, however, many estates, of which the settlement expired with the end of March last, have been brought

under *khás* management, and there are now in the District as many as 140 estates under the direct management of Government. These estates are of two kinds: *first*, estates the property of Government; and *second*, estates the property of individuals. In the case of the latter class of estates, Government has to pay to the proprietors *málikáná*, or allowance in consideration of their proprietary rights, at rates varying from 5 to 10 per cent. on the net collections of the estates. The number and nature of these estates are as follows:—

Description of Estates.	Paying £1000 and upwards.	Paying £100 and upwards, but less than £1000.	Paying £10 and upwards, but less than £100.	Paying £5 and upwards, but less than £10.	Paying £1 and upwards, but less than £5.	Less than £1.	Total.
Estates property of Government,	...	9	18	6	22	26	81
Ditto ditto of individuals,	1	12	31	9	5	1	59
Total,	1	21	49	15	27	27	140

TENURES HELD BY MIDDLEMEN.—These are distinguished from cultivating tenures by the fact that they convey a right to collect the rents of the land, while the cultivating or *rayatí* tenures convey the right to the actual possession of the soil. The names of the nineteen tenures held by middlemen met with in Bákarganj District are as follow:—(1) *táluk*, (2) *ausat táluk*, (3) *nim ausat táluk*, (4) *nim táluk*, (5) *hawálá*, (6) *ausat hawálá*, (7) *nim ausat hawálá*, (8) *nim ausat nim hawálá*, (9) *tim hawálá*, (10) *patní*, (11) *dar patní*, (12) *taksimí*, (13) *taskhisí*, (14) *khand kharíd*, (15) *zimmá*, (16) *mushkhasí*, (17) *ábádkárí*, (18) *mirásh*, and (19) *dar mirásh*. There are numerous links in the chain of tenures between the proprietor who holds direct from the State and the actual tiller of the soil. First comes the *zamíndárí* or parent estate; next the *táluk*, the *ausat táluk*, and the *nim ausat táluk*; then the *hawálá*, the *ausat hawálá*, and the *nim ausat hawálá*; and, last of all, the *karshá* or *rayatí* tenancy of the actual cultivator. The Deputy Collector in his Report states that he was first told that in practice the tenures do not stand in the order mentioned above, and that more than 3 or 4 such tenures do not occur on the same estate. But he has since been assured by experienced persons that in many cases, and especially in *parganá* Salímábád, all these

tenures are met with in the same piece of land, and all in their regular order.

The following is a brief account of each of the intermediate tenures named above:—

(1.) *Táluk.*—The name is derived from an Arabic word, which means dependence. The system of *tálukdárí* tenures had its origin with the Muhammadan Government. The Mughul Emperors introduced the practice of granting *táluks* at a favourable assessment as a mark of favour or on condition of clearing and cultivating waste lands. In imitation of this principle, *táluks* were afterwards created by the *zamíndár* also, who, on receiving a bonus or *salámí*, made over to the *tálukdár* almost his entire rights in portions of his estate, subject to the payment to him of an annual rent.

At the time of the Permanent Settlement, these *táluks* were divided into two classes, independent and dependent. The independent *táluks*, called *khárijá* or *huzúrí*, were separated from the *zamíndárís*. The dependent *táluks* remained included in the *zamíndárís*. They are called *mazkurí* or *shámilí táluks*, and in Bákarganj District consist of the four following classes,—*shikmí táluk*, *jangalburí táluk*, *zar kharíd táluk*, and *pattái táluk*. A *shikmí táluk* is a tenure held immediately from the proprietor, who holds his estate direct from Government. Its conditions are not defined by law. The tenure, however, is, by the established custom of the District, held to be hereditary and transferable. Its rent is liable to variation or not, according to the terms of the original deed. The holder has the right of creating similar tenures as his own, but they are not good against the auction-purchaser of his tenure at a sale for arrears of rent, unless the right of making encumbrances shall have been expressly vested in him. The arrears of rent on account of a *táluk* can be realised by the sale of the tenure under the provisions of Act VIII. of 1869; and if the sale proceeds be not sufficient to cover the arrears due, the person and the other properties of the defaulter become liable for the same. A *táluk* of this kind can be secured against the auction-purchaser of the parent estate by registry under Act XI. of 1859. *Jangalburí táluks* are reclamation tenures for jungle clearing, and are described in Section 8 of Regulation VIII. of 1793, as follows:—"*Tálukdárs* whose tenure is denominated *jangalburí*, are not considered entitled to separation from the proprietors of whom they hold. The *pattás* (leases) granted to these *tálukdárs* in consideration of the grantee clearing away the jungle,

and bringing the land into a productive state, give it to him and his heirs in perpetuity, with the right of disposing of it either by sale or gift, exempting him from the payment of revenue for a certain time, and at the expiration of it subjecting him to a specific *jamá* (assessment), with all increases, *abwábs*, and *mathaut* imposed on the *parganá* generally; but this only for such parts of the land as the grantee brings into a state of cultivation. The grantee is further subject to the payment of a certain specified portion of all complimentary presents and fees which he may receive from his under-tenants, exclusive of the fixed rent. The lease specifies the boundary of the land granted, but not the quantity of it, until it is brought under cultivation." There are very few *jangalburí táluks* in Bákarganj, and they occur chiefly in the Sundarbans portion of the District. *Zar kharíd táluks* are hereditary and transferable tenures. On failure of heirs, the *zamíndár* takes possession, and sells the lands, or keeps them, as he may be inclined. These *táluks* are also few in number, and are only met with in *parganá* Kálikápur. *Pattái táluks* seem only to differ from other *táluks*, because the *zamíndárs* give leases for them. These tenures are found in all parts of the District, but are most prevalent in *parganá* Aurangpur, in which there are said to be no less than 379 *táluks* of this kind.

(2 and 3.) *Ausat táluk* and *nim táluk*.—Subordinate to a *táluk* is an *ausat táluk*. It is hereditary and transferable, and its rent is liable to variation or not, according to the terms of the deed creating it. On the sale of the superior tenure for arrears of rent, it becomes void, unless its grantor shall have been expressly vested with the right of making such encumbrances. An *ausat tálukdár* has the right of under-letting his lands in whatever manner he may deem conducive to his interest. All transfers of such *táluks*, or portions of them, by sale, gift, or otherwise, as well as all succession thereto, and divisions among heirs in cases of inheritance, are required to be registered in the *sarishtá* of the superior tenant, and if this is not done, the superior tenant is not bound to recognise these transfers. There is a very large number of these *táluks* in the District, and in almost all parts of it. They are usually granted by the *tálukdárs* on receiving *salámís* equal to about ten or twelve times their annual rents. Sometimes it also happens that when a *tálukdár* finds that he cannot cope with the *zamíndár* or his superior tenant, he sells his *tálukdárí* right to a neighbouring *zamíndár*, and the latter grants an *ausat táluk* to him, reserving for himself only a nominal profit as the

price of the protection he offers. A *táluk* of this kind is in some parts of the Sundarbans, as also in the Angariá division, called *nim táluk*.

(4.) A *nim ausat táluk* is a subdivision of the preceding tenure.

(5.) *Hawálá*, signifies literally a charge, and hence anything placed in charge of a person. It is said that the tenure *hawálá* had its origin at the time of the original reclamation of the District. The *zamíndárs* and *tálukdárs*, unable to clear out the large tracts of jungly lands comprised in their estates, divided them into lots, and placed each lot in the *hawálá* or charge of an individual, giving him some proprietary right therein. Thus the tenure *hawálá* originated, and afterwards subordinate tenures created by a *hawáládár* were named *ausat hawálá*, *nim hawálá*, &c. Unlike a *táluk*, *ausat táluk*, or *nim ausat táluk*, which always appear in successive gradation under a *zamíndárí*, a *hawálá* sometimes appears immediately under a *zamíndárí*, sometimes under a *táluk*, and sometimes under an *ausat* or *nim ausat táluk*. The most striking fact, however, is, that when a *zamíndár* creates a *hawálá*, his right of creating a *táluk* and the *tálukdár's* right of creating an *ausat táluk*, and then again the right of creating a *nim ausat táluk*, and all above the *hawálá*, are still retained, so that even when a *hawáládár* is immediately under a *zamíndár* he is at all times liable to be made a *tálukdár* of the second, third, or even fourth degree. A *hawálá* in this District is, by the established custom, a heritable and transferable property, but is liable to variation of rent in the absence from the agreement of any provision to the contrary.

(6, 7, 8, and 9.) *Ausat hawálá*, *nim ausat hawálá*, *nim ausat nim awálá*, and *tim hawálá*.—An under-tenure created by a *hawáládár* is called an *ausat hawálá*, or *nim hawálá*, and a lease granted on similar terms by an *ausat* or *nim hawáládár* is called a *nim ausat hawálá*. The tenure subordinate to a *nim ausat hawáládár* is called a *nim ausat nim hawálá*, or *tim hawálá*. All these tenures, like *hawálás*, are heritable and transferable. There is a very large number of *hawálás*, *ausat hawálás* and *nim ausat hawálás* in the District. They occur in almost all parts of it, and many of them have been in existence from before the time of the Permanent Settlement, and are held at fixed rentals. The number of *nim ausat nim hawálás* is also large, but *tim hawálás* are very rare, the *batwárá* papers showing the existence of only two *tim hawálás* in *parganá* Aurangpur. It seems that this tenure is not generally recognised. In the District Report on Bákarganj, in the "History and

Statistics of the Dacca Division," it is stated that an attempt was once made to create a *tím hawálá*, but that it proved a failure. This story was repeated to the Deputy Collector in 1873 by every one whom he asked about the tenure, and it seems to be a general belief that *tím hawálá* is a tenure existing only in name. The Deputy Collector states that it is very probable that the two tenures at Aurangpur are of recent origin, and it is yet a matter of doubt whether they will be eventually recognised.

(10 and 11.) *Patní táluks* are created under Regulation VIII. of 1819, and need no description. An under-tenure created by a *patnídar* is called *dar patní*. There are few *patnís* and *dar patnís* in this District, and they occur chiefly in *parganá* Idalpur.

(12.) *Taksímí*.—According to Wilson this is a *táluk* which was separately registered in the original rent-roll or *tumar jamá* of the land revenue of Hindustán, and of which, under the British administration of Bengal, the lands and assessments are unalterable. The Collector of this District, in his letter to the Board dated 9th July 1812, says that *taksímí* grants are invariably made by a deed, and are liable to separation from the *zamíndárí* on fixed *jamá*. A *taksímí táluk* is not liable to measurement or enhancement of revenue, unless an increase is made upon the whole *parganá*. *Taksímí*, as also *tashkhisí*, *táluks*, are only found in *parganá* Idalpur.

(13.) *Tashkhisí* is an hereditary tenure, but not otherwise transferable, and its rent is liable to variation.

(14.) *Khand Kharíd*.—In *parganá* Kotwálípará, when a *tálukdár* sells any part of his *táluk* to another, the latter calls himself a *khand kharíddár* of so much land, and pays his rent to the *tálukdár*. The land purchased is called *khand kharíd*, and is heritable, transferable, and not liable to variation of rent.

(15.) *Zimmá*.—The following description of the *zimmá* system occurs in the Magistrate's letter to the Commissioner dated the 22d July 1872:—"The nature of the *zimmá* system is, that it is a transaction whereby a *rayat* puts himself under the protection of a foreign *zamíndár*. Sometimes the initiation is taken by the *zamíndár*, and sometimes by the *rayat*. Thus if a *rayat* finds that he cannot cope with his landlord, or that the latter will not give him the protection to which he considers himself entitled, he goes to a neighbouring *zamíndár* and offers to come under his *zimmá*, that is, he offers to do him homage, and to sell or lease his tenure to him, provided that he in turn protects him against his proper landlord, or helps him in

gaining some object which he has in view. Should the *zamíndár* accept this offer, an ordinary deed of sale or lease is drawn out, and he becomes the *zimmádár* of the *rayat*. The word *zimmá*, however, never appears in the deed, and it is chiefly by the circumstances of the case that a *zimmá* is distinguished from a regular mercantile transaction. These circumstances are generally that the right transferred is not one which is legally transferable, that the motive stated in the deed is not the true one, and that in reality the land does not change hands." When thus a *zimmá* is created, the *zamíndár's* connection with the *rayat* ceases. He gets his rent from the *zimmádárí* who in his turn becomes the genuine landlord of the *rayat*, and receives the *abwábs* or cesses, such as fees on marriage, &c. The *zimmá* system prevails in a more or less degree in all parts of the District, but it is most common in the southern quarters. Besides the class of *zimmá* tenures described above, there is another sort of tenure in the District called *zimmá*. A tenure of this kind resembles in every way a *shikmí táluk*, and is invariably held of the proprietor of an estate under direct engagement with Government. The peculiarity of this tenure is, that in no case has the *zimmádár* any direct concern with the *rayats*, his lands being all let out in under-tenures. The *zimmá* tenures of this kind are numerous in the District. They principally occur in *parganás* Salímábád and Chandradwíp.

(16.) *Mushkhasí*.—This is a *táluk* held at a fixed rental of the proprietors of estates under direct engagement with Government. It is hereditary, but not otherwise transferable. There are few *mushkhas* tenures in the District, and they occur chiefly in the north-eastern part of Mádárípur Subdivision.

(17.) *Abádkárí táluk* is much like a *jangalburí táluk;* the nature of it is, that it is a *táluk* granted to a person in consideration of his clearing the jungle, and bringing the land into cultivation. The *táluk* is at first held rent-free; it is then subject to a variable rent. The tenure may be cancelled in the event of the grantees failing to clear the jungles. *Táluks* of this kind are prevalent in all parts of the District, especially in alluvial lands. One instance is Char Bhitá in Dakshín Sháhbázpur, held immediately of Government at a rent of £29, 10s. It is hereditary and transferable, but liable to variation of rent.

(18 and 19.) *Mirásh* and *dár mirásh* are the same as *táluk* and *ausat táluk*. They occur chiefly in *parganá* Bangrorá in the Mádárípur Subdivision. In other parts of the District, the word *mirásh* is used in